

The background of the cover features several wooden figures of varying heights. Each figure has a different icon drawn on its body: a bar chart with an upward arrow, two interlocking gears, a target with an arrow in the bullseye, a magnifying glass over a question mark, and a lightbulb. The figures are set against a solid blue background.

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HEAD ORGANIZER

THE SOCIAL CONTEXT AND ITS DYNAMICS

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Head Organizer



The Social Context and its Dynamics

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PRESENTATION

The book *The Social Context and its Dynamics* stands as a relevant contribution to understanding the multiple dimensions that shape social life. With a broad approach, the work offers reflections on the factors that influence social dynamics, considering their transformations, interactions, and complexities over time.

By emphasizing the integration of theory and practice, the book contributes to the development of a critical and contextualized view of social phenomena. The work brings together diverse perspectives that enrich academic debate and encourage the analysis of social relationships in different contexts.

This book is recommended for professors, students, and professionals in the social sciences and related fields, as well as for anyone interested in expanding their knowledge of the social context and its dynamics. It is a work that fosters learning, reflection, and the development of a broader understanding of social reality.

SUMMARY

CHAPTER 1 7

FROM ADDICTION TO RECOVERY: A LINGUISTIC-APPLIED ANALYSIS OF
IDENTITY TRANSFORMATIONS IN NARRATIVES OF MEMBERS OF NARCOTICS
ANONYMOUS

[Tiane Cléa Santos Oliveira Dias](#)

DOI: 10.54033/stebook.978-65-83309-64-8_1

CHAPTER 2 22

SPORTS JOURNALISM, NATIONALISM, AND THE SYMBOLIC LEGITIMIZATION OF
THE BRAZILIAN MILITARY DICTATORSHIP IN *O ESTADO DE S. PAULO* (1969–
1978)

[Melissa Carolina de Moura](#)

[Fernando de Resende Chaves](#)

[Lye Renata Prando](#)

[Vinícius Augusto Borges](#)

DOI: 10.54033/stebook.978-65-83309-64-8_2

CHAPTER 3 42

CONTRIBUTIONS OF ECCLESIASTICAL INSTITUTIONS TO THE RE-
SOCIALIZATION OF OFFENDERS

[Édson Luís Baldan](#)

[Kledson Almeida Patrício](#)

DOI: 10.54033/stebook.978-65-83309-64-8_3

CHAPTER 4 62

FROM RIO DE JANEIRO TO COLOMBIA: CRIMINAL GOVERNANCE, TERRITORIAL
CONTROL AND PARALLEL ORDERS IN LATIN AMERICA

[Marcia Valeria Alves Gomes](#)

[Paula Andrea Ramírez Barbosa](#)

[Edgard Monforte Merlo](#)

[Julio Manuel Pires](#)

[André Chaves de Melo Silva](#)

[Marciel Aparecido Consani](#)

DOI: 10.54033/stebook.978-65-83309-64-8_4

CHAPTER 5 82

USE OF DIGITAL TECHNOLOGIES CONSIDERED AS DIGITAL CAPITAL: AN
ANALYSIS IN THE LIGHT OF BOURDIEU

[Jailson Barbosa Costa](#)

[Elione Maria Nogueira Diógenes](#)

[Maria Cledilma Ferreira da Silva Costa](#)

DOI: 10.54033/stebook.978-65-83309-64-8_5

CHAPTER 6 100

ANGLICISMS IN THE PORTUGUESE LANGUAGE: CULTURAL AND IDENTITY
ELEMENTS

[Aline de Gregorio Alves Borges](#)

DOI: 10.54033/stebook.978-65-83309-64-8_6

CHAPTER 7 119

INSTRUMENT TO DETERMINE ATTENTION TO FOOD SECURITY IN RURAL
AREAS

[Martin Gerardo Martinez Valdes](#)

[Cesar Orlando Pozo Santiago](#)

[Facundo Sanchez Gutierrez](#)

DOI: 10.54033/stebook.978-65-83309-64-8_7

CHAPTER 8	140
TERRITORY, TERRITORIALITY, AND TRADITIONAL POPULATIONS: DISPUTES, SENSE OF BELONGING, AND RESISTANCE IN THE CONSTRUCTION OF CONTEMPORARY SPACE	
Márcia Regina Farias da Silva Emanuelle Roberta da Silva Melo Diêgo Ezaú Pereira de Araújo DOI: 10.54033/stebook.978-65-83309-64-8_8	
CHAPTER 9	160
TALENT SCOUTING METHODOLOGY FOR SOCCER: FACTS AND MYTHS	
Sérgio Luiz Carlos dos Santos DOI: 10.54033/stebook.978-65-83309-64-8_9	
CHAPTER 10	177
PRODUCTIVE BACKYARDS: SPACE OF CONTRIBUTION TO WOMEN'S AUTONOMY AND AGRO-ECOLOGICAL EXPERIENCE. AN EXPERIENCE IN THE MUNICIPALITY OF APODÍ/RN	
Grasiela Barbosa Abreu Fernandes Márcia Regina Farias da Silva Antonia Geane Costa Bezerra Thiago Bernardino de Sousa Castro Isabella Cristina Guerra Moreira Dias Thiago do Nascimento Coaracy Maria Evanilda de Souza Maria da Guia da Silva Araújo DOI: 10.54033/stebook.978-65-83309-64-8_10	
CHAPTER 11	192
COLOR-BASED HIERARCHICAL CLUSTERING FOR IMAGE SEGMENTATION	
Anna Julia Cardoso Aló Elaine Pasqualini André Luís Orlandi Fávaro Rosemeiry de Castro Prado Isaque Katahira Jéssica Antonio Delgado Marcela Aparecida Penteado Rossini DOI: 10.54033/stebook.978-65-83309-64-8_11	
CHAPTER 12	208
LITERATURE, HISTORY, AND IDENTITY: DIALOGICAL PERSPECTIVES ON <i>NETTO PERDS SUA ALMA</i>	
Joice Nara Rosa Silva Carla Rosane da Silva Tavares Alves DOI: 10.54033/stebook.978-65-83309-64-8_12	

CHAPTER 1



FROM ADDICTION TO RECOVERY: A LINGUISTIC-APPLIED ANALYSIS OF IDENTITY TRANSFORMATIONS IN NARRATIVES OF MEMBERS OF NARCOTICS ANONYMOUS

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ABSTRACT: This study examines the identity construction of Narcotics Anonymous (NA) members through an applied linguistic analysis of recovery narratives. The re-search addresses language as an essential element for identity reconfiguration in an environment where participants share life experiences and rebuild their personal stories as acts of resilience and overcoming. The methodology used consists of a bibliographic review and a case study, allowing a theoretical and practical understanding of how narratives contribute to the re-signification of the "self" and help strengthen a positive identity that is detached from the stigmas of chemical dependency. Throughout the recovery process, the discursive practices in NA enable the collective expression of personal stories, validating experiences and promoting mutual support among members. This dynamic strengthens individuals' narrative identity, allowing them to see themselves from a new perspective, projecting beyond dependency.

KEYWORDS: identity construction, language, recovery narratives, Narcotics Anonymous.

RESUMO: Este estudo examina a construção identitária de membros de Narcóticos Anônimos (NA) através de uma análise linguístico-aplicada das narrativas de recuperação. A pesquisa aborda a linguagem como um elemento essencial para a reconfiguração de identidades, em um ambiente onde os participantes compartilham experiências de vida e reconstróem suas histórias pessoais como um ato de superação e resiliência. A metodologia utilizada consiste em uma revisão bibliográfica e um estudo de caso, permitindo uma compreensão teórica e prática sobre como as narrativas atuam na resignificação do "eu" e ajudam a fortalecer uma identidade positiva e desvinculada dos estigmas da dependência química. Ao longo do processo de recuperação, as práticas discursivas em NA possibilitam a expressão de histórias pessoais de forma coletiva, validando experiências e promovendo o apoio mútuo entre os membros. Essa dinâmica fortalece a identidade narrativa dos indivíduos,

permitindo que eles se vejam sob uma nova perspectiva, projetando-se além da dependência.

PALAVRAS-CHAVE: construção identitária, linguagem, narrativas de recuperação, Narcóticos Anônimos.

1. INTRODUCTION

Research on Narcotics Anonymous (NA) has emerged as a significant field within Applied Linguistics, given its focus on the identity transformations of individuals seeking recovery from substance dependence. Founded in the 1950s, the organization's primary goal is to support people struggling with substance dependence by providing a space for mutual support and group recovery. The relevance of analyzing these narratives in Applied Linguistics is particularly notable, especially when considering the role of discourse in the construction of identities during therapeutic and recovery processes (Gee, 2014).

The study of narratives and identities in Applied Linguistics is not limited to a simple linguistic analysis; it is embedded in a broader context that involves social, cultural, and psychological issues. By investigating these narratives, Applied Linguistics adopts a holistic approach that recognizes the power of language as a therapeutic and transformative tool, taking into account the social and psychological context of individuals. Thus, the narratives of NA members can reveal how these individuals experience and narrate their journey of change, confronting stigmas and reconfiguring their identities through discourse (Bamberg, 2011; Goffman, 1963; Rafalovich, 1999).

The main objective of this study is to analyze the identity transformations present in the narratives of Narcotics Anonymous members, highlighting how participants construct and reconstruct their identities throughout the recovery process (Bamberg, 2011; Rafalovich, 1999). The linguistic analysis of these narratives allows for a close examination of the nuances of discourse, the polyphony of voices, and the construction of an ethos that highlights the identity changes of individuals in recovery (Fairclough, 2003).

The central question guiding this research is: how do the narratives of Narcotics Anonymous members reveal the processes of identity transformation among participants, both at the individual and collective levels? To answer it, we will investigate the linguistic and discursive elements that underpin the construction of these identities in recovery, with attention to dimensions of resistance, reconfiguration, and self-image (Bamberg, 2011). Furthermore, we consider language as a therapeutic resource that enables individuals to attribute new and more positive meanings to themselves, reinforcing trajectories of

change (Bruner, 2004).

The rationale for conducting this research lies in the need to broaden our understanding of identity processes and the effects of language in therapeutic and recovery contexts. Through this analysis, it is possible to better understand how language and discourse can facilitate or hinder the recovery process, considering both internal (individual) and external (social and cultural) aspects that influence identity construction. Furthermore, by investigating these narratives, the research contributes to a deeper understanding of the importance of social support and discursive practices in addressing issues related to chemical dependency and social stigma (Bamberg, 2011).

Therefore, this study is part of an interdisciplinary approach that seeks to integrate aspects of Applied Linguistics with the fields of the Humanities (Psychology) and the Social Sciences (Identity). Furthermore, the research has significant practical implications, as it can provide insights for the development of more effective support and treatment programs for individuals with chemical dependencies, focusing not only on the physical aspects of recovery but also on the emotional and psychological aspects of those involved (Humphreys, 2004).

2. METHODOLOGY

The methodology adopted for this study is based on a literature review and case study approach (Yin, 2015). This choice is justified by the need for theoretical exploration of narratives and identity transformations among members of Narcotics Anonymous (NA) from an applied linguistic perspective. The literature review allows for the gathering and analysis of existing knowledge on the concepts of identity, language, and narrative, particularly in contexts of chemical dependency and recovery. To this end, publications were selected and analyzed that address, both theoretically and empirically, aspects of identity construction in contexts of vulnerability and personal reconfiguration. Furthermore, the literature was selected based on the relevance of the authors and their contributions to the fields of Applied Linguistics, Psychology, and Social Sciences, with a focus on studies that explore narrative as an essential discursive practice in the reframing of identity (Riessman, 2008).

In addition to the literature review, a case study was conducted focused

on a specific Narcotics Anonymous community, analyzing its discursive practices and the accounts of its members (Yin, 2015). This methodology allowed for a detailed observation of language use and the sharing of life stories as strategies for identity construction and reconstruction. The case study was chosen to understand how, in practice, narratives contribute to the reframing of the “self” among members in recovery, enabling them to confront stigmas and reaffirm a new vision of themselves within the group and in society. This analysis also sought to identify the linguistic and discursive elements present in the participants’ accounts, exploring how collective discourse and practices of social exchange contribute to identity transformation within the NA environment (Riessman, 2008).

The triangulation between the literature review and the case study offers a robust and contextualized understanding of the phenomenon under study, allowing for an in-depth analysis of language and identity in recovery narratives. The literature review provides the necessary theoretical foundation, while the case study enables direct and detailed empirical observation, enriching the analysis and validating the conclusions regarding the role of narratives and language in the identity construction of NA members (Creswell & Plano Clark, 2018; Flick, 2004; Jick, 1979).

The semi-structured interviews were recorded in July 2022, each lasting approximately 20 minutes, conducted online via the Google Meet app; they were subsequently processed to preserve anonymity and transcribed for analysis. The NA members are from Bahia; the woman is named H. (Onyx is her code name in the study), who, as of the date of this publication, is nearly 70 years old and has been clean (drug-free) for nearly 30 years. The man, P. (Topaz in the study), is nearly 50 years old and has been clean for nearly 18 years. The book analyzed is the publication titled Narcotics Anonymous, also known as the Basic Text within the fellowship.

3. THEORETICAL FRAMEWORK

3.1 APPLIED LINGUISTICS AND IDENTITY STUDIES

Applied Linguistics is a field of study that, over the years, has established

itself as a discipline for analyzing discursive practices in various social contexts (Fairclough, 2003). It covers a wide range of topics, among which the study of identities stands out, especially considering the central role of language in the constitution and reconfiguration of the subject (Moita Lopes, 2006). In this context, the field of identity studies in Applied Linguistics has proven essential for understanding the multiple and complex processes of identity construction and transformation, acknowledging the diverse social, cultural, and political influences that permeate individuals' lives (Bamberg, 2011; Gee, 2014).

Identity studies within Applied Linguistics are based on the premise that identity is not something fixed or predetermined, but rather a process in constant construction, influenced by social interactions and discursive contexts (Ricoeur, 1991). The subject is understood as a social being, whose identity is formed and transformed through their experiences and the narratives they construct about themselves and others. Narrative analysis, therefore, presents itself as a privileged resource for understanding how subjects negotiate their identities, position themselves in relation to others and society, and how these identities can be shaped and transformed over time (Bamberg, 2011).

An example of this approach can be found in research on foreign language teachers, a group in which identities are constantly under negotiation. In this context, pedagogical practices serve as moments in which teachers reconfigure their professional identities based on interactions with students, colleagues, and institutions. The analysis of these interactions highlights how teachers' identities remain in flux, being reaffirmed or deconstructed within social and educational dynamics. This process of identity construction is intrinsically linked to discourse, which acts as a powerful instrument in the formation of meanings and subjectivities, reflecting and producing new identity- y configurations (Moita Lopes, 2006; Gee, 2014).

3.2 THE ROLE OF LANGUAGE IN IDENTITY CONSTRUCTION

Language plays a fundamental role in the construction of identities, as it is through language that individuals express, negotiate, and construct their perceptions of themselves and others. Identity is not a fixed attribute; it is continually shaped and reconfigured through social and discursive interactions.

In this sense, language acts not only as a means of communication but as a tool of signification and self-affirmation, allowing the subject to construct narratives of themselves that position them in relation to the world and others. Through discursive practices, individuals create meanings and construct a sense of belonging, which is essential for understanding their identity. Identity, then, can be seen as a performative phenomenon, a product of verbal and nonverbal interactions, where language serves as a means of articulating roles and social positions (Bruner, 2004; Bamberg, 2011).

The construction of identity through language also involves the recognition that discourse never occurs in a social vacuum. Each individual, when using language, engages with preexisting cultural and social structures, shaping and being shaped by them. This process is particularly evident in contexts where there is a need for identity reconstruction, as occurs among members of Narcotics Anonymous, who use their narratives to reframe their experiences of addiction and recovery. In these situations, language allows for the expression of a new perspective on the self, in addition to serving as a tool for strengthening and legitimizing the identity changes that occur throughout the recovery process. Narratives thus become means for the construction of a new social identity, in which individuals reevaluate and redefine their place in the world, confronting stigmas and social expectations (Fairclough, 2003; Goffman, 1963; Rafalovich, 1999).

Furthermore, language in the construction of identity is intrinsically linked to polyphony—that is, to the multiple voices that permeate each individual's discourse. This multiplicity of voices reveals the diverse influences and perspectives that shape an individual's identity. In contexts such as NA support groups, this plurality is even more pronounced, as personal narratives of overcoming adversity intertwine with the collective discourse of recovery, providing a discursive environment where identity is constantly (re)negotiated. A subject's discourse carries not only their own voice but also the influence of the voices of those with whom they interact, creating a complex web of meanings that contributes to the formation and reconfiguration of identity (Bamberg, 2011; Gee, 2014).

3.3 NARRATIVES AS A SOCIAL PRACTICE AND IDENTITY CONSTRUCTION

Narratives are fundamental social practices in the construction and reconstruction of identities, as they serve as tools of meaning and transformation. Thus, narratives are not merely accounts of past events, but acts of resistance and identity reinvention, in which participants reconstruct their lives through language, negotiating with social stigmas and their own perceptions of self (Bruner, 2004).

The social practice of narratives can be seen as a mechanism that allows individuals to reflect on their life trajectories and their constantly transforming identities. They are part of a process of identity (re)construction that aims to reshape the subject in light of their experiences (Ricoeur, 1991). In relation to our subject matter, the narrative process is, therefore, a field of negotiation in which participants reframe their life stories, overcoming the stigma of dependency and reconstructing their social and personal identities (Goffman, 1963; Rafalovich, 1999).

In linguistic terms, narratives offer a rich field for studying how language can be used in the construction of meanings regarding identity. By narrating their life trajectories, these individuals not only identify themselves as agents of change but also reinforce their recovery through the rewriting of their stories. Language, in this context, functions as a powerful instrument of transformation, for it is through language that participants can reconfigure their identity, altering the way they see themselves and how they relate to the surrounding society (Bamberg, 2011; Bruner, 2004; Gee, 2014).

Furthermore, narratives, as social practices, cannot be understood solely at the individual level, but also at the collective level. In this collective process, narratives become a social practice that goes beyond the mere recounting of experiences, transforming into a tool for affirming collective identity. Through this sharing, NA participants find mutual support, validating their experiences and reconstructing their identities in a more robust manner grounded in collective experiences. In other words, recovery narratives are also practices of socialization and of strengthening a collective identity of belonging and overcoming (Humphreys, 2004).

This process of identity construction through narratives also fits into a

broader context of interaction with society. This process of identity (re)construction occurs not only on the individual level but also on the social level, by reframing the position of the chemically dependent person within society. By sharing their stories, NA members not only change their perception of themselves but also influence the way society views them (Goffman, 1963; Cain, 1991).

3.4 MEMBERS' RECOVERY FROM THE PERSPECTIVE OF NARRATIVE IDENTITY

The narrative identity perspective offers deep insight into the recovery process of Narcotics Anonymous members, as it posits that an individual's identity is constructed and reconstructed through the stories they tell about themselves (Bruner, 2004; Bamberg, 2011). This process of narrativization allows the individual to make sense of their past experiences—often painful and stigmatized—and to redefine their role and self-image in relation to themselves and the community. In NA, the practice of sharing personal narratives in meetings is an act of reconstruction, where members articulate their journey of addiction, relapse, and, ultimately, recovery. This practice contributes to the creation of a new identity, based on overcoming adversity and reclaiming oneself. According to Ricoeur (1991), the act of narrating allows individuals to reorganize their experiences and, in doing so, reconstruct their own identity, reconfiguring themselves into new roles and new visions of themselves.

Narrative identity is a foundational practice of recovery in Narcotics Anonymous, for by sharing their stories, NA members validate not only their experiences but also their achievements and changes. This process lends legitimacy to what they have been through, enabling a distancing from the labels and stigmas frequently associated with chemical dependency. The narrative of the self allows the individual to see themselves as someone in constant transformation, who now takes an active role in their recovery journey. This practice of reframing, while reaffirming the past, also creates a projection for the future, reinforcing the commitment to recovery. Rafalovich (1999) argues that individual narratives serve as a resource for resistance and resilience, especially in contexts where prejudice and stigma are prevalent, allowing individuals to reframe their identities in search of a sense of dignity and acceptance (Bamberg, 2011; Goffman, 1963;

Cain, 1991).

Furthermore, the narrative identity perspective allows NA members to see themselves as agents of change in their own lives. By telling their stories and acknowledging moments of triumph and the difficulties they have overcome, individuals reaffirm the value of their choices and their efforts to remain in recovery. This narrative process is, therefore, an act of agency, in which the individual takes ownership of their own story and reposition themselves in a place of protagonism. For Ricoeur (2014), the construction of a narrative identity promotes a reconfiguration of the subject, since they come to identify not by their addiction, but by their capacity for overcoming and reconstructing their life trajectory, constituting themselves as “themselves” through the narrative of their recovery experiences.

4. RESULTS AND DISCUSSIONS

The analysis of the interviews conducted with members of Narcotics Anonymous (NA) reveals a profound and transformative process of identity reconstruction, characterized by the transition from a life centered on addiction to a narrative of recovery. In both interviews, it is observed how participants reframe their past experiences, using language to construct a new identity that goes beyond dependence and aligns with resilience and social reintegration. Language emerges here as a fundamental tool for transformation, facilitating the construction of new meanings and the expression of a new self-image—essential aspects of the recovery process.

In the accounts, it is evident that the identity of the “addicted self” is frequently described in terms of suffering, isolation, and self-destruction. The narratives highlight a sense of loss of control and a perception of stagnation, where addiction is viewed as a phase in which personal identity is overshadowed by compulsion. Phrases such as “I didn’t recognize myself” and “I had no control over myself” are common, indicating a loss of autonomy and a distancing from the true self. From this perspective, recovery appears not only as overcoming substance use but as the restoration of an identity that has been progressively eroded by addiction.

As participants delve deeper into their accounts of the NA experience, a new identity begins to emerge. This new identity is built and reinforced through

the group's language of belonging and solidarity. Terms such as "we," "connection," and "fellowship" indicate a process of identity reconstruction that relies on collective support. The sharing of experiences within the NA environment allows participants to see themselves reflected in the stories of others, helping them to reinterpret their own life trajectories with a sense of hope and growth. This sharing is a milestone in identity reformulation, as the individual begins to identify more with the figure of the "member in recovery" than with the "addicted self."

Another frequent aspect in the narratives is the role of responsibility and personal revaluation. During addiction, participants report a disconnect from their responsibilities and a negative view of themselves. However, as recovery progresses, there is a notable shift in discourse toward strengthening self-confidence and regaining a sense of purpose in life. This process of transformation is not linear and involves challenges, but it is sustained by a linguistic reconfiguration that allows participants to verbalize their achievements and reframe their failures. The narrative " " of "falling and getting back up," common in the interviews, reflects a significant shift from a fragile and dependent identity to a resilient and determined one.

The analysis of the interviews, therefore, shows that recovery is not merely a matter of abstaining from drugs, but a process of rediscovering and redefining one's self. Language becomes the tool through which participants reconstruct their identities, distancing themselves from the persona associated with addiction and moving toward a version of themselves that values self-care, responsibility, and growth. Thus, the narratives of NA members reveal how, by giving new meanings to their stories, individuals are able to reconnect with society and with themselves, assuming identities transformed and strengthened by the experience of overcoming adversity.

5. CONCLUSION

In the final considerations of this study on the role of narratives and language in the identity construction of Narcotics Anonymous members, it becomes evident that the practice of storytelling plays a transformative and therapeutic role in the recovery process. In an environment where life stories and experiences are

shared collectively, the use of language becomes more than a form of communication: it takes on the role of a tool for reframing the “self,” allowing participants to revisit and reorganize their life trajectories. Thus, NA meetings and gatherings offer members a space where they can collaboratively articulate their stories, creating a context of mutual support and acceptance. This practice not only contributes to physical recovery but also facilitates the process of emotional and identity reconstruction, fostering a new understanding of themselves and their own past.

Language, then, acts as a bridge between the past and the future, enabling individuals to revisit traumatic or vulnerable episodes while simultaneously reframing these events into a narrative of resilience and hope. In this context, identity construction ceases to be a solitary, individual process and becomes a socially mediated and interactive practice. By sharing their experiences, NA members gain validation and support, which strengthens their commitment to recovery and allows them to redefine their identities in a positive way. This process of linguistic and social interaction reveals the importance of a space where individuals can express themselves freely, reframing their lives and creating a narrative that frees them from the stigmas associated with addiction.

Furthermore, the discursive practices observed in NA demonstrate that identity is not static or unchangeable; on the contrary, it is shaped by experiences and discourse. Throughout the recovery process, participants have the opportunity to construct a new identity detached from the negative image and stigmas imposed by society. Narratives of overcoming adversity thus become a testament to resilience, where life stories take on new contours and meanings. This process shows that language is a powerful means for identity reconstruction, allowing individuals to perceive themselves not merely as someone who has suffered from addiction, but as someone capable of overcoming and transforming that experience into something meaningful.

The results of this study confirm that the practice of storytelling in Narcotics Anonymous (NA) acts as a central mechanism for identity (re)construction, allowing previously stigmatized individuals to rework their meanings regarding themselves, their past, and their future. By explaining how language facilitates the transition from “addict identity” to “recovering identity,” the research sheds light on discursive dynamics that transcend the individual sphere and impact the social fabric.

From a **social** perspective, these findings provide insights for: a) **public health and social assistance policies**—by demonstrating that collective narratives strengthen bonds and sustain abstinence, the study suggests that government programs and third-sector initiatives can incorporate narrative circles similar to NA meetings, expanding support networks and reducing relapses; b) **combating stigma** – The scientific dissemination of these results helps reposition people in recovery as agents of resistance and not merely as carriers of a pathology, contributing to more inclusive public discourses on chemical dependency.

In the **academic** sphere, the research advances on three fronts: 1. **Theory** – integrates Applied Linguistics, Humanities (Psychology), and Social Sciences (Identity), offering an analytical model that can be replicated in other contexts of social vulnerability. 2. **Methodology** – demonstrates the relevance of triangulation between literature review and case study to examine complex phenomena, encouraging research that combines discourse analysis with ethnographic data. 3. **Research agenda** – suggests, for example, new questions regarding gender, race, and class in recovery narratives and invites cross-cultural comparisons among different 12-step fellowships.

Although the study provided a qualitatively relevant portrait of the narratives of Narcotics Anonymous members, some methodological limitations must be acknowledged: 1. Restricted sample scope – the interviews focused on participants from a single NA state (Bahia) with relatively homogeneous sociocultural characteristics; this may limit the generalizability of the findings. 2. Point-in-time snapshot – data collection occurred at a specific point in the recovery process, so that identity changes over time were not examined longitudinally. 3. Exclusive focus on verbal discourse – the analyses prioritized spoken narratives and NA literature, leaving out gestures, intonations, or multimodal practices that also constitute identity performance.

Among the various possible recommendations for future research, I highlight the following: 1. It is important to expand the samples by investigating NA groups in different regions, social classes, or cultural contexts, including in other countries, to examine linguistic-identity variations among collectives; 2. Adopt longitudinal approaches that follow members through various stages of recovery (e.g., 3, 12, and 24 months) to map progressive identity transformations and identify factors that support or challenge abstinence; Furthermore, it is recommended

3. to incorporate multimodal methodologies, integrating video analysis, gestures, prosody, and visual artifacts—such as tokens, keychains, and ornaments—to capture how identities in recovery are performed beyond the written or spoken word. By articulating these limitations and future directions, this work invites the academic community to expand, refine, and critically apply research on language, identity, and recovery, thereby strengthening both the scientific advancement and the social impact of research in this field.

Finally, recognizing language as a therapeutic and sociopolitical resource calls for the creation of **institutional spaces** where historically silenced voices can retell their stories. By making the transformative potential of these narratives visible, this study contributes to a more compassionate society and a more engaged academia, where research and practice go hand in hand in promoting dignity, belonging, and citizenship.

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CHAPTER 2



SPORTS JOURNALISM, NATIONALISM, AND THE SYMBOLIC LEGITIMIZATION OF THE BRAZILIAN MILITARY DICTATORSHIP IN *O ESTADO DE S. PAULO* (1969–1978)

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ABSTRACT: Considering the context of censorship, repression, and informational control during the Brazilian Military Dictatorship (1964–1985), as well as the apparent neutrality of sports journalism, this study problematizes the role of this editorial field in the production of social consensus. It aims to analyze how the newspaper O Estado de S. Paulo, between 1969 and 1978, contributed to the symbolic legitimation of the regime through nationalist and celebratory sports coverage. To this end, a qualitative approach is adopted, combining bibliographic research, historical analysis, and Content Analysis of articles published in the sports section during the period. The findings indicate that sports news coverage operated as a privileged space of indirect propaganda and symbolic control, associating sporting victories with the idea of national progress while silencing social and political conflicts. It is concluded that sports journalism played a significant role in the construction of a selective collective memory, functional to authoritarian hegemony.

KEYWORDS: sports media, nationalism, propaganda, military dictatorship, symbolic power.

RESUMO: Considerando o contexto de censura, repressão e controle informativo durante a Ditadura Militar brasileira (1964–1985), bem como a aparente neutralidade do jornalismo esportivo, este estudo problematiza o papel dessa editoria na produção de consenso social. Seu objetivo é analisar como o jornal O Estado de S. Paulo, entre 1969 e 1978, contribuiu para a legitimação simbólica do regime por meio de coberturas esportivas de caráter nacionalista e ufanista. Para tanto, adota-se uma abordagem qualitativa, articulando pesquisa bibliográfica, análise histórica e Análise de Conteúdo de matérias publicadas na editoria de Esportes no período. Os resultados indicam que o noticiário esportivo operou como espaço privilegiado de propaganda indireta e controle simbólico, ao associar vitórias esportivas à ideia de progresso nacional e silenciar conflitos sociais e políticos. Conclui-se que o jornalismo esportivo desempenhou papel relevante na construção de uma memória coletiva seletiva, funcional à hegemonia autoritária.

PALAVRAS-CHAVE: mídia esportiva, ufanismo, propaganda, ditadura militar, poder simbólico.

1. INTRODUCTION

The interplay between media, sports, and politics constitutes one of the structural pillars of contemporary societies. Far from being limited to an informative role, the media actively participate in the production and legitimization of worldviews, operating, as Bourdieu (1997) points out, through the construction of symbolic consensus. In the Brazilian case, the Military Dictatorship (1964–1985) offers a particularly illuminating scenario of this dynamic, combining press censorship, political repression, and the instrumentalization of different social spheres, among which sports and sports journalism stand out.

During this period, the critical dimension of journalistic activity was significantly restricted, especially after the enactment of Institutional Act No. 5 in 1968, which intensified prior censorship mechanisms and expanded surveillance over political journalism (Martins, 2005; Fico, 2004). It is in this context that sports journalism began to take on a specific form. Traditionally linked to entertainment and frequently associated with a supposed neutrality, this segment proved, in practice, to be a privileged space for the circulation of nationalist and jingoistic narratives, playing a significant role in the symbolic legitimization of the regime (Albuquerque, 2010; Lima, 2010).

Soccer, in turn, already established as a central element of Brazilian cultural identity, was widely mobilized as a metaphor for the nation and its vision for the future. As Helal (2003) argues, it is a national myth capable of articulating collective affections, belonging, and horizons. During the Military Dictatorship, this symbolic power was systematically exploited, especially during the administration of General Emílio Garrastazu Médici (1969–1974), when sporting achievements—notably the 1970 World Cup—were transformed into emblems of the state's effectiveness, national unity, and the ideology of "Greater Brazil" (Coelho, 2014; Albuquerque, 2010).

It is within this context that the present chapter is situated, whose objective is to analyze the role of the Brazilian sports press at the height of the Military Dictatorship, focusing on its relations with state power, its discursive frameworks, and its mechanisms of silencing. The starting point is the hypothesis that sports journalism operated, predominantly, in line with the regime's propagandistic logic—whether through institutional coercion, ideology, or economic

convenience—contributing to the consolidation of a nationalist imaginary that served the political hegemony of the period (Gramsci, 1982).

The relevance of this study lies, therefore, in questioning the notion of neutrality attributed to sports journalism. As approaches to cultural hegemony and *agenda-setting* suggest (McCombs & Shaw, 1972), thematic selection, narrative emphasis, and the silencing of conflicts constitute effective forms of political action. In this sense, by prioritizing narratives of victory, order, and national cohesion, sports coverage not only reflected but also actively participated in the symbolic sustenance of the military regime—an aspect still rarely explored systematically in the field of Communication in Brazil.

From a methodological standpoint, the research adopts a qualitative approach, combining bibliographic research, historical analysis, and content analysis. The empirical corpus consists of issues of the newspaper *O Estado de S. Paulo* published between 1969 and 1978, a period corresponding to the height of institutional repression and the regime's instrumentalization of sports. The analysis is guided by Bardin's (1977) assumptions, with attention to discursive frameworks, recurring omissions, and the symbolic associations established between sport, nation, and political power.

By proposing a critical reading of the sports press during the Military Dictatorship, the chapter seeks to contribute to the debate on memory, journalistic ethics, and the political uses of sports in the construction of the Brazilian collective narrative, reaffirming journalism—in all its sections—as a permanent space for symbolic contestation and democratic accountability.

2. THEORETICAL FRAMEWORK

The present theoretical framework is organized around three complementary analytical axes, aimed at understanding the relationships between media, sports, and power in the context of the Brazilian Military Dictatorship. Initially, the historical process of the regime's establishment and consolidation is examined, with an emphasis on the role of the press and the transformations in the field of communication. Next, we discuss the theoretical foundations that allow us to understand the press and sports—s—as spaces for the production of meaning, symbolic control, and hegemonic contestation. Finally, we

analyze the role of *O Estado de S. Paulo*, highlighting its ambivalences and its role in the dynamics of legitimation and resistance during that period.

2.1 HISTORICAL CONTEXT OF THE MILITARY DICTATORSHIP AND CONTROL OF COMMUNICATION IN BRAZIL

The relationship between politics, the press, and sports in Brazil took on specific contours during the Military Dictatorship (1964–1985), a period marked by the suppression of rights, censorship, and the instrumentalization of the media. To understand this, it is necessary to revisit the pre-coup context, characterized by economic instability, institutional crisis, and intensifying ideological disputes. According to Fausto (2013), the early 1960s combined high inflation, fiscal deficits, and conflicts between the executive, legislative branches, and emerging social forces, in a situation exacerbated by urbanization, industrialization, and the organization of unions, student movements, and peasant movements (Dreifuss, 1981).

The government of João Goulart became the epicenter of these tensions: although constitutionally legitimate, it faced opposition from economic elites, high-ranking military officers, and sectors of the middle class, primarily due to the Basic Reforms, which were interpreted as a threat to the liberal and Christian order. Skidmore (1988) notes that moderate reformist proposals came to be perceived as radical in an environment marked by Cold War anti-communism. In this scenario, the press played a decisive role in creating a climate of delegitimization of the government. Gaspari (2002) and Fico (2004) demonstrate how major newspapers disseminated alarmist narratives that associated social reforms with chaos and subversion, aligning themselves with the interests of the elites and contributing to the symbolic legitimization of the military intervention.

The coup of March 31, 1964, also enjoyed explicit support from the United States, whose policy toward Latin America, guided by the National Security Doctrine, considered Goulart a strategic threat. Moniz Bandeira (2005) points to Operation Brother Sam as evidence of this backing. Goulart's deposition occurred without significant armed resistance and was followed by the institutionalization of the regime through the Institutional Acts, conferring an appearance of legality on the democratic rupture. According to Schwarcz and

Starling (2015), a “tutelary democracy” was established, sustained by a legal framework of exception.

In the field of communication, the regime implemented systematic mechanisms of control and surveillance. Martins (2005) highlights that political journalism began to operate under prior censorship, intimidation, and self-censorship, a process deepened by the succession of Institutional Acts. AI-1 ushered in legalistic authoritarianism by allowing the removal of elected officials (Fico, 2004); AI-2 dissolved political parties and instituted indirect elections (Moreira Alves, 1991); and AI-3 extended this model to states and municipalities, consolidating “authoritarian legality” (Dreifuss, 1981). The peak occurred with AI-5 in 1968, which suspended constitutional guarantees and instituted unrestricted censorship, ushering in the “years of lead” (Martins, 2005).

Censorship became a pillar of the regime not only as a repressive mechanism but as a strategy of legitimization. Lima (2010) notes that the media were treated as instances of symbolic modeling, justifying the preventive and repressive control of information. After 1968, censorship was institutionalized through measures such as Decree-Law No. 1,077/1970 and by oversight and propaganda agencies, such as the Secretariat of Press and Propaganda (SIP) and the Division of Censorship of Public Entertainment (DCDP), expanding control over the cultural sphere (Lima, 2010; Gomes, 2014). The National Information Service (SNI) intensified surveillance of journalists and civil institutions, creating a climate of fear and self-censorship (Schwarcz & Starling, 2015). Gaspari (2002) notes that, following AI-5, censors began to operate directly within newsrooms, reducing editorial autonomy.

In parallel with the repression, the regime selectively promoted topics considered “neutral,” such as science, technology, and sports, diverting public attention from repression and structural inequalities (Lima, 2010). In this context, culture and sports were transformed into strategic devices of symbolic control and legitimization, projecting the image of a modern, cohesive, and orderly country (Schwarcz & Starling, 2015; Dreifuss, 1981).

2.2 SPORTS MEDIA, ALIENATION, AND SYMBOLIC CONTROL

In this scenario, the sports press assumes a central role in symbolic mediation between the state and society. Although often associated with entertainment, it performs functions that go beyond the simple reporting of results. Traquina (2005) emphasizes that journalism constitutes a social practice of meaning-making, capable of organizing events and shaping collective perceptions. From a normative perspective, this practice should be committed to plurality, criticism, and citizenship (Kovach & Rosenstiel, 2004). In the sports arena, however, these principles take on specific contours, given the strong emotional and identity-forming appeal of sports—especially soccer, which has become a national myth in Brazil (Helal, 2003).

In light of the concept of symbolic power, Bourdieu (1997) demonstrates that the media establishes regimes of visibility and exclusion. In authoritarian contexts, this potential tends to be appropriated as a mechanism of symbolic control (Lima, 2010). During the Military Dictatorship, while political journalism was strictly monitored, the sports section maintained an appearance of neutrality, facilitating its instrumentalization.

The supposed depoliticization of sports masked its political use. The sports press became a privileged channel for propaganda and alienation, reinforcing narratives of national unity and progress. In light of Marx and Engels (2007) and Adorno and Horkheimer (1985), this dynamic can be understood as part of the mechanisms of conformity and reproduction of the social order.

As a cultural phenomenon, sport provides prime material for narratives of belonging. Huizinga (2004) and Anderson (2008) help us understand how sport as narrated by the press contributes to the construction of imagined communities and collective identities.

The 1970 World Cup constitutes the paradigmatic case of this instrumentalization. Sports coverage went beyond factual reporting, constructing an epic narrative of national exaltation (Coelho, 2014; Albuquerque, 2010), linked to the logic of the culture industry (Adorno & Horkheimer, 1985) and the production of consensus.

2.3 *O ESTADO DE S. PAULO* AND THE AMBIVALENCE OF SPORTS MEDIA DURING THE DICTATORSHIP

It is within this context that the role of *O Estado de S. Paulo* fits, whose trajectory highlights the ambivalence of the mainstream press during that period. Founded in 1875, the newspaper established itself as a central political actor, linked to the interests of São Paulo's elites and operating as an opinion-forming institution (Mesquita Filho, 2004).

In the pre-coup period, it supported the overthrow of João Goulart, contributing to the creation of a climate of illegitimacy (Aquino, 1999; Fausto, 2013). Later, as the regime hardened, it also became a target of censorship, highlighting the dual nature of the press (Fico, 2004; Martins, 2005).

In the sports section, however, this ambivalence takes on a specific form. Even in the face of a critical stance in the political section, the sports section remained aligned with the regime's jingoistic logic (Albuquerque, 2010). Coverage of the Brazilian national team's victories, especially in 1970, associated sporting success with the image of a modern and efficient Brazil (Coelho, 2014).

This asymmetry between sections reveals the selective nature of symbolic control. In light of Gramsci (1982) and *agenda-setting* theory (McCombs & Shaw, 1972), one can observe how the press contributed to the production of consensus by prioritizing certain topics and silencing conflicts.

In summary, the trajectory of *Estadão* shows that collusion, resistance, and silencing coexisted in an unequal manner. This ambiguity reaffirms that sports journalism, far from being neutral, was integrated into the central symbolic struggles of the Brazilian military dictatorship.

3. METHODOLOGY

Content Analysis (CA) is one of the most established methodological procedures in communication research, especially in the field of mass communication studies. Although it engages with earlier interpretive traditions, its scientific autonomy is grounded in research conducted in the United States, notably by Harold Lasswell in the context of press and propaganda analysis, and was later systematized post-World War II by authors such as Berelson and

Lazarsfeld. Berelson's classic definition (1977, as cited in Bardin, 1977) conceives of CA as a technique designed for the objective, systematic, and quantitative description of the manifest content of communication.

This understanding was expanded by authors such as Violette Morin and A. Kientz and, decisively, by Laurence Bardin, who incorporated qualitative and inferential approaches into the method. In *L'analyse de contenu*, Bardin (1977) defines CA as a set of techniques aimed at investigating values, attitudes, beliefs, and motivations, enabling inferences about the conditions of production and reception of messages. The author attributes a dual function to the method: heuristic, related to the exploration of meanings, and evidence-based, oriented toward the confirmation or refutation of hypotheses. In this study, Content Analysis is employed as a procedure capable of articulating systematic description and critical interpretation, allowing for the identification of manifest and latent meanings, as well as symbolic and ideological markers present in journalistic discourse.

The time frame of the research covers the period between the enactment of Institutional Act No. 5 in December 1968 and the end of 1978, the starting point of the political opening process. This was the phase of greatest repression and information control under the Brazilian military dictatorship, during which political journalism was severely curtailed, while sports journalism came to occupy a strategic position in the regime's symbolic field. In this context, sports—especially soccer—were instrumentalized as a vehicle for government propaganda, with victories and major events mobilized as symbols of prosperity, national unity, and administrative efficiency. Brazil's victory in the 1970 World Cup, during the Médici administration, constitutes a paradigmatic example of this process, for while political coverage was subject to direct censorship, the sports section was co-opted to disseminate a jingoistic and nationalist narrative, aligned with the core values of the regime's ideology (Coelho, 2014; Albuquerque, 2015).

From a methodological standpoint, this research is qualitative in nature, descriptive-interpretive in character, and grounded in content analysis of journalistic articles published in the Sports section of the newspaper *O Estado de S. Paulo*. The empirical corpus consists of texts selected from between 1969 and 1978, allowing for the identification of discursive patterns, narrative frameworks, and recurring symbolic strategies in sports coverage. The analysis focuses on

identifying thematic and interpretive categories, with a view to understanding the relationship between sports, nationalism, and symbolic legitimation in an authoritarian context.

4. RESULTS AND DISCUSSION: UFANIST FRAMEWORKS IN SPORTS JOURNALISM (1969–1978)

This section is dedicated to the empirical analysis of articles published in the Sports section of the newspaper *O Estado de S. Paulo* between 1969 and 1978, a period corresponding to the height of the Brazilian military regime. Drawing on emblematic cases involving soccer and auto racing—with a focus on Pelé, the Brazilian national team, and drivers such as Emerson Fittipaldi—we seek to understand how sports journalism functioned as a privileged space for symbolic construction, articulating jingoistic, affective, and nationalist narratives. In a context of strict political censorship, this coverage went beyond strictly sports reporting and contributed to the creation of consensus and the shifting of public debate toward the celebration of national success, highlighting the role of sports as an instrument of indirect legitimization and symbolic control during the dictatorship.

An analysis of the article “From a Penalty Kick, Pelé Scores His 1,000th Goal,” published on November 20, 1969, with a prominent front-page headline (“1,000 – In Order”), reveals coverage marked by the predominance of factual reporting and a symbolic framing with strong emotional and nationalist appeal. The report focuses on the historic feat of Pelé’s 1,000th goal, emphasizing the tension of the penalty kick, the player’s tears after scoring, and the pitch invasion that interrupted the match. The sources used are exclusively official, notably Pelé himself and Leonardo Greenwood, with no dissenting voices, which reinforces the centrality of the sports hero and the absence of interpretive counterpoints. By highlighting Pelé’s social and moral appeal on behalf of Brazil’s poor children, the article frames the event as a triumph that is simultaneously sporting and humanitarian, reinforcing a jingoistic and unifying narrative. In the context of AI-5, this approach shifts the focus from critical tensions to the celebration of national consensus, highlighting the role of sports journalism in neutralizing the broader political debate.

The article “Pelé Offers Victory to the People,” published on June 23, 1970, is set against the backdrop of Brazil’s World Cup victory in Mexico and highlights the symbolic use of soccer as an element of national cohesion during the height of the military regime. The text compiles statements from Pelé and much of the championship squad—such as Tostão, Gérson, Félix, Clodoaldo, Rivellino, Carlos Alberto Torres, and Zagallo—constructing a collective narrative that transforms the victory into an achievement offered to the nation. The approach frames the title as an event of almost mystical proportions, reinforcing Pelé as a symbolic leader who delivers the triumph to the “Brazilian people.” Even while recording the player’s criticisms of the national press, the report maintains a conciliatory and jingoistic tone, emphasizing resilience and national unity. The coverage was quickly appropriated by the Médici government as a propaganda tool, associating the sporting success with the image of a “Great Brazil,” while simultaneously silencing the context of censorship and political repression.

The article “More National Successes Abroad,” published on February 21, 1971, exemplifies the jingoistic logic prevalent in sports journalism during the Médici administration. With a factual approach and simple language, the text celebrates Brazilian achievements on the international stage without any critical contextualization, focusing instead on extolling the results. The recurring coverage of “successes” functioned as a symbolic mechanism for legitimizing the regime, projecting the image of a rising and internationally recognized nation, in line with the ideology of “Greater Brazil.” In a context of strict censorship, the celebration of sporting triumphs constituted a safe topic that was politically aligned with government interests, helping to divert public attention from social tensions and political repression.

The article “Emerson ran to win, ended up champion,” published on September 12, 1972, in the Sports section of *O Estado de S. Paulo*, exemplifies the jingoistic logic of sports journalism during the Médici administration. The text constructs the image of Emerson Fittipaldi as a national hero, transforming his individual achievement into a collective victory. The title suggests th ’s path was almost predestined for success, while cultural references such as feijoada and Carnival reinforce the nationalization of the feat, bringing the sporting triumph closer to the popular imagination. Reginaldo Leme’s authorship lends technical legitimacy to the narrative, which, though specialized, remains aligned with the

nationalist euphoria of the period. By highlighting the driver's international prominence and his triumph over global competitors—with mentions of publications such as *Le Monde*, *Corriere della Sera*, and *the Daily Telegraph*—the report contributes to the symbolic construction of “Brazil that gets it right” on the global stage, mobilizing sporting success as evidence of national progress and efficiency.

The article “The Race Lost to the Heat. Emerson Did Not,” published on February 13, 1973, analyzes the first Brazilian Formula 1 Grand Prix at Interlagos as an event that transcends the realm of sports and becomes part of the military dictatorship's symbolic project. The narrative once again centers on Emerson Fittipaldi, presented as a national hero capable of embodying the image of a rising “Great Brazil.” The article emphasizes the festive and patriotic atmosphere of the event, with references to the presence of flags and the celebratory mood, highlighting the use of auto racing as an instrument of national exaltation. Although it records technical aspects of the race and specific criticisms of the organization, these elements do not undermine the main narrative, which associates the consolidation of the Brazilian Grand Prix with the country's international standing. The sporting performance is transformed into a symbol of modernity, capability, and national pride, reinforcing the regime's legitimizing discourse.

The article “Brazil finishes 4th. It's the end of the National Team,” published on July 7, 1974, highlights a significant shift in the jingoistic narrative of sports coverage. Faced with a fourth-place finish in the 1974 World Cup, the text expresses frustration and shock, perceived as a symbolic rupture following the 1970 three-peat. In a context where soccer served as a central propaganda tool for the regime, the defeat represented a crack in the “Greater Brazil” narrative. To preserve this image, the report shifts the blame for the failure onto individuals and technical decisions, criticizing players such as Rivellino and Paulo César, as well as coach Zagallo, by suggesting the “end of the National Team” as a sports entity, and not as metaphor for the country. By dissociating the sporting failure from national identity and the regime's political project, the text symbolically manages the defeat. The mention that “the public doesn't even get upset; they find it funny” mitigates the impact of the frustration, preserving the narrative of national cohesion and greatness.

The article “After the Bet, Victory for Emerson and Pace,” published on July 20, 1975, exemplifies the persistence of jingoistic framing in sports journalism during the Military Dictatorship. The text celebrates Emerson Fittipaldi’s victory in the British Grand Prix—the last of his Formula 1 career—and the Brazilian one-two finish with José Carlos Pace as an achievement of great international significance. Success in auto racing is presented as a symbol of a modern, competitive, and rising Brazil. The report adopts a clearly celebratory tone, emphasizing both the epic nature of the race—marked by rain, accidents, and controversies—and the Brazilian response to adversity, including a mention of Ferrari’s protest. By highlighting the sporting achievement under the international spotlight, the text reinforces the narrative of a country “moving forward,” turning the triumph into a metaphor for national success aligned with the regime’s logic of symbolic legitimization.

The article “P. Alegre no longer cares about Corinthians,” published on December 14, 1976, presents a predominantly factual approach to the sporting outcome that cemented Internacional’s victory and frustrated Corinthians. Although devoid of explicit critical analysis, the coverage fits into the symbolic function of sports journalism as a space for the indirect celebration of national success. By highlighting the collective commotion surrounding the result, the news report contributes to the construction of an imaginary of vitality in Brazilian soccer, aligned with the use of sports as an emotional outlet and a mechanism for diverting attention from political repression and economic difficulties.

The article “In the Last Game, the 1,281st Goal,” published on October 2, 1977, constructs a predominantly laudatory narrative around Pelé’s farewell, emphasizing the symbolic nature of his final goal and the total number of goals scored throughout his career. The text prioritizes the emotional dimension of the farewell, reinforcing the mythologization of the athlete as an undisputed national hero. Amid the context of the Military Dictatorship, this glorification goes beyond the sporting realm and fits into the logic of the country’s symbolic elevation on the international stage, indirectly contributing to the regime’s jingoistic project by reaffirming the image of a victorious Brazil admired globally.

Finally, the article “Brazil Finishes 3rd and Returns Undefeated from the World Cup,” published on June 25, 1978, frames the Brazilian national team’s performance as a positive result worthy of praise, despite the absence of the title.

By emphasizing the team's undefeated status, the text shifts the focus from sporting frustration to the symbolic value of the achievement, preserving the image of national strength and competence. In a context still marked by the military dictatorship, this approach reinforces the jingoistic logic of maintaining national pride and symbolic stability, aligned with the regime's strategy of using sports as an instrument of social cohesion.

Taken together, the analysis of the ten articles published by *O Estado de S. Paulo* between 1969 and 1978 reveals the recurrence of a narrative pattern that transcends factual coverage and functions as a device of symbolic control during the military dictatorship. There is a predominance of jingoistic and nationalizing frames, centered on the glorification of heroes, the conversion of individual achievements into collective victories, and the symbolic management of sporting success and failure. The absence of political and social critique, combined with the use of emotional and celebratory language, reveals that sports journalism functioned as a privileged space for consensus-building in a context of severe curtailment of public debate. Thus, the empirical findings reinforce the thesis that sport, as mediated by the press, was instrumentalized as a mechanism for the indirect legitimization of the authoritarian regime and the construction of a selective, jingoistic collective memory that served the prevailing hegemony.

5. CONCLUSION

The purpose of this chapter is to systematically examine the political-sports coverage of the newspaper *O Estado de S. Paulo* during the Brazilian Military Dictatorship (1964–1985), with an emphasis on the period following Institutional Act No. 5. Above all, the aim was to understand the role played by the Sports section within the symbolic apparatus of legitimizing the regime. In light of the analysis conducted, it can be stated that this objective was fully achieved. The guiding hypothesis—according to which sports journalism was progressively co-opted and aligned with the official narrative of the authoritarian state—proved consistent both in the reading of the empirical corpus and in the dialogue established with the theoretical and historiographical framework mobilized throughout the study.

One of the most relevant aspects highlighted by the research lies in the finding that *Estadão's* Sports section did not merely follow the repressive context but was functionally incorporated into the regime's communication project. Unlike the political section, which at certain times faced censorship and gained visibility as a space of resistance, the sports section emerged as a privileged terrain for symbolic co-optation. Under the guise of neutrality and entertainment, it began to operate as a particularly effective vehicle for state propaganda, especially from 1968 onward, when repression intensified and became institutionalized in a more forceful manner.

Empirical analysis reveals that sports journalism was gradually stripped of its critical dimension and transformed into a narrative field oriented toward nationalist exaltation, the construction of sports heroes, and the direct association between sports victories and the idea of national progress. This trend reached its fullest expression in the coverage of the 1970 World Cup, when the Brazilian national team's third championship was systematically presented as evidence of the country's greatness, in line with the Medici government's communication strategy. The recurrence of jingoistic discourse in the sports pages contributed, in this sense, to the symbolic consolidation of the "Great Brazil" project, linking sporting glory, social order, and political legitimacy.

In this scenario, sports proved to be a particularly effective mechanism for alienation and distraction. By focusing public debate on the euphoria of sporting achievements, the sports section helped obscure central issues of the political climate, such as censorship, torture, and the suppression of civil rights. The systematic absence of coverage related to conflicts within the sports world—such as athlete strikes, racial inequalities, labor disputes, or the political use of public resources—reveals a pattern of structural silencing and “ ” that cannot be interpreted as mere journalistic neutrality, but rather as an active form of ideological action.

From a theoretical perspective, the findings are consistent with the concepts of *agenda-setting* (McCombs & Shaw) and cultural hegemony (Gramsci). The centrality accorded to sports in the media agenda contributed to overshadowing substantive political debate, while the repetition of nationalist narratives fostered the creation of consensus around the regime. By mobilizing emotions, identities, and symbols deeply rooted in Brazilian culture, sports

journalism demonstrated a significant capacity to function as an instrument for sustaining authoritarian hegemony.

Although isolated manifestations of symbolic resistance were identified—primarily through the use of metaphors, ambiguities, and indirect discursive strategies—such initiatives proved insufficient to alter the structural role played by the sports section. These practices constitute limited openings that did not compromise the predominant functioning of the sports section as a mechanism for producing consensus. The relative formal freedom granted to this space proved, in practice, to be part of a strategy of co-optation, in which the absence of direct censorship was offset by adherence to the narratives and values desired by the regime.

The research thus contributes to the fields of Communication and History by demonstrating that sports journalism, often perceived as peripheral or devoid of political implications, assumes a central role in authoritarian contexts. By empirically articulating the relationships between sports, media, and power, the study demonstrates that sports coverage can play a decisive role in the symbolic legitimization of political projects. From a methodological standpoint, the use of qualitative content analysis proved adequate for identifying latent meanings and discursive patterns that would be difficult to capture through exclusively quantitative approaches.

As a limitation, it is acknowledged that the empirical focus on a single publication offers a specific perspective on the analyzed phenomenon. Future research may broaden this scope by incorporating other national newspapers, as well as by exploring the visual and graphic dimensions of sports pages, in order to deepen the understanding of the role of imagery in symbolic construction. Studies focused on the period of redemocratization may also contribute to assessing the extent to which sports journalism was reconfigured in the wake of the restoration of democratic freedoms.

In summary, this study confirms that the sports section of **O Estado de S. Paulo** was part of the symbolic apparatus that supported the military regime, serving as an instrument for ideological legitimization and the creation of social consensus. This finding reinforces the need for constant critical scrutiny of the role of the media—and of sports in particular—in democratic life, highlighting that

there are no neutral spaces in communication when power relations, memory, and citizenship are at stake.

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CHAPTER 3



CONTRIBUTIONS OF ECCLESIASTICAL INSTITUTIONS TO THE RE-SOCIALIZATION OF OFFENDERS

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ABSTRACT: This research analyzes the role of ecclesiastical institutions in the Brazilian penitentiary system, particularly through the method developed by the Association for the Protection and Assistance of Convicts (APAC), in light of the Federal Constitution and the Penal Enforcement Law. The study proposes a guarantor-based and humanizing interpretation of sentencing, emphasizing the limits of the traditional prison system and highlighting spirituality as a legitimate factor in the subjective transformation of prisoners. Based on a literature re-view, empirical data, and observation of Apaquean practices, it was demon-strated that the APAC model reduces recidivism, strengthens family bonds, and fosters an environment of positive discipline. The research argues for the com-patibility of the method with the constitutional principle of secularism, provided that freedom of belief and voluntary adherence to religious practices are main-tained. The Apaquean model is structured around twelve elements, with em-phasis on work, co-responsibility, comprehensive care, and spirituality. Practic-es such as the "Journey of Liberation with Christ" and community living are central to redefining the social role of convicts. Despite criticism regarding the possible overlap between religious assistance and proselytism, the study indi-cates that the APAC experience is in line with constitutional principles and should be replicated under state supervision and respect for fundamental rights.

KEYWORDS: Criminal Enforcement, rehabilitation, APAC, secular state, criminal law, human rights, spirituality.

RESUMO: A pesquisa analisa a atuação de instituições eclesiásticas no sistema penitenciário brasileiro, especialmente por meio do método desenvolvido pela Associação de Proteção e Assistência aos Condenados (APAC), à luz da Constituição Federal e da Lei de Execução Penal. O estudo propõe uma leitura garantista e humanizadora da pena, enfatizando os limites do sistema carcerário

tradicional e apontando a espiritualidade como fator legítimo de transformação subjetiva do apenado. A partir de revisão bibliográfica, dados empíricos e observação da prática apaqueana, demonstrou-se que o modelo APAC reduz a reincidência, fortalece vínculos familiares e propicia ambiente de disciplina positiva. A pesquisa defende a compatibilidade do método com o princípio constitucional da laicidade, desde que mantida a liberdade de crença e a voluntariedade na adesão às práticas religiosas. O modelo apaqueano estrutura-se em doze elementos, com destaque para o trabalho, a corresponsabilidade, a assistência integral e a espiritualidade. Práticas como a "Jornada de Libertação com Cristo" e a vivência comunitária são centrais na ressignificação do papel social do condenado. Apesar das críticas quanto à possível sobreposição entre assistência religiosa e proselitismo, o estudo aponta que a experiência da APAC se harmoniza com os princípios constitucionais e deve ser replicada, sob supervisão estatal e respeito às garantias fundamentais.

PALAVRAS-CHAVE: Execução Penal, ressocialização, APAC, estado laico, direito penal, direitos humanos, espiritualidade.

1. INTRODUCTION

The issue of public safety remains at the heart of legislative and academic discussions in Brazil, particularly due to the persistent public dissatisfaction with alleged impunity and the perceived ineffectiveness of the criminal justice system. The debate surrounding the progression of prison regimes and criminal policy intensified with the formulation of the so-called “Anti-Crime Package,” presented by then-Minister of Justice Sérgio Moro in the wake of a reform movement that began after the 2018 elections.

In this polarized context, marked by a clash between punitive and rights-based approaches, the research reported here does not aim to propose an alternative model of criminal policy, but rather to present an empirical framework for analysis that can serve as a bridge for dialogue between opposing perspectives. It is, therefore, a study characterized by methodological rigor and a descriptive, exploratory, and partially explanatory nature, aimed at examining the role of religious institutions—particularly Christian ones—in the social reintegration of convicts, with a focus on the methodology of the Association for the Protection and Assistance of Convicts (APAC).

The decision to focus on a single institution stems from the time, methodological, and operational constraints inherent in a project developed exclusively within an academic setting. Nevertheless, APAC proves to be a relevant subject of empirical study, given its international standing, its significant success rate in reducing recidivism, and its institutional presence in several Brazilian states, particularly Minas Gerais.

The focus on Christianity is justified by its prevalence in Brazil, based on data from the Brazilian Institute of Geography and Statistics (IBGE), according to which approximately 86.8% of the Brazilian population identifies with a Christian denomination.

The term “ecclesiastical institution” is used here in a broad sense, encompassing not only formal religious organizations but also any form of social gathering or activity grounded in Christian principles, in keeping with the theological understanding of “church” as the assembly of the faithful.

Furthermore, although the term “offender” is open to criticism in its colloquial usage, it is used in this study in its technical-legal sense, as a synonym

for a person who has violated a criminal law and has been held legally accountable, thereby aligning the term with contemporary criminological terminology.

Finally, it should be noted that, although the qualitative methodology forms the core of the approach adopted, quantitative elements, interviews with legal practitioners, and documentary analysis were also used to give the research greater critical depth and empirical support.

2. THE FUNCTION OF PUNISHMENT

The study of theories and justifications of punishment is a central element of criminology and criminal policy. As Ellis and Ellis (1989) point out, concepts such as punishment, law, crime, and deviance are not static but evolve in accordance with social consciousness. A critical understanding of these fundamentals allows us to assess the objectives of punishment and its role in the contemporary criminal justice system.

Punishment involves imposing a negative response to conduct deemed unlawful or deviant, and is generally associated with the notion of pain or deprivation (WALKER, 1991). For Durkheim (1965a; 1965b), punishment is a mechanism for maintaining social solidarity, regulating social interaction, and reaffirming the community's normative boundaries.

The classical tradition, represented by Beccaria, is based on the idea of free will and proportionality between crime and punishment, linking the social contract to the preventive function of punishment (CUFF; SHARROCK; FRANCIS, 1992). In contrast, the Positive School (), represented by Lombroso, Ferri, and Garofalo (), replaced free will with the notion of determinism, emphasizing the social and biological causes of crime (VOLD; BERNARD, 1986).

Bentham (1960) argued that all punishment is an evil, justifiable only if aimed at preventing a greater evil. Utilitarianism, as a consequentialist theory, legitimizes punishment as a preventive measure, including deterrence, incapacitation, and rehabilitation (TEN, 1987). However, critics point out that the theory falsely assumes social consensus and may legitimize unjust punishments against the innocent (PRIMORATZ, 1989).

Inspired by Beccaria, deterrence theory seeks to prevent crime by increasing the costs of criminal behavior. It is divided into: general deterrence, aimed at the community; and specific deterrence, aimed at repeat offenders (WALKER, 1980). Empirical studies, however, show limited effects: many crimes go undetected, and subjective factors reduce preventive effectiveness (BEYLEVELD, 1980; BENNETT; WRIGHT, 1984).

The rationale of incapacitation, in turn, claims to protect society by removing the offender from circulation (BYRNE, 1979). Wilson (1983) supports its plausibility, but reports such as that by Floud (1981) demonstrate the difficulty of accurately predicting future risks, leading to false positives. Furthermore, critics point to issues of proportionality and prison overcrowding (BOTTOMS; PRESTON, 1980; RUTHERFORD, 1988).

Determinism, derived from positivist science, holds that human behavior is conditioned by external or causal factors (FRANKLIN, 1969). This view relativizes individual responsibility and challenges the very notion of guilt, thereby influencing the debate over the legitimacy of punishment.

Rehabilitation, which prevailed between 1900 and 1960, was based on the medical model of treating offenders, with the aim of socially reintegrating them (HUDSON, 1987). Criticism, intensified by Martinson (1974), questioned its effectiveness ("nothing works"), although authors such as Cullen and Gilbert (1982) argue that certain programs can be effective. The new rehabilitation model proposes reconciling punishment with social intervention, respecting fundamental rights and promoting reintegration (CARLEN, 1989).

Retributivism, rooted in the works of Kant and Hegel, asserts that the offender must be punished because he or she deserves it, regardless of the utility of the punishment (KANT, 1956; HEGEL, 1965). In the 1970s, the "just deserts" model emerged, marked by the work *Doing Justice* (VON HIRSCH, 1976). This theory advocates proportionality between guilt and punishment, defending consistency and objective limits on punitive power.

In addition to the utilitarian and retributive traditions, approaches such as reparation and restitution stand out, as they seek to restore the victim and the community. These approaches are closely aligned with restorative justice, emphasizing consensus, compensation, and reconciliation.

Theories of punishment offer multiple and often contradictory justifications. As Cavadino and Dignan (1997) note, contemporary criminal policy is characterized by trade-offs between social utility, moral merit, and demands for justice. A critical analysis of these foundations is essential to understanding the direction of criminology and the challenges facing a democratic criminal justice system.

In any case, the prevailing view in criminal law recognizes two main theoretical schools of thought regarding the purpose of punishment: the **absolute theory** and the **relative theory**.

The first, of a retributive nature, holds that the sole purpose of punishment is to impose a penalty on the offender, as a proportionate response to the criminal conduct committed. The relative theory, on the other hand, bases punishment on **the prevention of new crimes**, and is subdivided into:

- **Positive general deterrence**, which aims to strengthen the public's confidence in the legal system;
- **General negative prevention**, which aims to deter potential offenders through the example of punishment;
- **Positive special prevention**, aimed at the rehabilitation of the convicted person;
- **Negative special prevention**, which seeks to temporarily neutralize the convicted person's capacity to commit crimes (GRECO, 2013, p. 475).

The Brazilian legal system has adopted the **mixed or unifying theory**, as can be inferred from the main provision of Article 59 of the Penal Code, which establishes that the penalty must be necessary and sufficient for the punishment and prevention of crime. Thus, the retributive and preventive dimensions of punishment are reconciled, with an emphasis on its social and rehabilitative purpose.

The Criminal Enforcement Act (Law No. 7,210/1984) reinforces this principle by stating, in Article 1, that the purpose of criminal enforcement is to carry out the provisions of the criminal sentence and to provide conditions for the smooth social (re)integration of the convicted person. This purpose is consistent with the principle of human dignity (Article 1, III, of the 1988 Constitution).

In addition, Article 3 of the aforementioned law guarantees the convicted person all rights not affected by the conviction, prohibiting any arbitrary

aggravation of the criminal sentence. Article 4, in turn, establishes community participation as an essential component of the social reintegration process, through civil, voluntary, or institutional initiatives that contribute to the enforcement of the sentence and security measures.

It is therefore essential to recognize that the effectiveness of the penal system depends on a joint effort between the State and civil society, particularly with regard to maintaining family ties, ensuring access to public assistance programs, and recognizing the value of prisoners as rights-holders.

However, the reality of the Brazilian prison system presents a picture that stands in stark contrast to what is provided for in the law, with structural deficiencies that, far from promoting rehabilitation, reinforce stigmas, encourage recidivism, and undermine the legitimacy of state punishment.

3. THE STATE OF BRAZILIAN PRISONS

Imprisonment became, especially from the 19th century onward, the dominant form of punishment in Western societies, replacing earlier practices such as corporal and capital punishment. This change was not only legal but also social and political, representing a process of institutionalizing incarceration as the state's primary response to crime.

Studies on prisons have oscillated between narratives that highlight the gradual improvement of prison conditions and critical analyses that emphasize social control and structural oppression. As a result, the history of prisons reveals both continuities and changes: while, on the one hand, prisons continue to be viewed as the preferred solution to crime, on the other, criticism persists regarding their effectiveness, humanity, and legitimacy.

Currently, **prison overcrowding** and the **degrading conditions** in Brazilian prisons are widely recognized as factors that prevent the achievement of the rehabilitative goals of punishment. The **Criminal Enforcement Act** requires that sentences be served in a dignified environment compatible with the physical capacity of the prison facility (Art. 88), a provision that is flagrantly disregarded in practice.

The report by **the Parliamentary Commission of Inquiry (CPI) on the Prison System**, prepared in 2009 by the Chamber of Deputies, highlighted

instances of massive violations of fundamental rights, notably cells designed to hold 504 people that housed more than 1,000 individuals, as in the case of the Pinheiros Provisional Detention Center, in São Paulo (CHAMBER OF DEPUTIES, 2009).

According to data from **the National Survey of Prison Information (Infopen)**, published by the National Penitentiary Department (DEPEN) in 2017, the Brazilian prison population stood at 726,712 incarcerated individuals, compared to approximately 368,000 available prison beds, resulting in a shortfall of more than 350,000 beds (INFOPEN, 2017).

Overcrowding, combined with the lack of effective policies for legal, medical, psychological, educational, and religious assistance, seriously undermines human dignity and the principle of individualized sentencing, rendering any attempt at social reintegration unfeasible.

The data also reveal that the conventional system has **extremely high recidivism rates**, estimated at up to 85% according to the 2009 Parliamentary Inquiry Commission (CPI), which highlights the **failure of the penal system** to bring about real changes in the behavior of inmates. Add to this the high cost of maintaining inmates in closed facilities, generating public and re y expenses estimated at over R\$ 1.5 billion per month—an amount that, under different management, could be redirected toward preventive and alternative restorative justice programs.

4. HUMAN RIGHTS AND BRAZILIAN PRISONS

Article 5, item XLIX, of the **1988 Constitution of the Federative Republic of Brazil** establishes that “prisoners are guaranteed respect for their physical and moral integrity.” This provision forms part of the core of **fundamental human rights**, which are not exhausted by the imposition of a custodial sentence.

However, as acknowledged in **the Motion for Non-Compliance with a Fundamental Precept (ADPF) 347/DF**, filed by the Socialism and Freedom Party (PSOL) and adjudicated by the Federal Supreme Court, the Brazilian prison system is in **a state of unconstitutionality**, characterized by systematic and structural violations of the rights of inmates. The reporting justice, Justice Marco

Aurélio, acknowledged the **widespread ineffectiveness of the penal system in Brazil**, constituting a “true state of permanent unconstitutionality”⁷.

According to a technical note issued by the CNJ itself, it is common to find **subhuman conditions** in Brazilian prisons, such as poor hygiene, the spread of disease, overcrowding, systemic corruption, and a lack of basic care. Violence, both physical and symbolic, is a recurring and normalized feature of prison management (CNJ, 2025).

Judicial delays also serve as an aggravating factor. The report "Justice in Numbers," published by the CNJ in 2018, noted that states such as São Paulo and Rio Grande do Sul take, on average, more than **seven years** to issue final criminal judgments—more than double the national average, estimated at three years and five months⁹. In the meantime, many of the accused remain in pretrial detention for an excessive period of time, in clear violation of the principle of **the presumption of innocence** and the right **to a trial of reasonable duration** (Art. 5, subsections LVII and LXXVIII of the 1988 Constitution).

Thus, the Brazilian prison system proves to be not only dysfunctional but also **contrary to the very purpose of punishment**, becoming a space for **institutionalized violence, the reproduction of social inequality, and a resurgence of crime**.

5. RECIDIVISM AND REHABILITATION

Recidivism is one of the main indicators of the conventional prison system's failure to achieve the rehabilitation of convicted individuals. Under **Article 63 of the Penal Code**, a person is considered a recidivist if, after a conviction becomes final, they commit a new crime within five years of the completion of the previous sentence. This definition is adopted as an objective standard in official studies on recidivism.

Although legally recidivism is defined by a specific time frame, from a broader criminological perspective, resocialization must be understood as a continuous process of reintegration into the community, which goes beyond the mere fact of not committing crimes during a given period. It involves rebuilding social ties, gaining access to rights, strengthening self-esteem, and overcoming the vulnerabilities that characterize the life histories of most inmates.

According to Ottoboni (2006), founder of APAC, approximately 98% of prisoners come from broken homes; 86% are drug users; 95% live in poverty; 75% are illiterate or semi-literate; and 68% are young people. These data reveal the **recurring socioeconomic and family profile of repeat offenders**, pointing to a clear relationship between social inequality and the criminal cycle.

Nor can we ignore the **criminal culture of belonging**, which is particularly widespread in contexts of social exclusion and which normalizes crime as a means of economic advancement or identity affirmation. The influence of subcultures that glorify illicit practices—often associated with popular cultural expressions such as “ostentation” in music and crime-glorifying “ ”—is an aggravating factor that hinders the process of breaking away from a life of crime.

As **Bitencourt (2008)** rightly points out, “one cannot attribute exclusive responsibility for the complete resocialization of offenders to criminal justice systems, ignoring the existence of other means of social control, such as the family, schools, and the Church, among others.” The effectiveness of social reintegration therefore depends on joint action between the State, civil society, and religious communities, which are responsible for creating real opportunities for rebuilding lives.

6. RELIGION, LAW, AND PRISON

The relationship between faith, punishment, and rehabilitation dates back to the origins of the institutionalization of imprisonment as a form of punishment. In the Middle Ages, the **Catholic Church** already used confinement in monastic cells as a means of clerical penance, a fact that inspired the very term “penitentiary” (CARVALHO FILHO, 2002).

As early as the 18th century, classical authors such as **Cesare Beccaria** were already denouncing the inhumanity of the criminal justice system and the selective nature of punishment, which was disproportionately applied to the most vulnerable classes. His work **On Crimes and Punishments** remains an indispensable reference in the humanistic critique of criminal law (BECCARIA, 2003).

The **constitutional principle of the secular nature** of the State (Art. 19, I, of the 1988 Constitution) prohibits the government from officially recognizing,

funding, or interfering with religious worship in any way. However, the same Constitution—in its Art. 5, VII—expressly guarantees the right **to religious assistance** in civil and military institutions of collective confinement, including prisons. As this provision is part of the list of fundamental rights and guarantees, it has **the status of an unamendable clause** (Art. 60, § 4, IV, CF/88).

The Criminal Enforcement Act also addresses this matter, providing in Articles 10 and 11 that convicted persons have the right to religious assistance, which must be provided in accordance with the prisoner's professed faith, ensuring the presence of ministers of different faiths and the holding of worship services, liturgies, and Bible studies, provided that the facility's security and disciplinary rules are respected.

In addition to the regulatory framework, there is a significant body of academic and empirical research demonstrating the **positive effects of religiosity in the prison environment**. According to a study by Mirabete (2002), “religion is the only variable that inherently possesses the potential to transform a person, whether incarcerated or free.” International research, such as that by Higgins and Albrecht (1977) and Stark (1996), has found a statistically significant correlation between church attendance and **a lower propensity for delinquency**.

In Brazil, studies conducted by **IPEA** and researchers such as Edileuza Lobo point to the growing role of religious institutions—especially evangelical ones — in filling the state's void within prisons, offering not only spiritual solace but also **structured routines, a moral support network, and opportunities for the symbolic reconstruction of the social and subjective “self”** (LOBO, 2005).

Such practices, although criticized from the perspective of the principle of state neutrality, are **constitutionally legitimate**, provided that freedom of conscience is respected and the non-imposition of dogma is guaranteed. In the Brazilian context, where the majority of the prison population identifies as Christian, the **religious factor proves to be a legitimate and empirically effective means of humanizing punishment** and a potential tool for breaking the cycle of crime.

7. THE APAC MODEL

The **Association for the Protection and Assistance of Convicts (APAC)** is a private, nonprofit civil entity with its own legal personality, whose mission is the **rehabilitation of incarcerated individuals and their social reintegration**. According to its bylaws, each APAC unit is administratively, financially, and legally autonomous, although all are affiliated with **the Brazilian Fraternity of Assistance to Convicts (FBAC)**, the national coordinating body of the APAC movement (FBAC, 2025).

The model falls within the so-called **third sector**, characterized by the activities of nongovernmental entities that carry out activities in the public interest, as defined by specialized legal doctrine (FERNANDES, 1994). Its operation depends on coordination with the Judiciary, the Executive Branch, and civil society, in accordance with Article 4 of **the Criminal Enforcement Act (LEP)**, which advocates for community cooperation in the enforcement of sentences.

At APAC, inmates are referred to as “**recovering individuals**,” in an effort to break away from the stigma associated with incarceration. They share responsibility for maintaining internal discipline and harmonious coexistence, without the presence of armed police or correctional officers. Work, spirituality (based on an ecumenical model), and legal, medical, and psychological assistance are all part of the comprehensive care model offered.

According to the **Court of Justice of the State of Minas Gerais (TJMG)**, which officially endorses and institutionally supports the model, the APAC method helps **reduce recidivism**, with estimated rates ranging from **15% to 20%**, compared to 70–85% in the conventional system.

The model was conceived in the 1970s in the city of São José dos Campos, São Paulo, by attorney Mário Ottoboni, initially as a prison evangelization group affiliated with the Catholic prison ministry. In 1974, APAC was formally established as a civil association with the institutionalized purpose of working within the criminal justice system (FERREIRA, 2004).

The initiative expanded significantly beginning in the 1990s, particularly in the state of Minas Gerais, where the Novos Rumos Program, affiliated with the Minas Gerais State Court of Justice (TJMG), adopted the methodology as a public policy for the execution of sentences. Currently, there are more than 100

APAC units in Brazil, with a presence also in other countries, such as Germany, Chile, the United States, and Norway. The model was recognized by Prison Fellowship International (PFI)—a UN advisory body on prison matters—as a global benchmark for the humanization of prisons. (PFI, 2025) The APAC unit in Itaúna- , MG, with over three decades of operation, is considered an institutional and pedagogical model of the method.

8. APACS AND THE PRINCIPLE OF SECULARISM

The inclusion of Christian spirituality as a central element of the APACS methodology has sparked debates regarding the model's compatibility with the **principle of state secularism**, as provided for in Article 19, Section I, of the Federal Constitution. However, this principle does not preclude **collaboration between the State and religious institutions**, provided that freedom of conscience is respected and dogmas are not imposed.

APAC itself, through its bylaws, explicitly states that access to the method is **universal**, and that the spirituality practiced there is **ecumenical** and respectful of the individual faith of those in recovery. Furthermore, Article 5, Section VII, of the 1988 Constitution guarantees religious assistance in collective detention facilities, reinforcing the constitutional legitimacy of such initiatives.

The balance between the principles of **state secularism** and **human dignity**—especially in the context of state inaction and rights violations in prisons—justifies the adoption of practices that, while inspired by religious values, are **inclusive, voluntary, and effective** in the process of rehabilitation.

The Apaquean model is structured around a series of **fundamental elements**, among which the following stand out:

- Community participation;
- Decent work;
- Legal and health care;
- Valuing human dignity and strengthening family bonds;
- Spirituality;
- Journey of Liberation with Christ.

APAC considers the spiritual dimension to be one of the pillars of the recovering person's transformation. Although no specific religious denomination is required, the practice of values such as **repentance, forgiveness, love for one's neighbor, and change of behavior**—based on the Christian tradition—is encouraged.

This dimension serves as a tool for subjective restructuring, leading individuals to **rebuild** their **self-image** and life plan through worship, Bible study, meditation, and community sharing.

The “Journey of Liberation with Christ” is an intensive, collective experience of spiritual immersion and reflection, in which those in recovery share their life stories, reflect on the harm caused by their crimes, and are encouraged to take moral responsibility and change their behavior.

This stage serves as **a symbolic rite of passage** and a unifying element among participants, strengthening their sense of belonging to the restorative community promoted by APAC.

Although the model has been widely praised for its innovative and humane nature, it is not without its critics. Some legal scholars point to the potential confusion between religious assistance and proselytizing, especially when Christian discourse is dominant.

Other authors draw attention to the risk of excessive outsourcing of criminal enforcement, with civil society institutions being overburdened with responsibilities without adequate support from the state.

However, such criticisms do not invalidate the effectiveness of the method, provided that constitutional secularism is upheld and public oversight of legality and fundamental rights within the Apaquean units is ensured.

9. FINAL CONSIDERATIONS

The primary objective of the study described here was to analyze the role of religious institutions—notably the Association for the Protection and Assistance of Convicts (APAC)—as a means of **promoting humane penal rehabilitation**, in contrast to the punitive and dehumanizing model that still prevails in the Brazilian prison system.

Using a qualitative approach grounded in empirical data, a specialized literature review, and field observations, it was possible to conclude that the Apaquean methodology represents a concrete and effective alternative to conventional penal enforcement, yielding significantly lower recidivism rates and promoting the restoration of dignity for persons deprived of liberty.

The Brazilian legal system, through the 1988 Federal Constitution and the Criminal Enforcement Act (Law No. 7,210/84), provides a legal framework for the involvement of civil society in the enforcement of sentences, including that of religious organizations, provided that freedom of conscience and the secular nature of the State are respected. Case law and prevailing legal doctrine agree that the principle of secularism does not prevent, but rather **regulates**, legitimate collaboration between the State and religious initiatives, as is the case with APAC.

Spirituality, when freed from coercive practices and grounded in universal ethical values—such as forgiveness, repentance, and love for one’s neighbor—proves to be **a powerful tool for personal transformation**. Religious experience in prison can break cycles of violence, give new meaning to life paths, and restore social bonds severed by criminalization and exclusion.

It is important to emphasize, however, that the effectiveness of APAC depends on **three key pillars**: (i) the engagement of the local community; (ii) the commitment of the judiciary and the Public Prosecutor’s Office to oversight and institutional support; and (iii) unconditional respect for the fundamental rights of those in rehabilitation. Without these conditions, the model runs the risk of being distorted or exploited.

Thus, the role of religious institutions in the criminal justice system—particularly through the APAC model—should not be viewed as a substitute for the state’s obligations, but rather as **complementary**, collaborative, and based on the concept of social co-responsibility.

It can therefore be concluded that initiatives such as APAC’s should be continuously promoted, critically evaluated, and adapted for replication, while respecting regional particularities and constitutional guarantees. Addressing Brazil’s prison crisis requires **innovative, inclusive, and— ly—humanizing responses**, and the collaboration between the legal system, religion, and civil

society emerges as a legitimate and necessary driver of this transformative process.

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CHAPTER 4



FROM RIO DE JANEIRO TO COLOMBIA: CRIMINAL GOVERNANCE, TERRITORIAL CONTROL AND PARALLEL ORDERS IN LATIN AMERICA

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ABSTRACT: This critical-comparative study aims to analyze the historical development of the so-called "parallel states" regarding the criminal factions involved in drug trafficking in Rio de Janeiro, specifically the "Comando Vermelho" criminal faction. It also intends to prepare a summary on the same subject in Colombia. The methodology used in this analysis is qualitative, focusing on publications on the subject. We will discuss the following: What is the origin, and how do the so-called "parallel" states imposed by the criminal factions

in Rio de Janeiro operate? And in Colombia, how do such states operate? After the analysis, it is considered that the "parallel states" in the poor communities of Latin American countries, such as Brazil and Colombia, are part of a gap left by the rule of law, which, by being absent and not providing the basic social policies for these communities, opens space for the reinforcement and development of illicit drug trafficking activities, which, by carrying out a specific "welfare" in the poor communities. This central argument is not a simple claim of state collapse. Rather, criminal organizations consolidate parallel forms of governance by combining coercive territorial control, illicit economic opportunities, local dispute resolution, selective welfare provision, and political infiltration. The comparison between Rio de Janeiro and Colombia, therefore, treats "parallel states" as a form of criminal governance rather than as a literal substitute for the formal State.¹

KEYWORDS: criminal governance, territorial control, selective state presence, militias, illicit economies.

RESUMO: Este estudo crítico-comparativo visa analisar o desenvolvimento histórico dos chamados "estados paralelos" no que diz respeito às facções criminosas envolvidas no narcotráfico no Rio de Janeiro, especificamente a facção criminosa "Comando Vermelho". Pretende também elaborar um panorama sobre o mesmo tema na Colômbia. A metodologia utilizada nesta análise é qualitativa, com foco em publicações sobre o assunto. Abordaremos os seguintes pontos: Qual a origem e como operam os chamados estados "paralelos" impostos pelas facções criminosas no Rio de Janeiro? E na Colômbia, como operam tais estados? Após a análise, considera-se que os "estados paralelos" nas comunidades carentes de países latino-americanos, como Brasil e Colômbia, representam uma lacuna deixada pela ausência do Estado de Direito, que, ao não prover políticas sociais básicas para essas comunidades, abre espaço para o fortalecimento e o desenvolvimento das atividades ilícitas do narcotráfico, que, por sua vez, exercem uma espécie de "assistencialismo" nessas comunidades. Este artigo esclarece que seu argumento central não se resume a uma simples alegação de colapso do Estado. Em vez disso, as organizações criminosas consolidam formas paralelas de governança combinando controle territorial coercitivo, oportunidades econômicas ilícitas, resolução de disputas locais, provisão seletiva de bem-estar social e infiltração política. A comparação entre o Rio de Janeiro e a Colômbia, portanto, trata os "estados paralelos" como uma forma de governança criminosa, e não como um substituto literal do Estado formal.

PALAVRAS-CHAVE: governança criminal, controle territorial, presença seletiva do Estado, milícias, economias ilícitas

¹ Conceptual rationale: The literature on criminal governance treats criminal rule as the imposition of rules, restrictions or order by criminal organizations over civilians, markets and sometimes state actors. See Arias (2006), Lessing (2022), Blattman et al. (2025) and Uribe et al. (2025/2026).

1. INTRODUCTION

"The favela is a community without citizenship, in the terms in which we know it. Poverty places men on the margins of life. Still, social sciences teach that there can be no human grouping without rules, laws, and a system of rewards and punishments." (Amorim, 1993, p. 28, our translation). This famous and accurate phrase by the late journalist Carlos Amorim (*in memoriam*) in his work entitled "Comando Vermelho: a história secreta do crime organizado" (Red Command: the secret history of organized crime) illustrates the actions of the so-called "parallel states" imposed by criminal factions in the communities where they operate, the subject of this analysis, since it resembles a system of rewards and punishments.

While the State loses total control over the administration of its territories, with the absence of basic social policies for social inclusion and development, especially in the outskirts of large cities, the so-called parallel states, formed by members of criminal factions and militiamen, with their illegal activities mainly in drug trafficking, arms trafficking, and extortion (frequent in militia acts) increase significantly, both in social influence and in visibility because of the degrading social conditions of poor communities; especially in the needy communities of Latin American countries, as is the case in Brazil, but specifically in the city of Rio de Janeiro; a fact also observed in Colombia, the corpus of analysis of this study. In many favelas and border territories, the State remains present through police operations, prisons, courts, municipal services, electoral networks, and corruption; what is at stake is a fragmented, unequal, and selective exercise of authority.²

There is a permanent and unshakable system of criminal practices that are contrary to legal institutions, which constantly wages wars and disputes among themselves and with the State, whose activities are highlighted in the news throughout the digital world, given the barbarities and chaos committed by criminal factions, which in the constant struggles to obtain power at all costs and conquer more territories, spare no effort in criminal actions that affect the entire

² Analytical caution: "Total loss of state control" is too strong for territories where state forces, elections, courts, prisons, public services and corrupt public actors may still operate. The more precise problem is selective and uneven state presence.

population that lives in the outskirts; and, indirectly, those who need to travel in areas considered at risk for various reasons; such as to study, to work, among others, due to the battles between police and drug traffickers; and between these and their rivals. Frequent battles that indiscriminately violate the right of citizens to come and go.

A kind of "parallel" domination has taken root in the gaps in the absence of public policies, making the social conditions of poor communities degrading, frightening, and dominated by fear and insecurity, as can be exemplified by the events that have been happening in Rio de Janeiro, due to the dispute over territories of the criminal faction "Comando Vermelho," for years.

But what is the origin, and how do the so-called "parallel" states imposed by criminal factions in Rio de Janeiro operate? And in Colombia, how do such states operate? In search of answers to these and other questions, we propose to consider the subject. In the 1st moment, we can affirm, according to Bireme (2019), that the Brazilian urbanization process accelerated. In 1980, the urban population, compared to 1970, grew by 280%, equivalent to approximately 42 million people, across all Brazilian regions.

2. THEORETICAL FRAMEWORK

This critical-comparative study aims to analyze the historical development of so-called "parallel states" with respect to criminal factions involved in drug trafficking in Rio de Janeiro, specifically the "Comando Vermelho" criminal faction. We also intend to provide an overview of the same topic in Colombia. We will address the following points: What is the origin and how do the so-called "parallel states" imposed by criminal factions in Rio de Janeiro operate? And in Colombia, how do such states operate? Thus, for its elaboration, some of the bibliographic references and scientific publications related to the topic and published at the time of its production were considered: from July 2024 to April 2026.

3. METHODOLOGY

In this article, “parallel state” is defined as a criminal governance arrangement in which illegal armed actors impose rules, administer punishments, regulate mobility and markets, mediate conflicts, provide selective benefits, and extract resources from residents or businesses. This definition distinguishes criminal governance from organized crime more generally: not every criminal market generates a parallel order; some organizations assume governing functions when they regulate civilian life within specific territories.³

Methodologically, the article should be presented as a qualitative, comparative, and document-based study. The comparison between Brazil and Colombia can be organized around five dimensions: historical origins, territorial control, relations with local communities, diversification of illicit markets, and relations with political/security institutions. This analytical grid prevents the comparison from becoming a sequence of disconnected examples.⁴

According to Oliveira Júnior (2022), in the mid-1970s, Brazil's urban population exceeded the rural population due to the industrialization process that had taken place in the country since 1940. In this context, the first movement to remove low-income populations from central areas to the city's outskirts took place without any infrastructure policy for this population. (Oliveira Júnior, 2022, our translation)

This situation of lack of public policies on the outskirts of large cities that did not accompany the beginning of the urbanization process in the country, as is the case of the city of Rio de Janeiro, made possible the emergence of parallel states, which since the 1970s began their actions considered as “welfare-based” and “parallel” to state power; these actions have only increased since then, both in terms of obtaining controlled territories and in the influence of faction leaders, who gain respect and consideration from residents of poor communities, establishing a social structure of support for these residents, who in return support the illicit activities of crime, due to the actions of drug trafficking in the gaps left by public power.

³ “Parallel state” is used here as an empirical description of territorial criminal governance, not as a claim that a criminal faction is legally or institutionally equivalent to a sovereign state.

⁴ Methodological rationale: A qualitative comparative design should specify its unit of comparison and analytical dimensions; otherwise the Brazil-Colombia comparison risks remaining illustrative rather than systematic.

Thus, it is notable that the low presence (or absence) of public policies, especially in the outskirts, is the crucial factor for the emergence and evolution of communities, structures, and policies contrary to the pre-established State, as is the case of the Parallel State and Criminal Organizations (Oliveira Júnior, 2022). The problem is not merely absence, but a combination of neglect, intermittent coercion, corruption, weak rights protection, and uneven delivery of public goods.⁵

The State left the "boat" of public policies adrift. The so-called "parallel" State advanced and took control of the public vessel, even rowing against the tide of state control with great success. In doing so, they gained the support and trust of communities living on the outskirts since their basic needs, neglected by the State, are met; in exchange, there is protection for the illicit activities carried out in these communities. It is a two-way street that benefits both sides: protection for drug traffickers and social assistance for residents of the outskirts in exchange for the "law of silence" in needy communities. This relationship should be described as pragmatic and coercive rather than as a balanced exchange. Residents may comply because criminal actors provide short-term services, but also because refusal can produce retaliation, forced silence, expulsion, or death.⁶

In the triad (State, poor communities, and criminal factions), another criminal organization emerged with a notable presence, which, despite having its origins in the Cândido Mendes Prison, known as the Ilha Grande Prison located in Angra dos Reis, in Rio de Janeiro, in 1960, gained prominence in this parallel scenario from the year 2000, as reported by the g1 Rio4 News Portal (2023):

Contemporary militias are more accurately linked to police and ex-police protection rackets, death squads, land control, and monopolies over urban services that consolidated particularly in the West Zone and Baixada Fluminense from the late 1990s and 2000s.⁷

⁵ Criminal governance may grow under conditions of neglect, but also through coercive policing, corruption, political brokerage and weak rights-protecting institutions.

⁶ Normative and empirical caution. What appears as "welfare" can also be coercive dependence. Residents may cooperate because of material need, but silence and compliance are often produced by threats and territorial surveillance.

⁷ The prison genealogy of Ilha Grande/Cândido Mendes is usually associated with the formation of Comando Vermelho. Contemporary Rio militias are more accurately linked to police/ex-police groups, death squads, land control and protection rackets in the West Zone and Baixada Fluminense, especially from the late 1990s and 2000s.

Militias emerged in the 1960s but proliferated in the 2000s. Corrupt police officers and ex-police officers began to provide security in communities under the pretext of protecting residents from drug trafficking, which they opposed very violently. The protection fee was just a form of exploitation. Paramilitaries began to impose a monopoly on clandestine internet services and water and gas distribution, on which they charge a premium. Van drivers were also forced to pay tolls. (Monteiro, 2014, our translation)

Professor Lício Caetano do Rego Monteiro shares this thought: "In the 2000s, a new aspect of comparison between Rio de Janeiro and Colombia came to light: the growth of militias that established territorial power in favelas and peripheral areas of the city, almost always acting with police consent" (Monteiro, 2014).

In this context, in addition to combating the activities of criminal factions, the State has encountered another adversary, just as the factions, which previously disputed territories among themselves, have gained another adversary in this dispute.

In this competitive scenario of constant tensions, two adversaries often join forces and form bonds of union in search of supremacy in territories that only the "Comando Vermelho" (CV) has managed to obtain, exemplified by the integration between the criminal factions themselves and the members of the militias, making the already weakened power of the State even more inefficient, as stated by the Portal g1 Rio (g1 Rio, 2023): in the conflicts (which occurred in July 2024) between militiamen and the criminal faction "Comando Vermelho" in Rio de Janeiro, it was observed that the TCP (Third Pure Command) faction, a declared enemy of the CV (Comando Vermelho), helped the militia by providing men and weapons for the dispute over the communities of Rio das Pedras. And it adds: The Terceiro Comando Puro provides the militia with men and weapons to prevent its main rival from further expanding its domains. The reinforcement comes from Serrinha and Maré (Monteiro, 2014).

An analysis of the origins of these factions shows that, in the context of territorial disputes, the common denominator is that all these groups emerged from the inefficiency of state power and have advanced by acting on state failures since the 1960s. The State has not yet effectively combated these groups to reduce the actions of these parallel states. As in every dispute, there are winners and losers; one of the latter is the criminal faction "Comando Vermelho (CV)," which spreads from Rio de Janeiro throughout Latin America and even reaches

the European continent. The CV stands out as a transnational criminal organization. Data shows that the actions of this faction are constantly growing, according to the NGO crisis group.org (2024):

What's new? Across the region where Brazil, Colombia, and Peru meet deep in the Amazon, various criminal organizations exploit the feeble reach of states, the abundance of natural resources, and the poverty of local communities to grow, diversify, and hatch new cross-border ventures.

Why does it matter? Surging cocaine production in Peru and the spread of other rackets like gold dredging and illicit logging threaten Indigenous ways of life, spur deadly violence, and harm the environment. Should these criminal ventures go unchecked, they could undermine the already tenuous state control of the world's largest rainforest.

Across this part of the Amazon, the new illegal overlord is the Brazilian group Comando Vermelho, which has gained the upper hand in battles with two other major criminal outfits: the local band Os Crias and the Primeiro Capital Command, a potent group from São Paulo but now active throughout Brazil. Law enforcement officials believe Command Vermelho may be in cahoots with the Colombian guerrilla group Carolina Ramírez, which broke away from the now-demobilized Revolutionary Armed Forces of Colombia (FARC). (Crisis Group, 2024)

Analytical bridge to the Colombian case: the Amazon tri-border region should be used as a connecting case between Brazil and Colombia. It shows how urban Brazilian factions, post-FARC dissident networks, local armed actors, and illegal extractive economies converge in a border zone where distance, corruption, and limited infrastructure reduce the capacity of state enforcement.⁸

It is observed that the dominance of parallel states, such as criminal factions, is not restricted to the drug and arms trade. Still, there is a tendency to diversify activities to facilitate "money laundering," which influences the social sphere of the communities where such "states" operate. In this context, the advance of illicit activities brings in allies recruited outside Brazilian territory.

In some areas of activity, the group CV is one example. This group plays three different roles where organized crime occurs: 1st "norm production, coercive enforcement" (gangs dictate their own rules and laws and judge according to what is "viable" and decided by the "criminal courts" those who infringe the rules of the criminal group); 2nd "territorial administration" (criminal acts contrary to the laws of the faction are punished seriously and violent crimes,

⁸ Comparative bridge: International Crisis Group's 2024 report on the Brazil-Colombia-Peru tri-border region is useful because it connects Brazilian factions, Colombian dissident networks, cocaine routes and illegal extractive economies in one shared territorial frontier.

with the offender serving as an example to the other members of the group); 3rd "economic extraction, and political mediation" (organized crime demarcates its own spaces in the communities where it operates, and even without the consent of the residents), the factions take over shacks located in the hills (Rio de Janeiro), where these places represent strategic points for the development of their illegal activities.

These categories better capture the fact that criminal groups do not merely occupy space; they also define conduct, punish violations, arbitrate conflicts, and organize markets.

Recently, indigenous lands in the region covered by the triple border area in the Amazon (a common border area belonging to the 3 countries: Brazil, Colombia, and Peru) or environmental preservation areas are becoming a place for the development of illegal and criminal activities linked to the drug traffic.

The "welfare" field of action serves as the primary basis for activities that reaffirm the origin of parallel states in different locations and has become the most important ally of criminal factions, as it reinforces their dominance and action and also guarantees their permanence in needy communities; and the consequent dominance, since criminal organizations exchange their "pseudo-protection" in police raids, with the support and protection of residents, for a system of social assistance to them, maintaining the social bond between both as an agent that facilitates their criminal activities.

Another critical characteristic of criminal factions is the "integrations and partnerships" they form with other militias to obtain new territories and expand their illicit businesses. They have a cooperation agreement in the fight against State attacks and the CV faction.

Actions in the political and economic fields are other spheres where parallel states' influence remains active and is increasingly extending into more territories. For example, in specific communities in Rio de Janeiro, the militia determine which candidates they can ask residents for votes in their respective areas of influence to elect politicians who will be able to facilitate their illegal activities in the future, supporting and practicing acts of corruption committed in the public sphere, which promotes the illicit mechanism of money laundering from bribes in different activities, to divert the attention of crime-fighting authorities.

As observed, a growing range of activities by parallel states are diversifying at an unprecedented pace, going beyond drug and arms trafficking, among others.

3.1 PARALLEL STATES IN RIO DE JANEIRO

According to the NGO crisisgroup.org (2024):

Criminal groups increasingly branch into illicit logging, gold dredging, and fishing. These activities allow them to launder money made from drug trafficking: state officials in Brazil refer to "narco-mining" and "narco loggers" to describe how drug profits are reinvested in the timber and gold industries. However, criminal groups do not just engage in these activities for laundering; they are also looking for another, safer source of income. Because law enforcement focuses on curbing the production and transport of cocaine, other illegal endeavors tend to be more lightly policed. Indeed, in some cases, corrupt state officials facilitate the entry of illegally obtained commodities into the market by providing false paperwork, which gives these groups access to the legal supply chain. (Crisis Group, 2024)

The activities of parallel states in Rio de Janeiro have as their precursor the criminal faction CV, which is the most important in the criminal sphere and the main "enemy" of other criminal factions and militias, with which constant disputes are intensified for control of territories considered strategic for illegal activities. Their illicit activities expand both transnationally and in a variety of actions and aim to "launder money" obtained from their core activities: the illicit trade of drugs, narcotics, and weapons.

The most interesting aspect is that since their origin in the 1960s, these "states" have been conquering spaces and territories in the permanent depths of the State's inefficiency. After so many decades, their actions have only increased, given the impossibility of combating them, and this is becoming increasingly apparent.

It is also important to highlight that the greatest extent of this parallel State's power coincides with moments of economic slowdown and crisis, notably from the 1980s onwards, when we observed a clear turning point in the Brazilian economy, with a substantial reduction in the average growth rate and, consequently, in job creation.

Some problems related to fighting the parallel states are even demonstrated in the lyrics of Rio funk songs, whose theme is the needy communities of Rio's hills, as stated in "Rap das Armas," which became an international hit in 2008 and 2009 after its inclusion in the soundtrack of the film *Elite Squad* (2007), when the deficit of weapons resources becomes evident in the excerpt:

But if it's German, I won't leave it for tomorrow, I'll finish off the bastard
and shoot him with a shotgun because these Germans are all bastards,
they come with an old pistol, shoot twice and fly away, and if it's not a
revolver, I'll beat him up, and I'll end the rap by detonating it with a
grenade
(Cidinho e Doca, Gun rap, 2008, our translation)

"German," a slang term used by Rio de Janeiro drug dealers, refers to all rivals of criminal factions, whether they are police officers, independent of the force, Armed Forces members, or rival criminal organizations. The musical excerpt clearly shows the

lack of weapons available to the State security apparatus to ensure an efficient fight against organized crime. The impossibility of having an adequate number of police officers and efficient weapons makes raids into poor communities complicated, which consequently puts the lives of police officers at risk in a confrontation between them and drug traffickers, given that the latter have a more extensive, more modern, and also efficient security apparatus; thus ensuring the possibility of them emerging "victorious" in the clashes. The song can be used as cultural evidence of the normalization of armed conflict and enemy categories in Rio's popular imaginary, but it should not be treated as empirical proof that the State lacks weapons or that criminal groups possess superior armament. That claim requires security data, seizure records, police capacity indicators, or specialized studies.⁹

⁹ Evidentiary caution. Song lyrics can support a cultural reading of violence and enemy categories, but they cannot by themselves prove the balance of weapons, police capacity or operational superiority between the State and criminal factions.

Table 1. Comparative analytical matrix to be inserted before the Colombian case

Analytical dimension	Rio de Janeiro / Brazil	Colombia
Historical formation	Urban marginalization, prison-favela networks, Comando Vermelho, and later militia expansion.	Cartel era, internal armed conflict, rural coca economies, and post-FARC reconfiguration.
Territorial base	Favelas, peripheral neighborhoods, prison networks, and Amazonian corridors.	Coca-producing enclaves, rural corridors, border cities, and extractive frontiers.
Main actors	Comando Vermelho, PCC, TCP, ADA, and militias, with different origins and links to state agents.	Historic Medellín and Cali cartels; contemporary dissident groups, ELN, Clan del Golfo, and local trafficking networks.
Economic base	Retail drug markets, arms, extortion, informal services, illegal mining/logging, and laundering channels.	Cocaine production and trafficking, illegal mining, extortion, border routes, and laundering networks.
Community relation	Selective protection and service provision under coercive silence and territorial surveillance.	Protection/control orders in zones of weak institutional access are often linked to armed conflict and illicit economies.
Relation with the State	Confrontation, collusion, selective policing, prison governance failures, and political infiltration.	Confrontation, negotiation, corruption, military campaigns, and contested rural governance.
Transnational connection	Atlantic and Amazon routes toward regional, European, and African markets.	Production and supply networks feeding regional and global cocaine routes.

Source: Authors

3.2 PARALLEL STATES IN COLOMBIA

The actions of parallel states in Brazil and Colombia have significant similarities, which can be observed in the actions of parallel states in the social, economic, and political spheres of these countries and also in the social bond established between the residents of poor communities and criminal factions; and between these and members of cartels in these two Latin American countries, with drug cartels being the most active criminal organization in Colombia. Crime in Colombia was highlighted in the international media in the 1980s.

The Colombian case should not be reduced to the historical image of the Medellín and Cali cartels. A rigorous comparison requires distinguishing the urban cartel phase of the 1980s and 1990s from later forms of armed territorial

governance associated with guerrilla groups, paramilitary successor organizations, drug-trafficking networks, border economies, illegal mining, and post-peace-agreement dissidences.¹⁰

According to Monteiro (2014):

During the years of growing urban violence in Rio de Janeiro in the 1990s and 2000s, it was very common to hear on the news and in political speeches a warning that the crime situation in Rio could reach the same levels as in Colombia. The Andean country was a model of a borderline situation in Latin America, with high homicide rates, criminal infiltration in all branches of government, and a strong projection of the power of cartels in the country's major cities. It was from the 1980s onwards that violent crime associated with drug trafficking in Colombia began to gain international attention both as an example of urban warfare and of what has become known as transnational crime. The Colombian cartels and the figure of international drug traffickers, such as Pablo Escobar, became the widespread image of this new enemy, which was different from the ordinary criminal of the big cities, from the interstate enemy of regular wars, and the political insurgency of the Cold War years. (Monteiro, 2014, our translation)

It was also from the 1980s onwards that relations between Brazil and Colombia became closer concerning partnerships between Colombian drug cartels and Brazilian criminal gangs, specifically with the CV; there was a more significant boost in drug trafficking activities since the Colombian cartels of Cali and Medellín, at the height of their activities, established commercial relations concerning the supply of cocaine with Brazilian criminal factions and entered the consumer market for this drug in Rio de Janeiro and São Paulo.

UNODC (2024) reported that coca cultivation in Colombia increased by 10 percent in 2023, reaching 253,000 hectares, while potential cocaine production reached 2,664 metric tons, a 53 percent increase over 2022. These figures help explain why armed groups continue to compete for territorial corridors and why the Colombian case remains central to the regional cocaine economy¹¹

During this period, conquering additional territories was necessary to increase the number of drug sales points and ensure supply to the Andean partners. Conquering territories at the time meant eliminating independent

¹⁰ Periodization note. Colombia should be analyzed across distinct phases: the cartel period, the armed-conflict period, the post-paramilitary/post-FARC reconfiguration and the contemporary border/extractive-economy phase.

¹¹ Empirical update. UNODC reported in October 2024 that coca cultivation in Colombia reached 253,000 hectares in 2023 and that potential cocaine production reached 2,664 metric tons, a 53 per cent increase over 2022.

groups, which led to war between criminal factions in the hills of Rio de Janeiro. It was a prelude to the current fighting and possibly a determining factor in the origin of the territorial disputes between the parallel states as they exist today.

The dispute over territories also involves profound social changes in the communities where criminal factions operate, drawing attention and recruiting new members for the illicit activities of the criminal underworld, as confirmed by the involvement of adolescents in these activities. The significant increase in the participation of adolescents in drug trafficking, as cited in the Rio de Janeiro Public Prosecutor's Office Magazine, reached a percentage of 1340% in 2000 in Rio de Janeiro (capital and metropolitan region) in seizures related to drug trafficking activities (Revista do Ministério Público, 2008):

According to the same source, 110 seizures were recorded in 1980; 1,584 were recorded in 2000, representing an increase of 1,340%. Even if we consider the hypothesis that this data results from more efficient policing of this type of infraction, an increase of this magnitude is so considerable that it can be concluded that there was a significant increase in the number of cases. (Rio de Janeiro State Prosecution Service, 2008, our translation)

These alarming data are also related to the development and diversity of drug dealers activities, since from the 1950s to the 2000s, there was a profound diversity of these illicit activities, which continues to this day. According to this study, in the 1950s, the predominant activity was the sale of marijuana; in 1960, the sale of cocaine stood out among the drug trade. At the end of the 70s, the "Comando Vermelho" (CV) faction emerged. In the 80s, profound transformations occurred in the drug trafficking scenario in Rio de Janeiro due to the partnerships of criminal factions with Latin American countries regarding the cocaine trade, such as Colombia.

In the 1990s, when the actions of criminal factions became more evident, there was an alarming increase in the involvement of adolescents in drug trafficking, which may explain the high percentage of arrests linked to such illegal activities in 2000.

The geographic location of Rio de Janeiro, which occupies a strategic position on the South Atlantic Sea route, allowing the export of illegal drugs such as cocaine to other Latin American countries, such as Bolivia, Paraguay, Colombia, and Peru, represents an attraction for gangs in the dispute for

territories, due to the high profitability that can arise from this illegal drug trade. This situation justifies the ongoing conflicts between criminal factions and militias over the conquest of increasingly peripheral and even urban areas to establish control in these places and enable the full development of their illegal activities. According to the newspaper "O Estado de São Paulo" (2023) and NGO Crisis Group (2024):

The expansion of parallel state activities, mainly criminal factions, is occurring throughout Latin America and even reaching European countries and other continents, becoming transnational. Regarding the "Comando Vermelho" (CV), its activities span most Brazilian regions, with its influence strongest in Rio de Janeiro, the states of the Northern Region, and Mato Grosso State.

Peru, for its part, has become the engine of cocaine production in the area, causing severe environmental damage. Coca crops, which are grown on razed forest land, have boomed in the Peruvian border province of Mariscal Ramón Castilla, often founded by Colombian or Brazilian investors and drawing on the labor of local villagers to cultivate the plant. The leaf is processed in laboratories that leak contaminants into the soil and water, and the finished product is then transported unchecked along the Amazon and its tributaries. Most of it is eventually sold in Brazil – the largest domestic market for the drug in South America – or exported to Europe and Africa. (Crisis Group's, 2024)

Once again, the unfavorable economic conditions were one of the factors that facilitated the rise of these criminal groups and the greater ease in recruiting personnel, especially teenagers. In the 1990s, despite the success of the stabilization policy with the Plano Real, we undoubtedly observed, as one of the adverse side effects of this plan, relatively modest GDP growth rates, which, combined with the deepening of the process of economic opening and productive restructuring that characterized this period, led to mediocre job creation dynamics, with a significant increase in the unemployment rate. Second NGO crisis group (2024):

To recruit new members, mainly teenagers, intending to carry out their illicit activities concerning the transportation and trade of drugs destined for export, the "Comando Vermelho," following the example of what happens in Rio de Janeiro, once again takes over the gaps left by the State and promotes welfare actions in the region of the triple border, and in the same way that occurs in large metropolises. Reduced state control on the borders between Brazil, Colombia, and Peru has facilitated the illegal export of drugs (Crisis Group's, 2024).

4. RESULTS AND DISCUSSIONS

Criminal governance is not produced by absence alone. In Rio de Janeiro, the State appears through police raids, prisons, urban regulation, elections, and corrupt protection networks, but often fails to guarantee stable citizenship, due process, and public services. In Colombia, the State may be present through military campaigns, peace negotiations, and anti-drug policies, yet remains weak or contested in rural, border, and illegal-extractive economies. The analytical problem is therefore the quality, continuity, and legitimacy of state presence.¹²

From this perspective, “welfare” provided by criminal groups should be treated as a mechanism of domination. Assistance, protection, and dispute mediation help create dependence and silence, but they operate alongside extortion, surveillance, forced recruitment, mobility restrictions, and punishment. The article should therefore avoid romanticizing criminal social assistance and instead describe it as coercive welfare or authoritarian service provision.¹³

5. CONCLUSION

The expansion of parallel states linked to crime in the Brazilian case could result from a combination of welfare-state fragility, geographical factors, economic crisis, and a lack of public policies. These state fragilities occurred during a period when the growth of the power of drug cartels, in some sense, supported the State's failure and local actions in communities.

We must remember that this movement occurred, combined with the lower dynamism of the economy from the 1980s onwards and the lower capacity to generate jobs both in quantitative and qualitative terms, enabling the formation and reaffirming the consolidation of territorial criminal orders that converted material scarcity into recruitment capacity, political leverage, and local authority.

¹² Main argumentative synthesis. The Brazil-Colombia comparison is strongest when framed around the quality and legitimacy of state presence, rather than a binary of presence versus absence.

¹³ Conceptual caution. “Criminal welfare” should be analyzed as authoritarian service provision: it may solve immediate problems while deepening dependence, fear, surveillance and coercive control.

The characteristics of the so-called "parallel" states formed by members of drug trafficking and militias are similar in many respects if we consider the comparative case of Brazil and Colombia.

In Latin American countries, it is common for the State to fight against drug trafficking constantly, and some relevant aspects are common, which deserve to be highlighted, such as the enticement of minors by drug traffickers in poor communities and on the outskirts of large cities; the illegal possession of land by criminal factions, destined for the cultivation of drugs (coca/marijuana) for later refinement and illicit trade; as well as the possession of shacks by residents in Rio de Janeiro's favelas, considered strategic locations for the development of illicit activities; the extortion of residents in Rio de Janeiro by militias and illegal miners in the tri-border region; corruption in the political sphere to drain the money of criminal factions by adopting money laundering mechanisms; the inefficient and precarious border security system; the lack of active monitoring and permanent control of maritime transport, which enables the export of illegal drugs, attracting a wider range of consumers internationally.

Because of the above, it can be inferred that urbanization, as one of the characteristics of development in these countries, was not accompanied by the simultaneous adoption by the State of public policies aimed at developing a sustainable infrastructure aimed at improving the living conditions of residents on the outskirts of large cities, enabling the formation and reaffirmation of what is called "parallel states," which act in the gaps left by the State with its "welfare" activities. Due to the absence of the State in various social sectors, including the Brazilian prison system, serious mistakes were made and continue to be made, the long-term consequences of which echo to this day, such as the mistake made in the 1970s when political prisoners and ordinary prisoners were placed in the same wing of the Ilha Grande penitentiary in Angra dos Reis, Rio de Janeiro, whose union gave rise to the CV, the oldest criminal faction in Brazil.

The same mistake is being made today: when leaders of drug traffickers incarcerated in federal prisons are placed together. They continue to influence and recruit more drug traffickers, acting as a kind of reference for criminal organizations. As a result, alliances have been formed internationally, strengthening criminal networks even more so today. One example is the arrest in April 2001 of drug trafficker Luiz Fernando da Costa, known as "Fernandinho

Beira-mar," in a jungle area in Colombia where the Colombian Revolutionary Armed Forces (FARC) operates. Therefore, it is considered that, even 23 years after his arrest in Colombian territory (2001 to 2024), the authorities of both countries have not yet found a common denominator to reduce the association between members of criminal factions in the two Latin American countries.

Organized crime continues to expand its illicit business, reaffirming that the adoption of public policies to combat drug trafficking also involves the economic, political, and international legal spheres. In addition to the implementation of essential services to the population in areas where criminal organizations operate, this type of "welfare" provided by drug traffickers in communities must be curbed.

The Amazon region is a new frontier for the expansion of drug trafficking. If public state policies are not implemented soon, we could see a repeat of what happened in the communities of Rio de Janeiro.

The comparison between Rio de Janeiro and Colombia suggests that the fight against organized crime cannot be reduced to police repression or military incursions. It requires territorially sustained public policy, integrity controls over police and political institutions, prison governance reform, youth employment and education strategies, protection for community leaders, cross-border cooperation, and financial investigations aimed at laundering networks. Without these measures, the State may continue to appear episodically as a force while criminal organizations continue to operate as everyday authority.

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CHAPTER 5



USE OF DIGITAL TECHNOLOGIES CONSIDERED AS DIGITAL CAPITAL: AN ANALYSIS IN THE LIGHT OF BOURDIEU

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ABSTRACT: This article generally addresses digital technologies in relation to the pedagogical practices of teachers in full-time schools in the state education network of Alagoas, considering the cultural capital of the school community. The general objective was to understand the relationship between pedagogical practices developed by teachers and digital capital in full-time schools in the public education network in Alagoas. The article presents a quantitative-qualitative approach, in which the digital pedagogical materials made available, the theoretical-methodological and procedural references in the field of data collection, document analysis and the application of a questionnaire with teachers from the full-time school of state education network. The bibliographic research was directed by the following authors: Bourdieu (1986), Moran (2012, 2017, 2019), Valente (2002, 2019), Nóvoa (1992), Libâneo (2023) and Tardif (2007). In the end, it was concluded that knowledge about digital skills tends to develop through the teacher's pedagogical practice, which manifests itself through cultural relationships. In this context, our paths begin to chart positive directions with the use of digital capital in the classroom.

KEYWORDS: capital, cultural, technologies, digital, practices, pedagogical.

RESUMO: O presente artigo de modo geral aborda as tecnologias digitais frente às práticas pedagógicas dos professores das escolas de ensino integral da rede estadual de ensino de Alagoas, considerando o capital cultural da comunidade escolar. O objetivo geral se configurou em compreender a relação das práticas

pedagógicas desenvolvidas pelos professores com o capital digital nas escolas de tempo integral da rede pública de ensino alagoana. O artigo apresenta uma abordagem quanti-qualitativa, em que foram considerados os materiais digitais pedagógicos disponibilizados, os referenciais teórico-metodológicos e procedimentais no campo da coleta de dados, da análise dos documentos e da aplicação de questionário com professores da escola de tempo integral da rede estadual de ensino. A pesquisa bibliográfica foi direcionada pelos seguintes autores: Bourdieu (1986), Moran (2012, 2017, 2019), Valente (2002, 2019), Nóvoa (1992), Libâneo (2023) e Tardif (2007). Ao final concluiu-se que os conhecimentos sobre as competências digitais tendem a se desenvolver por meio da prática pedagógica do professor, que se manifesta através das relações culturais. Nesse contexto, nossos caminhos começam a traçar rumos positivos com o uso do capital digital em sala de aula.

PALAVRAS-CHAVE: capital, cultural, tecnologias, digitais, práticas, pedagógicas.

1. INTRODUCTION

This article is an excerpt from the master's thesis titled DIGITAL CAPITAL AND TEACHING WORK: Challenges of Pedagogical Practices Developed in Full-Time Public Schools in the Alagoas State School System, which examines the economic, social, and cultural relationships associated with the use of digital technologies in the teaching-learning process. Teaching and learning are dynamic processes that are constantly evolving. In schools, everyone involved—students, teachers, and the school community—collaborates to find the best pedagogical practices that ensure meaningful learning. We agree with Moran when he states that:

Learning is most meaningful when we deeply motivate students, when they find meaning in the activities we propose, when we tap into their deep motivations, when they engage in projects to which they contribute, and when there is dialogue about the activities and how to carry them out (MORAN, 2019, p. 41).

Here, it is worth reflecting on teaching that involves communication, innovation, creativity, and interaction—as pedagogical practices developed in full-time schools within the Alagoas state school system. This knowledge is grouped under Digital Information and Communication Technologies (DICTs), which play an important role in the process of quality teaching and learning, with the teacher serving as a mediator of knowledge.

These digital technologies represent a set of digital capital existing in the school environment. To conceptualize digital capital, we draw on the teachings of Bourdieu (1986, p. 2), who states that “It is in fact impossible to explain the structure and functioning of the social world unless one reintroduces capital in all its forms and not merely in the form recognized by economic theory.”

An individual's economic decisions are shaped by a set of factors, including their financial circumstances, the investments they have made, and the social context in which they live. Public policies and social relations also exert a significant influence on these decisions. We know that culture influences the way people learn and use digital technologies, thereby shaping how digital capital is employed. According to Cortoni and Perovic, digital capital, drawing on Bourdieu,

can be understood as a set of material resources (technologies, digital services, and school experiences with devices) or non-material resources (digital competencies), available in a specific area (or social space) such as a school, which anyone (teacher, student, administrative staff, school principal, etc.) can use to achieve specific goals (CORTONI and PEROVIC, 2020, p. 02).

In the pursuit of meaningful learning for students, teachers seek ways to understand how pedagogical practices utilizing digital capital are applied in schools. Once again, we will bring this knowledge to the full-time schools within the public school system of Alagoas.

Thus, the general objective of this study is to investigate the relationship between teachers in the state public school system and digital capital as it pertains to the pedagogical practices implemented in the Alagoas Full-Time Education Program (pALei), established as an educational policy of the state public school system. To address the proposed research processes, we present the following specific objectives: a) To contextualize the origin and spread of Digital Information and Communication Technologies in local and national contexts based on their use in educational institutions in Brazil and in Alagoas; b) To discuss the concept of digital capital based on the theoretical references of Bourdieu (1930–2002); c) Identify the typologies used by teachers regarding digital capital in the teaching-learning process at full-time schools linked to the Alagoas Full-Time Education Program (pALei); d) Systematize the digital competencies that influence teaching and learning processes in the conduct of full-time classes;

In order to achieve the established objectives, it is essential to investigate whether the continuing education in digital technologies offered by the state school system ensures that teachers develop the digital competencies necessary to meet students' educational needs.

2. THEORETICAL FRAMEWORK

Our analysis is based on the premise that the teaching process is interconnected with the economic, social, and cultural dimensions of the individual. The greater the understanding of these relationships, the greater the individual's access to information and, consequently, to digital capital, according

to Bourdieu's perspective (1986), where we reflect on the use of digital technologies, aiming to understand them as pedagogical tools and identify the competencies necessary for their effective use.

Given the current landscape, the integration of the individual with technology is fundamental, especially in education. In this context, interdisciplinarity proves essential for an innovative approach to new technologies that connects theory and practice.

Digital competencies are developed through frequent practice in the use of digital technologies. According to Bourdieu (1986, p. 4), "Cultural capital can be acquired, to varying degrees depending on the period, society, and social class, in the absence of any deliberate inculcation and, therefore, quite unconsciously."

It is noted that the author presents an important reflection on cultural capital, acquired to varying degrees, which depends on the individual's society and social class. This acquisition occurs unconsciously, without conscious effort, and depends on the subject's social context, their era, and their interests, without any requirement to acquire it. From this perspective, we turn to Freire to understand the concept of humanism and the view of technologies,

The false conception of humanism—which sees technology as the cause of modern man's ills. And the basic error of both, which cannot offer their adherents any real form of commitment, lies in the fact that, having lost the dimension of totality, they fail to perceive the obvious: that humanism and technology are not mutually exclusive. They fail to realize that the former implies the latter and vice versa. If my commitment is truly to the concrete human being, to the cause of their humanization and liberation, I cannot for that very reason do without science or technology, which I use as tools to better fight for this cause (FREIRE, 2007, p. 22).

Thus, we understand that digital technologies play an important role in the acquisition of knowledge, with digital capital being present in the Social Sciences, as presented by Bourdieu (1986). With this, we address the use of digital technologies in schools, understood as digital capital among teachers in the Alagoas state public school system. Our interest lies in investigating teachers' pedagogical practices regarding the use of technologies.

To this end, the theoretical framework draws on Bourdieu (1986, p.1), who focuses on the study of inequalities between school and culture. It is emphasized

that students' social background results in educational inequalities, which broadens the concept of capital by presenting three fundamental forms: economic capital, social capital, and cultural capital. These forms help us understand the relationship between socioeconomic status and educational outcomes.

Capital is accumulated labor (in its materialized form or its "embodied" form) which, when appropriated privately—that is, exclusively by agents or groups of agents—enables them to acquire social power in the form of reified capital or living labor (BOURDIEU, 1986, p.1).

For Bourdieu (1986), *economic capital* is immediately and directly convertible into money and can be institutionalized in the form of property rights; *cultural capital* is convertible, under certain conditions, into economic capital and can be institutionalized in the form of academic qualifications; and *social capital*, consisting of social obligations ('connections'), which is convertible, under certain conditions, into economic capital and can be institutionalized in the form of a title of nobility.

For him, cultural capital presents itself as an indispensable hypothesis for accounting for inequalities in school performance among children from different social classes and social class fractions. As a complement to this reasoning, cultural capital is understood as "academic success," to which he attributes the benefits that children from different classes can obtain in what he calls the school market. Thus, the benefits that children possess influence academic success:

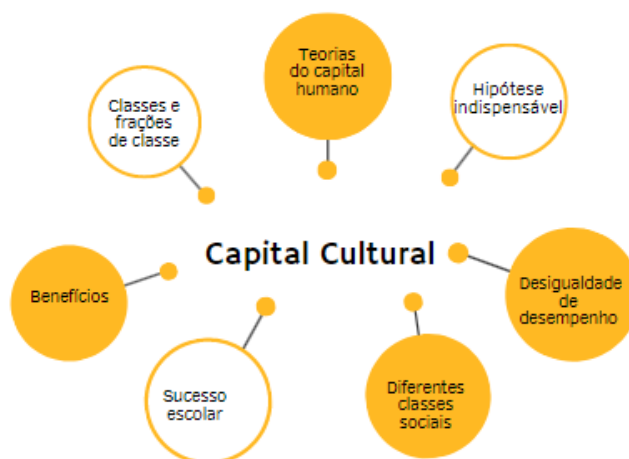
Now, if we seriously consider the socially conditioned inequalities in the face of school and culture, we are compelled to conclude that the formal equity to which every school system adheres is in fact an unjust " , " and that every society that proclaims democratic ideals protects privileges better than the open transmission of privileges. (BOURDIEU, 1986, p. 96).

Analyzing the social inequalities that shape school and culture, Bourdieu elaborated on the three states of cultural capital, across different social classes, to be acquired by the individual in a school setting.

Thus, Bourdieu (2015, p. 85) emphasizes that "there is a break with the assumptions inherent both in the common view that regards academic success or failure as the result of natural aptitudes and in theories of human capital." The

benefits an individual possesses favor the theories of human capital within which they are embedded. To better understand this statement, let us examine the main characteristics of cultural capital presented in the following figure:

Figure 1. Characteristics of cultural capital, according to Bourdieu (2015).

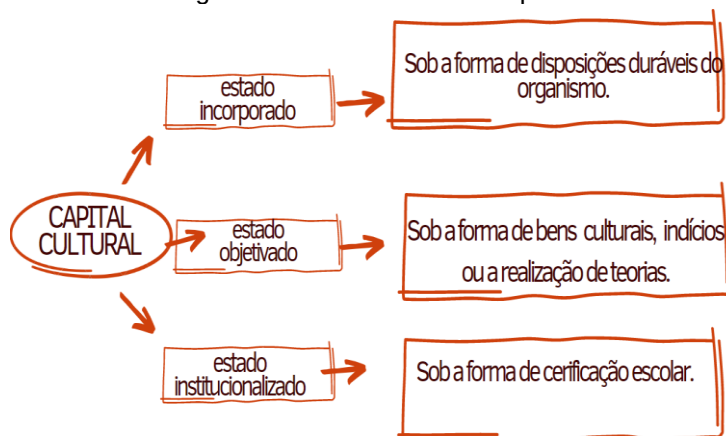


Source: Researchers.

Figure 1 shows that cultural capital is considered an essential concept for understanding performance disparities among children from different social classes and is linked to academic success for those with economic advantages, both across social classes and within them, which supports the school market in line with human capital theories. Therefore, it is worth reflecting on the role of schools in today's challenging context.

Thus, in modern times, schools continue to cater to a privileged few, which influences student learning. Bourdieu (2015) highlights the apparent merit of economists who compare rates of return on education to investments and monetary benefits resulting from educational expenses, as well as the monetary equivalent of time dedicated to study. However, still from the sociologist's perspective, economists cannot account for the transmission of cultural capital from its origin, which occurs within the family and, often, in a hereditary manner. Thus, he divides cultural capital into three states: the embodied state, the objectified state, and the institutionalized state, as illustrated in the summary in the figure below:

Figure 2. States of cultural capital.



Source: Researchers.

Thus, as can be seen in Figure 2, cultural capital is divided into three states: the embodied state that accompanies the individual, considered a durable asset because it extends until their death; the objectified state that accompanies the individual but can also be purchased economically. As an example, the author cites the purchase of paintings, books, dictionaries, instruments, machines, among others; and the institutionalized state in which one observes the certification of the school that guarantees entirely original properties.

With the culture of digital technology use, teachers now need to bring this methodology into the classroom, which, according to Tardif (2002), “the relationship between teachers and knowledge is not restricted to a function of transmitting already established knowledge.” In this sense, we start from the premise that learning is related to the production and construction of knowledge by students, accompanied and guided by the mediating role of the teaching- .

In Oliveira’s (2010) view, “When technologies are available in the school setting, this refers to a category that encompasses both the individuals involved in the educational process in schools and other educational institutions.” This therefore encompasses the activities and relationships present in educational institutions, which extend beyond classroom instruction. Thus, teaching subjects can be considered to include teachers, educators, monitors, interns, principals, coordinators, supervisors, counselors, attendants, and assistants, among others. Experience as a legacy, transmitted at the same time as it is historically constructed and elaborated (Thompson, 1997), “is also shared through work, constituting a key concept for understanding the category of teaching work.”

Addressing teaching work and technologies as tools for its execution, we draw on Mercado, who suggests that when working with technologies, teachers should adhere to the following competencies:

Value teaching practice as a source of reflection, research, and knowledge; Develop knowledge by using and valuing technological resources in educational activities; Engage in ongoing in-service training at the school, creating opportunities for teachers to exchange experiences, develop team activities, and value exchange and learning with all group members; Foster critical reflection and the development of independent thinking through the exchange of experiences with peers, enabling the generation of new knowledge and the sharing of this knowledge with the entire group; Embrace new technologies as a tool rather than as something imposed from the outside, emphasizing pedagogical attitudes of innovation and interaction within interdisciplinary teams (MERCADO, 1999, p. 100).

The knowledge acquired through the competencies and skills that teachers need to carry out instruction is built through daily practice, through the exchange of experiences with peers and with students. On this point, Libâneo observes that organized learning is

That which has the specific purpose of acquiring certain knowledge, skills, and norms of social coexistence. Although this can occur in various places, it is in school that the specific conditions for the transmission and assimilation of knowledge and skills are organized. This intentional, planned, and systematic organization of the purposes and conditions of school learning is a specific task of teaching (LIBÂNEO, 1994, p. 82).

In this sense, it is worth noting that technologies have changed the way people communicate both in society and at school, altering practices of interaction and socializing. In this regard, Lorenzato adds:

Technology brings about sociocultural and technological developments, causing changes in human thought and way of life; Educational Sector – influenced by these developments (educational concerns); The role of the teacher – they cease to be the primary transmitters of information and begin to act as facilitators or mentors in the learning process; Importance of continuing teacher education (LORENZATO, 2007, p. 39).

Digital inclusion in the school environment poses the challenge of implementing changes in teaching practices; schools and school systems must discuss

the use of technologies and consider ways to develop the digital skills necessary to engage students in learning. In this regard, Valente adds that,

Only through knowledge of the available options and a critical debate on this field will we empower local stakeholders to take the reins of technological development in their school systems and schools. Finally, it is essential to establish policies and funding for monitoring and evaluation to build a clear understanding of the implementation, effectiveness, and efficiency of the proposals, thereby stimulating debates on future initiatives (VALENTE, p. 174, 2018).

Thus, there are several questions that concern us: how can we work with technology in the classroom knowing that not all students have access to it? What contributions do digital technologies make to the teaching process? What competencies and skills do we need to master digital technologies related to teaching? Do all teachers possess the competencies and skills to work with digital technologies in a learning environment? It is evident, then, that the teaching profession has been challenged to incorporate into its repertoire of activities teaching methodologies considered necessary to meet the educational demands of the current context.

In schools, everyone shares responsibility for implementing public policies, and it is up to teachers to engage with pedagogical knowledge. According to Tar-dif (2002), “teachers’ relationship with knowledge is not limited to the function of transmitting pre-established knowledge.” In this sense, we start from the premise that learning is related to the production and construction of knowledge by students, who follow the guidelines mediated by the teacher. Behrens (2009) suggests that “the educator should seek new ways to overcome old paradigms, go beyond the limits of the classroom, and resort to project-based and research methodologies.”

3. METHODOLOGY

The study employed a mixed-methods approach, combining quantitative and qualitative techniques to analyze digital materials, documents, and data collected through a questionnaire administered to teachers. Following this approach, we administered a questionnaire to 23 (twenty-three) teachers at State Full-Time School X in the Alagoas public school system to obtain data regarding

the quantity of technologies available for teaching work and the quality of digital competencies used by teachers, as well as to gather information on digital competencies through the use of ICTs available in the school environment.

In addition to analyzing the data collected through the questionnaires, further data were gathered via document analysis, thereby complementing both the nature of the research and the other elements involved. It was therefore important to focus on the digital competencies utilized with technological resources, highlighting the main trends in this area, which is considered innovative as a paradigm shift, in addition to bringing education into the current reality.

For the purposes of this study, a time frame was established from 2018 to 2021. A multiple-choice questionnaire was developed based on the perspectives of teachers from full-time high schools in the Alagoas state school system selected for this research; however, given the conditions imposed by the COVID-19 pandemic, we faced challenges of all kinds: psycho-emotional, economic, and the inability to write. The choice of this school was based on the criterion that it is a benchmark for full-time high school education in the state of Alagoas (SEDUC/AL, 2019).

During the research, we also encountered difficulties with communication and participants' availability due to social isolation, which led us to send out an interview guide and, based on the responses received, proceed with the analysis.

4. RESULTS AND DISCUSSION

Despite these difficulties, we maintained rigor and a careful approach to the subject of study, given the insights provided by the participants, the quality of the responses received through the questionnaire, and how they view digital capital and teaching work within the current conception of education in the context of public policy development for education.

The evaluation of the research results and impacts indicates that 56.5% of the teachers at School X are women and that among all of them, 52.2% are 40 years of age or older—that is, they were born before the technological advancements in society and the classroom.

As for teachers' educational backgrounds, 82.6% hold a bachelor's

degree; 4.3% hold a master's degree, and none hold a doctorate. This situation warrants reflection: why do basic education systems not encourage teachers to pursue master's or doctoral degrees? According to Dias (2012), this professional profile is associated with an evaluation policy widely discussed as responsible for the quality of education through the regulation of teaching work. It is observed that 73.9% of the interviewed teachers have already participated in some form of training or course in the area of digital technologies. However, 26.1% of the teachers who responded to the questionnaire had no training in technologies to use them in the classroom; when they do use them, they learn on their own.

The apps, platforms, or social media they use most for teaching are: WhatsApp (47.8%), YouTube (30.4%), Instagram is still frequently used, virtual games (notably Kahoot), and Google Classroom. Teachers consider cloud storage an essential use of ICTs in the school environment. According to Menezes (2003, p. 3), digital games typically feature challenges to be overcome through a set of rules and dynamic situations presented to the player. In addition to rules, challenges, and rewards, these games may include a narrative and user progression. They can be played individually or collectively, such as Minecraft, word searches, and memory games.

It is also noted that, based on the data collected from the survey, the main active methodologies used by them are: project-based learning (30.4%), hybrid teaching (21.7%), the flipped classroom (17.4%), as well as programming, gamification, computational thinking, game development, shared lessons, remote teaching, and augmented reality.

According to the survey findings, teachers believe that the use of technology in the classroom leads to better student performance; students feel motivated and engaged. For teachers at School X (86.96%) the use of technology sparks students' interest and interactivity during classes; for 13% of them, the use of technology contributes to democratizing the teaching process; 13% say that technology offers immediate and instant *feedback*; and 4.4% stated that technology aids in the perception and resolution of real-world problems.

Next, we wanted to know about the most commonly used video conferencing platforms; the most frequently cited response was *Google Meet* (82.6%), followed by *WhatsApp* (with video calls), *Zoom*, *Stream Yard*, and *Microsoft Teams*.

Regarding digital skills, teachers believe they acquire these skills through *online* courses, closely followed by in-person continuing education in technology; some also share the knowledge they've gained with others. It is therefore worth noting that not everyone has access to technology, which is not a universal reality.

Finally, we wanted to know about the time required to acquire digital skills and feel confident teaching using digital technologies. In response, we found that the teacher at School X needs approximately six months of continuing education and hands-on experience with technological resources; of course, for some, this process would be immediate. mastery of technology depends on each individual's engagement; it is personal, may be hereditary or a matter of privilege, and may even involve a lack of access to technology.

5. CONCLUSION

When considering the cultural capital developed in the school, we realize that the idea presented here arises from the challenges encountered when digital technologies become part of the daily routine in the classroom. We emphasize that the work of teachers in addressing the challenges posed by the pedagogical practices used in full-time public schools in the Alagoas public school system, in conjunction with digital capital, resembles the social structure proposed by Bourdieu, who views the social structure as a system built up from generation to generation, determined by economic (financial capital), symbolic (privilege), and cultural (education) relations.

Thus, when a teacher at a full-time school needs to use technology in the classroom, they navigate, in three distinct phases, through social relations from Bourdieu's perspective. In the first phase, the teacher needs economic capital to purchase equipment and bring it into the classroom, or they need state public policies to provide technological equipment for use in that space.

In the second stage, once the teacher has acquired the necessary equipment to carry out teaching practices, they must now socialize (social capital) acquired through symbolic relations—that is, through privileges—by possessing digital capital and working with digital capital in the classroom. Finally, the third

stage is linked to cultural relations (cultural capital) when the teacher acquires the digital competencies necessary to master the use of technology in the classroom.

By acquiring digital capital, the individual may go through one or all three states of cultural capital proposed by Bourdieu; once in the embodied state, they make a personal investment in the technique of assimilation and inculcation within the work environment, as cultural capital is acquired personally and over time. We can observe this situation in the research when we realize that teachers can learn digital skills in a matter of days or even months to master the use of technologies in the full-time classrooms of the Alagoas state school system.

Continuing with this line of thought, the individual passes through the objectified state when acquiring material supports such as writings, paintings, monuments, which are transmitted through their materiality, and through the institutionalized state when obtaining academic certification at the end of this process.

Based on what we have discussed so far, we can point out as initial findings that the expansion of digital capital in state schools necessitates ongoing training for teachers in active methodologies, not only to motivate students but also to innovate through technological and communication tools. It is evident that full-time schools in the Alagoas state public school system have the best results among state schools in the state according to IDEB scores. This is related to the time students spend in school and also to the activities carried out during the development of in-depth learning; we recognize that through the use of digital technologies, this result improves each year. In this sense, continuing education occurs mainly through online courses, and professional development depends on the cultural capital of the individual or the institution.

According to Moran (2019), “teacher training must be guided by creative, reflective, critical, and collaborative activities that foster coexistence with differences.” He further asserts that media and technologies serve as the language and instruments of culture, structuring thought, the curriculum, methodologies, and pedagogical relationships.

Given the significant challenges faced in the field of digital technologies, educational policies must prioritize digital inclusion, teacher training, and the digital competencies necessary to facilitate meaningful learning. As Moreira (2012, p. 2) notes, “it is important to reiterate that meaningful learning is characterized by the interaction between prior knowledge and new knowledge.”

Training involves experimentation, innovation, and the testing of new pedagogical approaches. It also requires critical reflection on their use. "Training involves research processes directly linked to educational practices," Nóvoa (1992, p. 27).

By using digital capital in full-time schools, we find that teachers have the opportunity to explore the pedagogical concepts presented in this research. From this perspective, we also find similarities with the dualistic school model when observing whether teachers possess or "do not possess" digital capital to develop teaching and learning. The digital capital present in full-time schools contributes to providing quality, motivating, and innovative education for students. Thus, education must find ways to ensure that students are guaranteed a well-rounded education.

In this sense, education only truly fulfills its fundamental principles when it promotes a humanistic, emancipatory, and critical education, capable of awakening critical thinking and elevating the individual to levels of understanding that can expand their participation not only in the world of work but in all dimensions of social life.

The teacher's pedagogical practice, by developing digital competencies, enables the acquisition of knowledge that transcends cultural relations and is not limited to hereditary factors or technological privileges. In this context, we believe that schools can contribute to providing access to digital capital for students who lack the means to acquire technological equipment; only in this way do we see possibilities for students to access knowledge disseminated through media, and thus, schools begin to chart positive paths through the use of digital capital in the classroom.

As for the challenges of this research, the first lies in the dynamic evolution of digital technologies that are "discovered" every minute. Second, we highlight the need for ongoing training in technologies that are essential for acquiring the digital competencies required to master and use digital capital in the school environment. Without adequate investment in digital learning competencies, teaching with digital technology languishes on the margins of society, and education cannot offer adequate knowledge through digital media.

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CHAPTER 6



ANGLICISMS IN THE PORTUGUESE LANGUAGE: CULTURAL AND IDENTITY ELEMENTS

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ABSTRACT: This study aims to examine and analyze the growing use of foreign loanwords—with a focus on Anglicisms—in the Portuguese language. The intention is to demonstrate that this usage stems not only from historical and cultural processes but is also intentional and an important part of a discourse that is steeped in ideology and directly impacts individuals' identities. The theoretical framework guiding the analysis is grounded in concepts of culture (Thompson and White, 2009), Bakhtin's theory of language (1997), Crystal's (2003) idea that the world has also undergone a linguistic revolution, views on loanwords (Carvalho, 1984, 1989; Faraco, 1991, 2004), the relationships between language and identity explored by Rajagopalan (2003), and concepts of identity (Bauman, 2001, 2005; Hall, 2003, 2011, 2013; and Silva, 2013). The analysis conducted indicated that the continuous and growing use of Anglicisms adds symbolic value to the Portuguese language, since words of English and/or North American origin are capable of capturing the imagination and triggering processes of identification in individuals, seducing them with patterns of a lifestyle and models of identities from cultures considered to have higher "status" than our own.

KEYWORDS: language, culture, identity, anglicisms.

RESUMO: Este trabalho possui como objetivo verificar e analisar a crescente utilização de estrangeirismos -com foco nos anglicismos -na língua portuguesa. A intenção é demonstrar que esse uso é decorrente não só de processos históricos e culturais, mas também intencional e parte importante de um discurso que se reveste de ideologia e mexe diretamente com a identidade dos indivíduos. O referencial teórico que orientou a análise fundamenta-se nos conceitos de cultura (Thompson e White, 2009), na teoria da linguagem de Bakhtin (1997), na ideia de Crystal (2003) de que o mundo também passou por uma revolução linguística, nas opiniões sobre estrangeirismos (Carvalho, 1984, 1989; Faraco, 1991, 2004), nas relações entre linguagem e identidade tecidas por Rajagopalan (2003) e nos conceitos de identidade (Bauman, 2001, 2005; Hall, 2003, 2011, 2013 e Silva, 2013). A análise empreendida indicou que o uso contínuo e crescente de anglicismos agrega um valor simbólico à

língua portuguesa, uma vez que os vocábulos de origem inglesa e/ou norte americana são capazes de captar o imaginário e desencadear processos de identificação nos indivíduos, seduzindo-os com padrões de um estilo de vida e modelos de identidades de culturas consideradas de maior “status” que a nossa.

PALAVRAS-CHAVE: língua, cultura, identidade, anglicismos

1. INTRODUCTION

In recent decades, the English language has established itself as the primary vehicle of international communication, assuming a prominent role in global interactions (Crystal, 2003). This linguistic centrality extends beyond the borders of historically English-speaking countries—such as England, the United States, South Africa, and Australia—making English a tool for dialogue among citizens of different nationalities in diverse contexts that go beyond politics, economics, and culture, encompassing the educational, corporate, administrative, financial, media, and international relations spheres as well.

Understanding this reality requires an analysis of the concepts of language, culture, and identity, as well as the interrelationships that permeate them. As social beings, we are shaped by this triad from the earliest years of life, and it is within this intertwining that the contemporary dynamics of language use in globalized contexts are inscribed.

In this scenario, the study of Anglicisms in Brazilian Portuguese constitutes not only a linguistic investigation but also a critical analysis of the cultural and identity-related tensions and influences that emerge in societies marked by globalization. Portuguese, as a heritage language, coexists with symbolic and pragmatic pressures stemming from the prestige and massive spread of English, which poses significant challenges to its structural integrity and its role in the construction of local identities.

Thus, this research is justified by the growing incorporation of Anglicisms into spoken Portuguese in Brazil, especially in a context of cultural hybridity. A critical reflection on the linguistic and identity-related impacts resulting from this phenomenon is therefore necessary.

This study contributes, from a theoretical perspective, to the field of language contact studies, as well as to discussions on language, culture, and identity. On a practical level, it offers relevant insights for debates in educational, media, and institutional contexts, promoting a more conscious and contextualized use of terms derived from foreign languages.

2. LANGUAGE, CULTURE, AND IDENTITY

2.1 LANGUAGE

In this article, we will use the term “language” to denote a systematic set of signs, an ordered linguistic system based on a set of rules, available to the speakers of a community, who use it daily for communication; and/or to describe a specific language, such as Portuguese, Spanish, etc.

Since ancient times, the ability to express feelings and thoughts has been a human desire. The means found to achieve this purpose was the development of language, which enabled humans to interact verbally with their peers, allowing them to externalize their thoughts, express themselves, and communicate through writing, speech, and other forms of language.

Social relationships were able to grow closer, and culture, as well as knowledge, ideas, and ideologies, began to be widely disseminated; for language and humanity became inseparable. Language began to permeate all human actions and thoughts, enabling the individual to influence or be influenced by others, to play roles in society, to relate to others, and ultimately to construct themselves as a political, social, and ideological being. From this point, we recognize that “The word is always laden with ideological or experiential content or meaning” (Bakhtin, 1997, p. 99), capable of seducing, repressing, enchanting, saddening, and influencing.

An individual, upon being born into a particular community, is inserted into the existing stream of verbal communication in that locality. However, language is not a finished product; it is a continuous process of construction. In line with Bakhtin (1997, p. 107–108), “[...] Subjects do not ‘acquire’ their mother tongue; it is in and through it that the first awakening of consciousness occurs.”

After being integrated into the social fabric, it is through language that individuals have the opportunity to engage with local ideologies, culture, and identity, becoming both a recipient and an instrument of social and linguistic interaction with their peers.

2.2 CULTURE

The word “culture” has more than one meaning. We can understand it in a commonly used sense as a synonym for acquired knowledge; for example, when we say that an individual is cultured, we mean that he or she possesses culture.

However, culture, according to Thompson (2009), can be understood as [...] the set of beliefs, customs, ideas, and values, as well as the artifacts, objects, and material instruments, which are acquired by individuals as members of a group or society. [...] (*cited in* Godoy and Santos, 2014, p. 22).

Bennett (1993) highlights two types of culture: subjective and objective. For the author, objective culture is related to all types of manifestations produced by society: science, literature, art, music, language. Objective culture is, therefore, the “concrete” product produced by society; it is related to the collective. Meanwhile, subjective culture is related to more abstract manifestations, such as norms, values, beliefs, and the “individual” use of language, thus suggesting the existence of an intercultural competence that individuals immersed in each culture possess, and which is realized through symbolization.

White (2009) considers that “Man and culture are inseparable; that is, one does not exist without the other” (*cited in* Godoy and Santos, 2014, p. 22) and that:

In this context, language makes it possible to accumulate and transmit knowledge, which, through symbolization and articulate discourse, creates social organizations and economic institutions, constantly refines the use of tools, and shapes traditions of knowledge and belief. (*cited in* Godoy and Santos, 2014, p. 23)

According to Tavares (2014, p. 173), “Culture is a symbolic construct unique to each people, yet one that is permeable to external influences that render it dynamic.” This process is mediated by language, which enables the transmission and diffusion of culture across generations. We thus understand that culture is a whole, realized individually, since each person is a fundamental part of cultural construction, as a creator, bearer, and disseminator of culture.

Cultural manifestations occur in various forms, but language is present in almost all of them, as it is the instrument that allows the individual to be integrated

into the social environment and enables them to interact socially. Language is one of the vehicles for the expression of individual and social identities, for it is through communicative processes that everyday verbal interactions are established.

2.3 IDENTITY(IES)

Since the beginning of the millennium, society has undergone transformations of various kinds—gender, ethnicity, religion, sexuality, race—at the social, geopolitical, and cultural levels, which directly influence every aspect of human life; impacting, above all, the identity processes of individuals. As a result of these influences, a new theme has emerged in academic and scientific circles: that we are currently experiencing a period of conflict, an “identity crisis.”

Hall (2011, p. 7) clarifies this “crisis” by explaining that “[...] the old identities, which for so long stabilized the social world, are in decline, giving rise to new identities and fragmenting the modern individual, hitherto viewed as a unified subject.” This reflection has permeated most discussions on the topic of identity across a wide range of fields of knowledge, as the “crisis” is perceived as one of the consequences of the structural changes occurring in postmodern society “and shaking the frames of reference that provided individuals with a stable anchor in the social world” (Hall, 2011, p. 7).

It can therefore be observed that there is a “decentering” affecting all social aspects and profoundly influencing the issue of identities, which are now fragmented and have acquired a certain fluidity. The individual who believed themselves to be integrated, possessing a unified and stable identity, gives way to the fragmented individual, constituted by multiple identities. According to Hall (2011, pp. 12–13), “The very process of identification, through which we project ourselves into our cultural identities, has become more provisional, variable, and problematic,” a statement that challenges the positivist conception of fixed, permanent identities. In agreement with the author, this article posits that identity(ies) is (are) defined by its (their) inconstancy, as it is an incessant construction and, therefore, subject to changes and inclusions.

Identification, in turn:

[...] is constructed based on the recognition of some common origin, or of characteristics shared with other groups or people, or even based on a shared ideal. It is upon this foundation that the natural cohesion occurs, forming the basis of solidarity and loyalty within the group in question. (Silva, 2013, p. 106).

Given the above, it is understood that, taking as a starting point a process of identification that an individual may come to have with a language, idea, lifestyle, product, brand, and/or value, they assume a position and, gradually, by becoming part of a group, incorporate and construct their identity(ies).

According to Hall (2011, p. 13):

A fully unified, complete, secure, and coherent identity is a fantasy. Instead, as systems of meaning and cultural representation multiply, we are confronted by a bewildering and shifting multiplicity of possible identities, with each of which we might identify—at least temporarily.

Our identifications shift over the course of our lives, depending mainly on the social contexts in which we are embedded. During this process, our identifications also transform and change. “Thus, instead of speaking of identity as a finished thing, we should speak of identification, and view it as an ongoing process.” (Hall, 2011, p. 38, emphasis added).

In line with the aforementioned author, it is evident that the construction of identity occurs throughout life, since the individual undergoes constant processes of identification, which is why identities are said to be fluid. “Identities have been set free, and now it is up to each individual, man or woman, to catch them in mid-flight, using their own resources and tools.” (Bauman, 2005, p. 17).

And the author further adds, “Identities’ float in the air, some of our own choosing, but others inflated and thrown at us by the people around us [...]” (Bauman, 2005, p. 17, emphasis added). Human beings, as social beings and integral parts of a community or society, thus become susceptible to shifts in perspective, to identifications, and/or “disidentifications.”

Therefore, if culture is understood as an intricate web of beliefs, customs, and values that form part of the way of life of a specific group, governed by a language, and if we understand that, throughout life, an individual undergoes constant processes of identification depending on what challenges them, it becomes clear that language, culture, and identity are intrinsically linked concepts, since language is the medium through which culture is constituted and

can be disseminated, and it is also through language that various processes of identification occur.

3. ESSENTIAL CONTRIBUTIONS TO PORTUGUESE PORTUGUESE: NEOLOGISMS, FOREIGN WORDS, AND LANGUAGE BORROWINGS

The Portuguese language spoken in Brazil today is the result of a dialogue with several other languages, which, when blended, give it a unique character.

Brazil, due to its history of colonization, has had contact with different nationalities and has been a stage for interaction among various races, as the Portuguese and the Spanish, in a veritable 'holocaust,' brought human beings from the African continent to the New World, destined for a life of slavery. The founders Europeans and the Africans they enslaved immediately came into contact with indigenous peoples; in this encounter of races, those who refused to be subjugated were decimated. Later, in the 19th and 20th centuries, immigrants from Europe, the Middle East, and Asia arrived in the country to work in the fields and factories. Brazil is by no means a closed country, characterized by a distrust of the 'foreigner' on the part of large segments of the population (Schmitz, 2004a, p. 101).

Languages change over time, and social, political, economic, and cultural contexts directly influence these linguistic changes and variations.

Language, as the primary expression of a culture, cannot be classified as static; rather, it should be conceived as a heritage built upon social groups, "[...] true agents of culture and which, in the contemporary world, is increasingly permeable to external influences that, from our perspective, enrich it both lexically and semantically." (Tavares, 2014, p. 171).

The focus of this article is on lexical variations, which are closely intertwined with people's communicative needs and, therefore, are in constant dialogue with social, cultural, and technological changes. When words and/or expressions that are "imported" from other languages—foreignisms—undergo modifications to adapt to the Portuguese language, they come to be considered linguistic borrowings.

3.1 LANGUAGE LOANS OR FOREIGN WORDS?

Borrowing, in a general sense, can be understood as the use of something that belongs to someone else. A neologism by borrowing can be conceptualized as a process of forming new lexical units that occurs through the adoption of “foreign” terms. This type of neologism is called a foreignism, a constant phenomenon in cultural processes that affects languages worldwide; permeating processes of colonization and/or migration and leading to cultural and linguistic mixing. We emphasize that the language from which terms are most frequently borrowed depends the era, the historical context, and, above all, the “prestige” attributed to it.

According to Carvalho (1984), initially, the loanword retains its original spelling; if it comes to be adopted in speech and writing, the term undergoes adaptations until it is fully adapted to the language that “imported” it. And as it becomes part of the national language, no longer considered a “foreign” element, the word is included in dictionaries.

For Machado (1996, p. 14), there can be no language without loanwords, “and some of these in Portuguese are neither of today nor of yesterday, for they are already several centuries old, which is why we do not notice that they are imports that have already been nationalized.”

For Carvalho (1989, p. 29), the incorporation of lexical elements from other languages occurs because “the language moves over time in a current that it itself constructs along its course. Nothing is static,” just as our identities are not either.

In the mid-19th and early 20th centuries, it was words of French origin that “invaded” the flower of Latium; many of them even surpassed their Portuguese counterparts—we can cite the word “abajur,” used in place of “lucivelo,” for example. Gallicisms only began to lose ground to words of English origin in the mid-20th century, between the 1940s and 1950s.

Carvalho (1989) employs the Saussurean dichotomy to explain that foreignisms are part of parole (individual), while loanwords become an element of langue (socialized); and he summarizes his explanation by stating that we must be quite clear that “a loanword is a foreignism adapted in various ways.” (Carvalho, 1989, p. 47).

As for Garcez and Zilles (2004, p. 15):

A loanword is the use, in a community's language, of elements originating from other languages. In the Brazilian context, simply put, it would be the use of foreign words and expressions in Portuguese. This is a constant phenomenon in contact between linguistic communities, also known as borrowing.

The authors do not distinguish between the concepts of “foreignism” and “linguistic borrowing,” nor do they mention processes of lexical incorporation, but they note that: “The notion of foreignism, however, imbues the borrowing with a suspicion of alien identity, laden with symbolic values related to the speakers of the language from which the borrowing originated.” (Garcez; Zilles, 2004, p. 15). Suggesting that the differentiated use of the terms is more closely related to the values the words carry, the term, when still “foreign,” brings with it symbolic values from the country from which it was “imported.” It is from this perspective that this study will be conducted.

3.2 ANGLICISMS: FOCUSING ON OUR SUBJECT OF STUDY

In this article, we consider all words derived from the English language to be Anglicisms, regardless of whether they are called foreignisms or linguistic borrowings, provided they retain the spelling of their original language—English.

After a brief explanation of the paths of linguistic change, with a focus on the lexical level, it becomes clear that it is the power relations exercised by a country at a given time, the existing contacts between different languages, the mixing of cultures, and the history of a people that shape the lexicon of their language.

According to Possenti (2004, p. 170), the lexicon can expand or acquire new meanings, since “the history of languages is largely a history of borrowings.”

Currently, with the United States’ global economic hegemony, the English language leads the way in terms of loanwords and/or foreignisms used in Portuguese, while other languages such as Italian, Spanish, German, among others, do not exert as much influence as English.

4. ENGLISH LANGUAGE PROFICIENCY AND ITS EFFECTS ON THE PORTUGUESE LANGUAGE

Crystal (2003) points out that the English language has become the most prestigious and widely spoken language today, due to two main causes: historical-geographical and sociocultural.

The first cause—the historical-geographical one—is related to the spread of the English language around the world, which, due to immigration from the 17th to the 19th century, was taken to Africa, Australia, the Americas, New Zealand, and India; reaching its peak toward the end of the 19th century, when the British Empire expanded its dominion, conquering colonies in the South Pacific region.

Consequently, English is found not only on every continent but also on islands scattered across the globe's three oceans, and such widespread presence, according to Crystal (2003), is what designates it as the “global language.”

The second cause—sociocultural—is related to the social, economic, and cultural dependence generated by English-speaking countries on other countries around the world.

Also according to Crystal (2003, p. 120), the English language has always been “in the right place at the right time”; proof of this are the profound marks left by the language in international politics, the world of information, education, the entertainment industry, the media, and, above all, in technology and computing.

4.1 THE LANGUAGE OF THE WORLD IN THE AGE OF GLOBALIZATION

Globally, in the 1970s, changes were occurring progressively, and we witnessed the birth of a phenomenon called the “era of globalization,” according to Sevchenko (2001, p. 28). We can consider globalization to be a social and economic process aimed at the incorporation and integration of countries around the world.

With the gradual growth of this process, it becomes clear that distances in space and time are shrinking, made possible by the emergence and proliferation of computer networks. The rapid flow of electronic information exchanges, the

ability to track countries' time zones and conduct business almost continuously, has rendered paper obsolete.

The face of the world has changed. It is no longer so simple to think of clearly defined borders; there is a landscape of interconnection and connectivity, and the need to be in constant contact with global society exists. Therefore, a language that can be understood by a large number of people is necessary, and it is at this moment that English attains the status of the official language of the era of globalization.

According to Le Breton (2005), one space that reveals the dominance of the English language and its assimilation by other languages is the internet. The World Wide Web constitutes the digital territory of English's influence, not only in terms of volume but, especially, in terms of prestige. According to the author, it is not merely a matter of total occupation of this field, but rather as if a kind of vacuum were fostering the use of the language; and the greater its diffusion, the better its image. The language casts its nets far beyond what we can imagine, and what geography teaches us. Many countries, even industrialized ones, which possess a vigorous language, do not fail to pay a "tribute" to English, as a result of the prominent positions held by English-speaking countries, achieved through market liberalization (Le Breton, 2005, p. 23).

In this scenario, the English language emerged as the primary form of communication, coming to occupy a prominent position in areas that were in full expansion and on the rise; areas that, from the 20th century onward, became indispensable for the survival of humanity.

4.2 ANGLICISMS IN SPOKEN PORTUGUESE IN BRAZIL AND THE AREAS OF ENGLISH LANGUAGE DOMINANCE

Following the establishment of English as a global language and the advent of the globalization era, the English language has come to dominate many fields, and it is easy to find Anglicisms that have found their way into the Portuguese spoken in Brazil, particularly when it comes to technical vocabulary and expressions.

In the field of International Relations, we observe that various global organizations use English as one of their official languages, or as their sole official

language; examples include the United Nations (UN), the North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO), the International Federation of Association Football (FIFA), and the European Union (EU).

Due to the language's relevance and prominent position, various organizations across Europe and the world, covering diverse subjects and different fields of knowledge, also adopt English as a lingua franca: *the All African People's Organization*, *the European Association of Cancer Research*.

Much of the world's knowledge is produced by English speakers, or can be found in English, particularly in fields related to science and technology. Consequently, many countries designate English as an official language, or as a foreign language to be taught in regular schools.

According to Haru Mashabela, a South African writer, "learning and using English will not only give us the much-needed unifying chord, but will also lead us to the exciting world of ideas [...]" (as cited in Crystal, 2003, p. 111).

In the wake of globalization, an increasing number of universities have encouraged student and staff mobility through exchange programs around the world. It is therefore necessary to use a lingua franca, which in this case is once again English, and there are universities that already offer courses in English, in addition to the country's official language.

The global economy is led and driven by major powers that have English as their official language. Therefore, in our country, it could not be any different: "In the economic sphere, American influence is visible, as the entire Brazilian economy depends on the American one" (Carvalho, 1989, p. 62).

In economic language, specific terms and words are used due to the adaptation of language from the business world and the financial market. We can cite quite common examples such as *business*, *leasing*, *know-how*, and *merchandising*. According to author Ieda Maria Alves, "There is no doubt that this dependence on the English language, almost chronic in the financial sector, proportionally reflects Brazil's economic dependence on the Mecca of monopoly capitalism [...]" (Alves, 1994, p. 74).

In the media, the world's most prominent journalistic publications are in English; examples include the *New York Times*, *The Washington Post*, *The Guardian*, the *Daily Mail*, and the *International Guardian*, as well as the magazines *Vogue* and *Vanity Fair*. As for national newspapers and magazines,

the use of Anglicisms appears in news stories and/or articles, but especially in sections such as sports (*pole position*, *penalty*, *score*) or fashion (*fashion*, *stylist*, *trend*), for example.

In the tourism and hospitality sectors, the English language is used in airports around the world, as well as in hotels and in all procedures related to transportation, accommodation, and flight and/or cruise instructions. In tourist destinations, the vast majority of signs and signage are also in English. Very common Anglicisms include: *way out*, *exit*, *hotel*, *check-in*, *check-out*, *seat belt*, *restaurant*, *menu*, among others. According to Carvalho (1989, p. 69): “The adoption of foreign terms may be an act of culture and taste, but in this case it is always driven by a practical need”—that of facilitating understanding and communication by standardizing it in the English language.

England, the United States, and Canada have a culture strongly focused on the appreciation of sports. Many of the games that are widely accepted worldwide, and by many Brazilians, originated in these countries, and as we import the names, tactics, and rules of the games, much of the vocabulary also comes into use. We can take *handball*, *basketball*, and *volleyball*, for example, which over the years have undergone adaptations and became *handebol*, *basquetebol*, and *vôleibol*; the latter two eventually shortened to *basquete* and *vôlei*. In *tennis*, the final and most famous point is the *match point*. Auto racing also has its own technical vocabulary, used by racing teams and their drivers. Alves notes, “Ayrton Senna secured *pole position* for the 13th time in a 16-race season,” and later adds, “[...] There were two minutes left in the final qualifying session for the Australian Grand Prix when Ayrton made his *flying lap*” (Alves, 1994, p. 73). *Football*, known in Portuguese as “futebol,” the most popular and widely played sport in Brazil, has several terms that have also gradually been adapted, but some people, in certain situations, still use the original English terms such as “*penalty*” – *pênalti*, “*goal*” – *gol*, “*corner*” – *escanteio*, or “*fair play*” – *jogo honesto e limpo*, among others. Fans of extreme sports need to be familiar with terms such as: *snowboard*, *trekking*, *mountain bike*, *windsurf*, and *kitesurfing*. In the same vein as sports, also imported from the United States, the idea of the health generation and the cult of the body has spread around the world; along with this trend came the expressions used by those who are part of the fitness tribes, some of which are: *personal training*, *fitness*, *spinning*, and *running*.

The technology that gave rise to the film industry emerged in France, with the Lumière brothers, in the years leading up to World War I, but it was in the United States that cinema reached its peak. At the end of the silent film era, around the 1920s, when sound was finally added to black-and-white images, English was the language heard in the voices of famous actors and actresses. Hollywood became, and still is, the leading force in the film industry, which contributes not only to the spread of English but also to the “*American lifestyle*.”

The dominance of the English language in music is also undeniable, given that various musical genres—*jazz, blues, country music, folk, rock and roll, gospel*—as well as major artists—Elvis Presley, Elton John, and bands like *The Beatles* and *the Rolling Stones* are of English or American origin. Even when discussing Brazilian artists and groups, adaptations and/or the incorporation of foreign terms into the Portuguese language occur frequently, both in the names of singers and bands, such as: Carlinhos *Brown, Skank, Chico Science*. As for the song lyrics themselves, for example, in “Estrangeirismo¹,” a song written by Carlos Silva and Sandra Regina:

[...] The other day they invited me to go to *McDonald's* to eat a *cheeseburger*.
The restaurant was packed, so we placed our orders through a *drive-thru*.
My friends, noticing my irritation, said: if you're in a hurry, they have a *delivery* service—it's wonderful [...]
When I looked at the floor, I saw an abandoned doormat with the American flag inviting me: *Welcome*.
As we entered that space, I noticed the decor, and on the walls it was written: *Ice cake, X egg, Cheese burger, and Fast food*. [...]

The culinary arts were originally heavily influenced by France, famous for its cuisine, but the United States was responsible for the invention of mass production in the food sector as well. The world's largest fast-food chain, McDonald's, is responsible for the “McDonaldization of society” (Ritzer *apud* Tavares, 2014, p. 169), that is, for bringing “Mc” products and English into every home around the world through advertising for *hamburgers*, the desserts offered by the company, and its services, as seen in terms such as: *self-service, drive-through, cheeseburger, bacon, milkshake, sundae, banana split, cookies, brownies*, among others.

After World War II, the fields of technology and computer science revolutionized the global market; computers were developed in the U.S., and computer science vocabulary and terminology spread throughout the world, along with the English language.

According to Carvalho (1989, p. 63), “[...] when a novelty is imported, the terminology that includes the name of the novelty is automatically imported, along with the services and parts—literally “the machine comes with its own language.” (emphasis added by the author)

With the arrival of the internet in Brazil, Anglicisms became even more widespread; whether adapted to Portuguese or not, all internet users know what is being referred to when they encounter words like *delete*, *click*, *access*, *download*, *upload*, *mouse*, and *scanner*, making knowledge of what is considered the “mother tongue” of computing indispensable.

5. CONSIDERATIONS

Brazil has historically been a multi-ethnic society, possessing an enormous diversity of cultures since its “discovery.” Recognizing our ethnic diversity entails understanding that the elements constituting our social and cultural identities are not defined by natural fixity and immobility. On the contrary, our “cultural identities—those aspects of our identities that arise from our belonging to ethnic, racial, linguistic, religious, and national cultures—undergo continuous shifts or discontinuities.” (Fleuri, 2003, p.23)

Faced with a scenario of globalization, the breaking down of borders, and the fluidity of identities, language would by no means emerge unscathed from this movement. For Rajagopalan, “We are living in the information age—today we are what we know. And language is at the epicenter of this veritable seismic shift currently underway in the way we deal with our lives and our identities,” and “[...] never in the history of humanity has people’s linguistic identity been as subject to foreign influences as it is today” (2003, p. 59), particularly the English language.

It is observed that, although there is resistance on the part of individuals seeking to assert their identities in the face of the imposition of external cultural elements, an underlying desire manifests itself not only to appropriate the other but to constitute oneself as the other. This process, often unconscious, proves to

be intrinsically linked to the desire to experience, through language, the symbolic values of another culture, which contributes significantly to the construction of speakers' identity. In this sense, Garcez and Zilles (2004, p. 23) ask: "[...] are these foreignisms indispensable? No. Desired? Yes, by many of us," pointing to the symbolic and affective dimension of the adoption of foreign linguistic elements.

Thus, it is possible to conclude that the use of Anglicisms in contemporary Portuguese transcends the strictly linguistic sphere, revealing itself as a phenomenon deeply rooted in cultural and social dynamics. Language, like culture and identity, constitutes a system in constant transformation, shaped by the social interactions and symbolic exchanges that characterize the contemporary world.

By proposing a critical reflection on the presence of Anglicisms in the Portuguese language, this study contributes to advancing discussions in the fields of sociolinguistics and discourse analysis, while fostering the development of individuals who are more aware of the sociocultural implications of linguistic use. In a global landscape marked by cultural fluidity and the continuous redefinition of values, it is essential to understand the effects of the presence of English on Brazilian Portuguese, in order to promote a linguistic citizenship that recognizes both the risks of homogenization and the potential of multilingualism.

A limitation of this study is its thematic focus on Anglicisms preserved in their original graphic form, which excludes from the analysis borrowings adapted phonetically or morphologically. Furthermore, this study did not consider regional variations in the use of these borrowings, nor the differing reception across age groups or distinct social groups.

For future research, we suggest broadening the approach through qualitative and quantitative investigations in diverse sociolinguistic contexts, considering other types of linguistic borrowings and their representations in spheres such as media, educational, and digital discourses.

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CHAPTER 7



INSTRUMENT TO DETERMINE ATTENTION TO FOOD SECURITY IN RURAL AREAS

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ABSTRACT: Purpose: To design an assessment tool that allows for a diagnosis of the implementation of food security programs and to propose care strategies for female heads of households in rural areas of southeastern Mexico. Methodological design: A 20-item instrument is developed through scientific literature with four categories, it presents expert review for facie test, evaluation of responses from 14 judges through Aiken's V for construct validity and Cronbach's alpha, a pilot test is applied with 248 housewives for exploratory factor analysis with tests such as Kaiser, Meyer and Olkin and Bartlett's sphericity, to identify categories and reordering of items, which allows establishing the conditions for the diagnosis of homemaker programs in rural communities. Results: An instrument with construct validity is presented, developed with 22 items and five categories of appreciation according to the exploratory factor analysis resulting from the pilot test, in the V. of Aiken, reveals the validity of content in relevance of 0.8095-0.9762 and writing 0.7857-0.9524 of the items, with a KMO ≥ 0.7 and satisfactory Bartlett's sphericity, the general reliability of the instrument was optimal, with a Cronbach's Alpha: 0.910. Research limitations: Community participation in data collection and consistency of information with respect to opinions. Findings: A 22-item, 5-category instrument with content and construct validity was obtained to verify program attention and establish strategies applicable to the rural sector of vulnerable communities. Unfavorable conditions are presented, such as families without support, job training, nutrition care, and constant monitoring of food security.

KEYWORDS: category, instrument, food safety, reliability, validation.

RESUMO: Objetivo: elaborar um instrumento de avaliação que permita realizar um diagnóstico da implementação de programas de segurança alimentar, a fim de propor estratégias de assistência às chefes de família em áreas rurais do sudeste do México. Desenho metodológico: desenvolve-se um instrumento de 20 itens com base na literatura científica, com quatro categorias; apresenta teste de facie, avaliação das respostas de 14 juízes por meio do V de Aiken para validade de construto e alfa de Cronbach; aplica-se um teste piloto com 248 donas de casa para análise fatorial exploratória com testes como o de Kaiser, Meyer e Olkin e esfericidade de Bartlett, para identificar categorias e reordenar itens. Resultados: apresenta-se um instrumento com validade de construto desenvolvido com 22 itens e cinco categorias de avaliação, de acordo com a análise fatorial exploratória resultante do teste piloto; no V de Aiken, revela-se a validade de conteúdo em pertinência de 0,8095-0,9762 e de redação de 0,7857 a 0,9524 dos itens, com um KMO $\geq 0,7$ e esfericidade de Bartlett satisfatória; a confiabilidade geral do instrumento foi ótima, com um Alfa de Cronbach de 0,910. Limitações da pesquisa: participação da comunidade na coleta de dados e consistência das informações em relação às opiniões. Resultados: obteve-se um instrumento de 22 itens e 5 categorias com validade de conteúdo e de construto, para estabelecer estratégias aplicáveis ao setor rural de comunidades vulneráveis, apresentam-se condições desfavoráveis como famílias sem apoio, capacitação para o emprego, atenção à nutrição e monitoramento constante da segurança alimentar.

PALAVRAS-CHAVE: categoria, confiabilidade, instrumento, segurança alimentarvalidação.

1. INTRODUCTION

Food security (FS) involves concentrating efforts to reduce problems in food availability, procure inputs, lower costs, generate employment, reduce poverty, prevent migration, and combat poverty—all of which contribute to promoting productivity, investments in the agricultural sector, building social certainty, applying sustainability, generating food self-sufficiency, as well as efficient production chains that help stabilize production systems (Ministry of Agriculture and Rural Development, 2019, p. 15). Therefore, it is necessary to review the implementation of programs, plans, and projects that influence decision-making, with the aim of encouraging the adoption of innovations and shifting our focus on rural and urban areas.

This allows for the consideration of diagnostic tools to identify opportunities to support families through government programs aimed at safeguarding food security, given the existence of opportunities related to food supply, resources, child nutrition, and health that contribute to quality of life in society (Ramos-Peña *et al.*, 2006; Special Program for Food Security, 2011; Salvador-Castell *et al.*, 2015; Acosta-Acosta, 2017; Pérez-Vázquez *et al.*, 2018; Rodríguez-Ramírez *et al.*, 2021). These actions impact families or female heads of household, as they are the primary managers based on their social role, carrying out essential daily activities such as caring for children, fostering human values, providing food, selecting and preparing meals to meet nutritional needs, as well as contributing to the education of a healthy, h t lifestyle (Albornos and Britos, 2022; Mundo-Rosas *et al.*, 2019; Salvador-Castell *et al.*, 2015).

This necessitates, as a multidimensional aspect, the development of monitoring, follow-up, evaluation, analysis, and feedback activities to address food supply and procurement demands in rural and urban sectors, with a view to integrating programs that address the dimensions of access, utilization, distribution, and stability (Kuznik *et al.*, 2010), with legal and operational frameworks that promote actions, resources, personnel, and service strategies to respond to population growth and demands for safe food (López-Salazar and Gallardo-García, 2015; Pérez-Vázquez *et al.*, 2018).

Developing monitoring through diagnostics using evaluation instruments builds the capacity to generate knowledge through the subject-object relationship

with methods; it is essential to assign variables that help systematize actions to capture attitudes, opinions, and customs across different territories, which allows for the organization of information, and above all, to capture the interest of institutions in presenting the sentiments or viewpoints of the context through a conscious and realistic analysis of the environment, by considering the validity and reliability of the research (López-Roldan and Fachelli, 2015; Escofet *et al.*, 2016; Reidl-Martínez, 2020).

Recognizing that two out of every 10 households suffer from food insecurity in Mexico allows for the consideration of variables that help direct actions toward appropriate public policies, by shifting care approaches toward users and clearly correcting actions (Urquía-Fernández, 2014). Similarly, Pasquier (2019), when analyzing the processes of the “Sin hambre” program using interviews, surveys, and workshops to determine outcomes, clearly defines the need to establish methods for capturing the opinions of end-users, in order to recognize the strengths and needs of both the internal and external aspects of the study population. This involves using an instrument that presents units of comparison to establish behaviors, characteristics, and a constructivist interpretation of environmental situations (Aguilar-Estrada *et al.*, 2019; Cohen and Gómez-Rojas, 2019, pp. 16–17; De la Puente-Viedma, 2007).

Regarding instruments, López-Roldan and Fachelli (2015, p. 6), explain that, “evaluation is the processing of information and the obtaining of concrete results that respond to a logic applied to reality, using analytical models that define concepts and characterize specific actions of the event under investigation.” In the case of SA, the instruments require variables to articulate processes that ensure the reliability of the objective in their construction, with results grounded in reality (Casas-Anguila *et al.*, 2003; Soriano-Rodríguez, 2015).

For these development processes, Supo (2013) as well as Bravo-Paniagua and Valenzuela-González (2019) propose basic steps: literature review, concept exploration, listing of themes, formulation of items, rater testing, pilot testing, consistency evaluation, reduction of items and dimensions, and identification of a criterion; which allows for consistency in the results, reliability in its application, reliability in assessing the suitability of the items for the construct of interest, and establishing its content validity as a confirmatory factor (Pérez-

Gil *et al.*, 2000; Carrillo-Sierra *et al.*, 2018; Otaña *et al.*, 2018; Tinney-Carranza, 2018; Domínguez and Sanabria, 2019). This involves establishing the objective, validating through expert judgment, conducting a pilot test, and performing psychometric validation to ensure accurate measurement (Galicia-Alarcón *et al.*, 2017; Roco-Videla *et al.*, 2024; Soriano-Rodríguez, 2015; Supo, 2013).

To verify reliability, Cronbach's alpha internal consistency, the Kaiser-Meyer-Olkin (KMO) test, or Bartlett's sphericity test are used; these are instruments that require the application of the questionnaire and assume that its components should serve that purpose, in order to validate the structures of the dimensions (Hernández-Mateus *et al.*, 2018; Reyes-Rodríguez *et al.*, 2018).

The consolidation of these measurement aspects is presented by Cáliz de Dios *et al.* (2014) in studies on food security in the Maya region of Yucatán, through the development of participatory assessments in marginalized communities—particularly with female heads of household—with the aim of identifying factors contributing to food insecurity in the area and determining the cultural resources necessary to harness the benefits of family farming, especially to preserve and enrich the sociocultural foundations of community organization.

Other studies include those by Gordillo and Méndez-Jerónimo (2013) and by , and Micarelli (2018), which used assessment tools to determine the existence of financial burdens in community care projects due to insufficient investment and limited operational capacity. Consequently, the objective of this research is to design an evaluation instrument that allows for a diagnostic assessment of the implementation of government programs in order to propose care strategies for female heads of household in rural areas of southeastern Mexico.

2. METHODOLOGY

The research is estimated to cover the population of four municipalities in the Balancán, Emiliano Zapata, Jonuta, and Tenosique regions of the Ríos region in the state of Tabasco, Mexico, which allows for the analysis of decision-making patterns in the social sector at the local level. With 53,361 dwellings that constitute habitable households, according to the Ministry of Welfare (2021), the state has a poverty rate of 57.3% among its population, making it important to

consider the care received in these communities (National Institute of Statistics, Geography, and Informatics, 2021).

The instrument is a survey of housewives' opinions, consisting of 20 multiple-choice questions using a Likert scale distributed across four sections: the dimensions of food availability, accessibility, utilization, and stability for the population. These dimensions allow for the collection of opinions regarding food security (Matas, 2018). for data management using a rating or evaluation scale of none (1), little (2), fair (3), good (4), and very good (5), it was developed as an online application by the stakeholders (Table 1) and included a sociodemographic study of the surveyed housewives.

The items in question were reviewed by three experts in the field during an initial stage, and the respective corrections were made by 14 judges to determine the relevance of the item in assessing a central aspect of the purpose, theoretical construct, and/or dimensions of the instrument. They also provided feedback on the wording of the items to ensure they were understandable to potential users and complied with the grammatical norms of the language (CIFE University Center, 2018).

Table 1. Questionnaire to assess food security among housewives or female heads of household in rural communities in the southeast.

Instructions: Answer the first part; for the questions, mark the appropriate option with a symbol.

Age____ Gender: M F: Location_____ Municipality_____
State_____ Education Level: _____ Marital Status. _____ Number
of Household Members_____ Number of: children (up to 12 years old) _____
Adolescents____ Elderly____, Has a yard YES No. Works outside the home: Yes No, Selects
food to eat Yes No., She cooks Yes No, Receives government assistance Yes No, Which

Check the box $\sqrt{\quad}$ for the housewife's answer that applies

No.	Question
1	Do you have the basic foods for your daily meals?
2	Are they available to you at local shopping centers and markets?
3	Is there enough food available for you to purchase?
4	Do you buy food for consumption every day?
5	Do you feel that the food you buy meets your dietary and nutritional needs?
6	Do you feel that food is readily available for purchase?
7	Do you think the food you buy and consume could affect your health?
8	Do you have the necessary resources to prepare healthy and nutritious meals?
9	Is there a variety of nutritious products available in your community for purchase?
10	Do local institutions promote the availability of nutritious foods in retail establishments?
11	Do you think food is being produced in the region to support a healthy diet?
12	Do you know if there is a government program that promotes food production?
13	Do you know if the state or local government addresses food needs in your community?

14	Do you think it is necessary to develop programs to ensure nutritious food in your community?
15	Is it necessary to encourage the purchase of food from outside your community to ensure an adequate food supply?
16	Do you think food is being produced in the region to ensure a healthy diet?
17	Do you know if there is a government program that promotes food production?
18	Do you know if the state or local government addresses food needs in your community?
19	Do you think it is necessary to develop programs to ensure nutritious food in your community?
20	Is it necessary to promote the purchase of food from outside your community to ensure sufficient food availability?

Source: own elaboration, based on the National Health and Nutrition Survey (2012); Puerto Rico Institute of Statistics (2014); Salvador-Castell *et al.* (2015).

Questions were also added to assess understanding of the instrument as it was administered (Table 2).

Table 2. Items for understanding the instrument

Items (questions)	Low level	Acceptable level	Good level	Excellent
Add to check understanding of the instrument				
How well did you understand the questionnaire instructions?				
How well did you understand the questions or items?				
How satisfied were you with the questionnaire?				
How important were the questions?				

Source: CIFE University Center, 2018.

This instrument was designed to obtain a clear understanding of the opinions of female heads of household; therefore, a pilot test was conducted with 248 participants to assess the attention given to food security and to identify the requirements necessary for adequate care (Aguilar-Estrada *et al.*, 2019; Andean Community, 2011). An expert assessment (qualitative) was presented, followed by a peer review process using analyses such as Aiken's V, a coefficient that determines the ratio of a measured value to the maximum possible difference in values—which can be calculated based on the ratings of a panel of judges regarding a single item or a single judge's ratings across a set of items, (Casas-Anguita *et al.*, 2003; Martín-Arribas, 2004; Materola *et al.*, 2019; Tourón *et al.*, 2018) where:

$$\left[V = \frac{S}{n(c-1)} \right]$$

where:

S = the sum of si

si = Value assigned by judge i,

n = Number of judges

c = Number of values on the rating scale (2 in this case)

A Cronbach's alpha was also applied to determine the reliability of the instrument (González-Alonso and Pazmiño-Santacruz, 2015).

where:

$$\left\{ \alpha = \frac{K}{K-1} \left[1 - \frac{\sum Vi}{Vt} \right] \right\}$$

where:

K = Number of items

Vi = variance of each item

Vt = total variance

For the quantitative aspects, IBM SPSS Statistics version 25 was used to perform exploratory factor analysis.

3. RESULTS AND DISCUSSION

The instrument for assessing content validity was submitted for review by three experts and a consultation with 14 judges who apply a standardized evaluation process (CIFE University Center, 2018; Juárez-Hernández and Tobón, 2018). Through an analysis using Aiken's V and Cronbach's alpha (Martin-Arribas, 2004; Tourón et al.; 2018), quantitatively determines the appropriateness of the items to discard, validate, or modify the instrument (Table 3). Judges were invited based on their knowledge of the subject, teaching

experience, publications, and years of professional experience in dietary patterns, to review whether the items are represented within the construct, with the aim of ensuring the instrument's quality and enabling a valid and reliable diagnosis, thereby ensuring certainty, consistency, and clarity, as reflected in the understanding, satisfaction, and perceived importance of the assessment, supported by the pilot group's feedback on the application and development of the instrument (Galicia-Alarcón et al., 2017).

The judges play a fundamental role in the development of the instrument, due to their expertise and experience in the field; as the majority are men holding master's and doctoral degrees, with an average of 18 years of professional experience, 12 of which in teaching, and collectively demonstrating productivity across various research areas—including sustainable development, natural resources, and rural development, among others—which is important for assessing the reliability of the proposed instrument.

Table 3. Identification of the judges

Aspects	Value
Women	3.00
Men	11.00
Studies and Products	
Bachelor's Degree	1.00
Master's	8.00
Doctorate	5.00
Average years of professional experience	18.14
Average years of teaching and research experience	12.36
Number of published articles	125.00
Number of published books	21.00
Number of book chapters published	30.00
Positive experience in review, design, and/or validation	14.00

Source: own elaboration

The instrument began with 20 questions using a Likert scale (Matas, 2018) for data management, with ratings or evaluations on a scale of none (1), poor (2), fair (3), good (4), and very good (5). Based on feedback from reviewers, the instrument's relevance and wording were revised; additionally, two questions were added, bringing the total to 22 items across four categories or dimensions: availability, access, utilization, and stability. The relevant corrections were based on the proposed observations (Ayala-Zuñiga, 2024), which allowed for the collection of opinions regarding the stages of care within the SA dimensions. It should be noted that, of the 22 items organized by SA dimension—based on

expert opinion—six pertain to availability, seven to access, four to utilization, and five to stability, reflecting the rearrangement of items from the original questionnaire.

Table 4. Instrument developed with input from expert judges

Dimension	No	Question
Availability	1	Do you have enough food for your daily needs?
	2	Can you find the food you need at the local market?
	3	Are the foods you need available in stores or supermarkets?
	4	Does your income allow you to buy nutritious food?
	5	Do you buy food for consumption on a daily basis?
	6	Given your financial situation, do the foods you buy meet your dietary and nutritional needs?
Access	7	Do you have any kind of social assistance that helps you purchase food?
	8	Do you have a pantry at home to meet your daily needs?
	9	Do you substitute foods based on market prices?
	10	How do you view food prices in stores and supermarkets?
	11	How do you view food prices at the public market?
	12	Do you feel that food is readily available for purchase?
	13	Is there a variety of nutritious products available at the market for the community to purchase?
Usage	14	Do you feel that the food you buy meets your needs?
	15	Do you know how to prepare healthy and nutritious meals?
	16	Do local institutions promote the availability of nutritious foods in retail stores?
	17	What foods would you like to learn to grow and prepare at home? Vegetable gardens, jams, preserves, cheeses, breaded foods, desserts, sausages, meat products.
Stability	18	Do you think enough food is being produced in the region to ensure a healthy diet?
	19	Do you know if there is a government program that promotes food production?
	20	Do you know if the government provides financial support for food needs?
	21	Do you think it is necessary for the government or universities to develop an educational program for healthier eating in the community?
	22	Do you think it is important to promote food production at the family garden level?

Source: own elaboration

Regarding the scores assigned by the judges, the mean, median, and standard deviation (S.D.) are presented. In terms of writing and relevance, the lowest mean of 3.428 was found in item 12, and the lowest median of 3.36 was found in items 4, 5, 11, 12, and 22. as for the S.D., item 13 had the highest at 0.8549; for writing, the lowest mean and median were for item 12, at 3.3571 and 3.2941, respectively; regarding the SD, the highest values were found in items 19 and 22 at 0.7596, followed by items 10 and 16 at 0.7449 (Table 5). Validity begins with the expert group, which has teaching experience and scientific

expertise in various areas related to food safety; their participation served as the basis for redesigning the instrument, resulting in precise questions. For confirmation, the relevance and wording were validated using statistical ranges with averages of 3.4286–3.9286, a mean of 3.3600–3.9070, and a standard deviation of 0.2673–0.8249; in wording, with a statistical range of 3.4286–3.8571, a mean of 3.2941–3.8192, and a standard deviation of 0.3631–0.7596, suggesting low ranges of variation and, therefore, satisfaction with the representation of items.

Table 5. Descriptive statistics based on the sample's opinion

Item	Mean	Standard Deviation	Standard Error	Maximum	Minimum	Range	Extraction
VAR00001	2.20	1.42	1.37	3.57	0.83	2.20 ± 1.37	0.610
VAR00002	3.50	1.06	1.06	4.56	2.44	3.50 ± 1.06	0.590
VAR00003	3.47	0.92	0.92	4.39	2.55	3.47 ± 0.92	0.447
VAR00004	2.63	1.40	1.40	4.03	1.23	2.63 ± 1.40	0.674
VAR00005	2.89	1.38	1.37	4.26	1.52	2.89 ± 1.37	0.755
VAR00006	3.61	0.97	0.96	4.57	2.65	3.61 ± 0.96	0.585
VAR00007	3.30	1.23	1.21	4.51	2.09	3.30 ± 1.21	0.550
VAR00008	3.46	1.08	1.08	4.54	2.38	3.46 ± 1.08	0.703
VAR00009	3.54	0.98	0.98	4.52	2.56	3.54 ± 0.98	0.621
VAR00010	2.74	1.05	1.04	3.78	1.70	2.74 ± 1.04	0.530
VAR00011	2.99	0.99	0.99	3.98	2.00	2.99 ± 0.99	0.656
VAR00012	3.35	0.95	0.95	4.30	2.40	3.35 ± 0.95	0.391
VAR00013	3.74	0.84	0.84	4.58	2.90	3.74 ± 0.84	0.515
VAR00014	3.48	1.13	1.13	4.61	2.35	3.48 ± 1.13	0.418
VAR00015	2.73	1.21	1.21	3.94	1.52	2.73 ± 1.21	0.543
VAR00016	2.90	1.11	1.10	4.00	1.80	2.90 ± 1.10	0.666
VAR00017	3.72	1.19	1.18	4.90	2.54	3.72 ± 1.18	0.676
VAR00018	3.72	1.32	1.28	5.00	2.44	3.72 ± 1.29	0.750
VAR00019	3.18	1.16	1.16	4.34	2.02	3.18 ± 1.16	0.514
VAR00020	3.67	1.09	1.09	4.76	2.58	3.67 ± 1.09	0.757
VAR00021	3.90	0.99	0.98	4.88	2.92	3.90 ± 0.98	0.636
VAR00022	2.80	1.41	1.43	4.23	1.37	2.81 ± 1.43	0.732

Source: own elaboration

The test participants rated the instrument as optimal in terms of comprehensibility, satisfaction, and importance, with a score of 77.35% and a Cronbach's alpha of 0.8280, which is considered high (Castañeda-Rodríguez *et al.*, 2024), although the instructions provided for completing the pilot test should be considered, as it took an average of 7.2 minutes to complete (Table 6).

Items (questions)	Low level	Acceptable level	Good rating	Excellent
How well did you understand the questionnaire instructions?	3.85	23.08	34.46	32.69
How well did you understand the questions or items?	5.77	19.23	38.46	34.62
What was the level of satisfaction with the questionnaire?	00	15.38	38.46	44.23
How important are the questions?	00	9.62	34.54	51.92

Source: Author's own work.

With the validation by 14 judges in its second stage (Table 7), we proceeded to determine Aiken's V, modified by Penfield and Giaccobi (2004) for relevance and wording, to review the statistical appropriateness of application by item and category, for which the items present a content validity index () greater than 0.75, allowing us to estimate that there is mastery in the formulation of the items, both in terms of relevance and wording, as well as when applying the content validity index, in terms of CVI > 0.5, these items score above 0.6 on the lower evaluation coefficient (ICI), which is generally considered to indicate acceptable content validity, and above 0.9 on the upper evaluation coefficient (ICS), which is considered high, in terms of both relevance and wording; this indicates that the items in this instrument are suitable for application (Gutierrez *et al.*, 2020).

All 22 items have a higher Aiken's V (>0.8), which allows for the establishment of their content validity in terms of relevance; for wording, the coefficient was evaluated as higher than 0.7, thus establishing its validity. With regard to Cronbach's Alpha, it is also classified as high because the instrument demonstrates characteristics of high relevance and wording (Table 7).

Table 7. Content validity coefficient (Aiken's v), Cronbach's alpha, and 95% confidence intervals per item for the relevance and writing criteria.

Relevance				Writing			Alfa de Cronbach
Item	Aiken's V	ICI	ICS	V. de Aiken	ICI	ICS	
1	0.9048	0.8054	0.8054	0.8054	0.8054	0.8054	0.8054
2	0.8571	0.7776	0.7776	0.7776	0.7776	0.7776	0.7776
3	0.8333	0.7778	0.7778	0.7778	0.7778	0.7778	0.7778
4	0.8333	0.7904	0.7904	0.7904	0.7904	0.7904	0.7904
5	0.8333	0.7821	0.7821	0.7821	0.7821	0.7821	0.7821
6	0.8810	0.7757	0.7757	0.7757	0.7757	0.7757	0.7757
7	0.8571	0.7823	0.7823	0.7823	0.7823	0.7823	0.7823
8	0.9286	0.7687	0.7687	0.7687	0.7687	0.7687	0.7687
9	0.9286	0.7770	0.7770	0.7770	0.7770	0.7770	0.7770

10	0.9048	0.7844	0.7844	0.7844	0.7844	0.7844	0.7844
11	0.8095	0.7826	0.7826	0.7826	0.7826	0.7826	0.7826
12	0.8095	0.7823	0.7823	0.7823	0.7823	0.7823	0.7823
13	0.8333	0.7792	0.7792	0.7792	0.7792	0.7792	0.7792
14	0.8571	0.7762	0.7762	0.7762	0.7762	0.7762	0.7762
15	0.8810	0.7798	0.7798	0.7798	0.7798	0.7798	0.7798
16	0.9286	0.7784	0.7784	0.7784	0.7784	0.7784	0.7784
17	0.9286	0.7838	0.7838	0.7838	0.7838	0.7838	0.7838
18	0.9048	0.7803	0.7803	0.7803	0.7803	0.7803	0.7803
19	0.9048	0.7819	0.7819	0.7819	0.7819	0.7819	0.7819
20	0.8810	0.7968	0.7968	0.7968	0.7968	0.7968	0.7968
21	0.9762	0.7971	0.7971	0.7971	0.7971	0.7971	0.7971
22	0.8571	0.8136	0.8136	0.8136	0.8136	0.8136	0.8136
*Aiken's V modified by Penfield and Giaccobi (2004).							
**Content validity indexing. (Roebianto et al; 2023).							

Source: own elaboration

Based on the indicators, a median Kaiser-Meyer- -Olkin (KMO) correlation coefficient was obtained for $KMO \geq 0.7$, with satisfactory Bartlett's sphericity; a correlation matrix determinant close to zero (2.98×10^{-48}); as well as the overall reliability of the instrument, which was optimal for its application, with a Cronbach's alpha of 0.910 (Sierra *et al.*, 2015; Rodríguez-Rodríguez and Reguant-Álvarez, 2020) (Table 8). This implies that the instrument possesses both reliability and validity.

Table 8. KMO and Bartlett's Test, Cronbach's Alpha

Validity Tests		Value
Kaiser-Meyer-Olkin measure of sampling adequacy		0.758
Bartlett's Sphericity Test	Approx. Chi-square	661.906
	df	210
	Sig.	0.000
Cronbach's alpha		0.910

Source: own elaboration

Its design and implementation will provide a clear picture of family opinions; therefore, a pilot study was conducted with 248 female heads of household (Costello and Osborne, 2005; Roco-Videla *et al.*, 2021) regarding the attention being given to food security. Regarding the sociodemographic profile of the surveyed housewives, the majority (57.71%) have completed primary and secondary education, followed by high school, a bachelor's degree, no degree, and a graduate degree. In terms of marital status, 74.38% are married, followed by single, in a common-law relationship, divorced, and widowed (Table 9).

Table 9. General data on participants		
States	Number	%
Tabasco	248.00	100
Studies		
None	15.00	5.96
Elementary	55.00	21.88
Secondary	89.00	35.83
High School	61.00	24.79
Bachelor's Degree	27.00	11.04
Master's	1.00	0.50
Marital status		
Married	184.00	74.38
Single	25.00	10.21
Common-law marriage	24.00	9.58
Divorced	8.00	2.92
Widowed	4.00	1.67
Separated	3.00	1.25

Source: own calculations.

For the population, visualizing household responsibilities in the 248 surveys (Costello and Osborne, 2005), the average household size is 4.29, with 1.12 children under 12, 0.79 adolescents, 0.63 older adults, and 1.75 adults, and the average age of homemakers is 40.29 years (Table 8). Regarding facility usage, 73.08% have a yard, 51.92% work outside the home, 86.54% select their own food for consumption, 76.92% cook their own meals, and 19.23% receive government support, which helps assess situations of food security and aspects that unfold within a family (Table 10).

The responses allowed for an assessment of the instrument's utility, as well as the likely patterns of opinions and trends regarding the research question, objectives, and hypotheses posed. Item 7 received a low percentage of agreement (57.69%) regarding the existence of social support, item 16 (44.23%) regarding whether institutions promote nutritious foods, item 19 with 46.15% regarding the existence of a government program promoting food production, and item 20 with 36.54% regarding whether the government provides resources to support food needs. Item 21 received an excellent rating with 55.77% regarding the need for institutions to develop an education program for healthy eating, and item 22 with 65.38%

Table 10. Population and activity data.		
Variables No.	Total	Average
Household size	223.00	4.29
Children under 12	58.00	1.12
Teens	41.00	0.79

Seniors	33.00	0.63
Adults	91.00	1.75
Age		40.29
Variables	Yes	No
Has a patio	38.00	14.00
Works outside the home	27.00	25.00
Choose your own food	45.00	7.00
Cook your food	40.00	12.00
Receives government assistance	10.00	42.00

Source: own elaboration.

This tool assesses food availability by estimating local, regional, or national effects regarding production and support provided to homemakers; it also considers the procurement of food and supplies to address periods of shortage. Regarding consumption and utilization, it is necessary to identify issues in procurement, propose distribution processes that comply with regulations, and ensure that institutions develop priority assistance programs for vulnerable populations.

4. CONCLUSION

Based on the proposed study, the instrument assesses the effectiveness of government support programs regarding food security and the families they benefit, as the statistical analysis ensures the instrument's reliability and captures the perceptions of those involved. therefore, it is concluded, first and foremost, that the instrument's design possesses validity in terms of content, wording, and relevance, as well as the correspondence of categories with access, availability, utilization, and stability, with a unified approach to ensure certainty, coherence, and clarity in the application of the 22 items when developing a food security assessment for vulnerable populations.

Based on the opinions of 14 judges and the implementation of a pilot test, the instrument is considered valid, reliable, and consistent, having obtained an Aiken's V greater than 0.75, a Cronbach's alpha of 0.910, and a Kaiser-Meyer-Olkin measure of sampling adequacy of 0.758. This confirms that the design and content are of sufficient quality to be applied in rural areas among homemakers or female heads of household.

The likely limitations of the study suggest that it is necessary to emphasize the need to monitor the sociodemographic conditions for implementation, as well as the resources and policies that prioritize actions to determine whether state and municipal governments are providing support and resources toward effective food security in the region. This would allow for the identification of commonalities and the establishment of lines of research and action to promote comprehensive solutions to food security in both rural and urban settings.

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CHAPTER 8



TERRITORY, TERRITORIALITY, AND TRADITIONAL POPULATIONS: DISPUTES, SENSE OF BELONGING, AND RESISTANCE IN THE CONSTRUCTION OF CONTEMPORARY SPACE

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ABSTRACT: Considering the territorial transformations intensified by capital expansion, the commodification of natural resources, and socio-environmental conflicts that affect the ways of life of traditional peoples and communities, it becomes necessary to deepen the understanding of the concepts of territory, territoriality, and territorialization within the scope of critical Geography. This study aims to discuss the historical background, conceptual shifts, and theoretical updates of these categories, analyzing their relationships with traditional populations, territorial conflicts, and socio-environmental governance. To this end, a qualitative, exploratory, bibliographic, and documentary research approach was adopted, based on classical and contemporary authors, as well as institutional documents and recent scientific literature. Thus, territory and territoriality are understood as dynamic, relational, and political categories, allowing the conclusion that their comprehension is fundamental to interpreting territorial disputes, resistance, and processes of social reproduction.

KEYWORDS: territorial governance, socio-environmental conflicts, multiterritoriality, territorial belonging, socio-environmental justice.

RESUMO: Considerando as transformações territoriais intensificadas pela expansão do capital, pela mercantilização dos recursos naturais e pelos conflitos socioambientais que tensionam os modos de vida de povos e comunidades tradicionais, torna-se necessário aprofundar a compreensão dos conceitos de território, territorialidade e territorialização no âmbito da Geografia crítica. Objetiva-se discutir os antecedentes históricos, deslocamentos conceituais e atualizações teóricas dessas categorias, analisando suas relações com populações tradicionais, conflitos territoriais e governança socioambiental. Para tanto, procede-se à pesquisa qualitativa, exploratória, bibliográfica e documental, fundamentada em autores clássicos e contemporâneos, bem como em documentos institucionais e literatura científica recente. Desse modo, observa-se que território e territorialidade constituem categorias dinâmicas, relacionais e políticas, permitindo concluir que sua compreensão é fundamental para interpretar disputas territoriais, resistências e processos de reprodução da vida social.

PALAVRAS-CHAVE: governança territorial, conflitos socioambientais, multiterritorialidade, pertencimento territorial, justiça socioambiental.

1. INTRODUCTION

In recent decades, the economic, political, environmental, and territorial transformations associated with the intensification of globalization and the expansion of capital dynamics have been producing profound spatial reconfigurations, redefining power relations, forms of natural resource appropriation, and historically constituted ways of life. In this context, the concept of territory has taken on increasing centrality in scientific debate, especially within the fields of Critical Geography and the Social Sciences, as it allows us to understand the multiple ways in which individuals, institutions, and social groups produce, contest, and organize space. More than a physical-administrative demarcation or the material basis of state sovereignty, territory is now conceived as a historical, relational, and political construction, constantly traversed by relations of power, belonging, identities, conflicts, and resistances (Raffestin, 1993; Santos, 1996; Haesbaert, 2004).

The centrality of the territorial debate becomes even more evident when related to the experiences of traditional peoples and communities, whose ways of life are deeply linked to historically occupied territories and collective systems of natural resource management. In these territorialities, territory transcends its material and economic dimensions, constituting a space of social memory, ancestry, belonging, sociability, and cultural continuity. However, the intensification of private property, agribusiness, tourism, mining, large-scale energy projects, and real estate dynamics has been imposing new forms of territorial expropriation, often accompanied by the breakdown of social practices, forced displacements, and restrictions on access to the commons, deepening tensions between different projects of appropriation of space (Diegues, 2001; Fernandes, 2008).

In this context, territory, territoriality, and territorialization emerge as fundamental analytical categories for understanding processes of production, dispute, and spatial reorganization in the contemporary era. According to Martins and Chagas (2021), these categories articulate relations of power, identity, resistance, belonging, and the material and symbolic appropriation of space. While territorialization corresponds to the process of constituting territories by different social subjects, territoriality expresses political, cultural, affective, and

economic bonds established with lived spaces, highlighting strategies of permanence, resistance, and territorial defense.

Beyond material disputes, territorial conflicts also manifest in the symbolic and political dimensions, particularly through the erasure of traditional knowledge, the exclusion of local populations from decision-making processes, and the imposition of external rationalities subordinated to the logic of the commodification of nature. This issue becomes particularly evident in contexts of environmental conservation and territorial governance, in which communities historically responsible for the sustainable management of ecosystems are marginalized in institutional processes of natural resource planning and management.

Given this scenario, the objective was to critically discuss the concepts of territory, territoriality, and traditional populations, analyzing their historical antecedents, conceptual shifts, and recent developments in the geographical and socio-environmental debate.

2. THEORETICAL FRAMEWORK

2.1 TERRITORY: HISTORICAL BACKGROUND

In the Social Sciences, the concept of territory gained prominence beginning in the 19th century, particularly within classical Geography. Friedrich Ratzel, a representative of the German deterministic school, was one of the first authors to attribute political dimension to territory, understanding it as a condition for the existence of society and an expression of state control over a given area (Corrêa, 1994). Although marked by environmental determinism and an organicist view of the state, his formulation was decisive in establishing territory as an analytical category for the relationships between power, space, and society.

In contrast, Vidal de La Blache, the leading proponent of French possibilism, acknowledged the influence of the natural environment but emphasized the ability of human groups to transform nature through their ways of life. According to Gomes (1999), this perspective partially breaks with deterministic interpretations by considering human action as an active element in spatial construction, even if it is linked to French territorial interests.

From the second half of the 20th century onward, the concept of territory was revisited with greater intensity in the face of global economic transformations, urbanization, productive restructuring, and the deepening of socio-spatial inequalities. Territory is no longer interpreted merely as a legal-administrative demarcation but is now understood as a historical, social, and political construction, traversed by power relations, conflicts, identities, and affiliations (Corrêa, 1994).

From this perspective, Raffestin (1993) distinguishes between space and territory by asserting that space precedes territory, the latter being socially produced through power relations, technical mediations, and processes of appropriation. Territoriality thus corresponds to the strategies of influence, domination, and belonging established by social actors.

In dialogue with this approach, Haesbaert (2004) argues that the contemporary era has not produced the “end of territories,” but rather multiple overlapping and interconnected territorialities at different scales. His notion of multiterritoriality highlights that individuals and groups simultaneously experience material and symbolic territories, marked by power relations, identity, and mobility.

Similarly, Souza (2000) emphasizes that territory must be understood fundamentally through power relations and cannot be reduced to the state dimension, as it involves disputes among social movements, economic agents, traditional populations, and diverse societal projects. This “ ” reading aligns with Sack (1986), for whom territoriality constitutes a spatial strategy of control, although Latin American approaches expand this interpretation by incorporating symbolic, cultural, and affective dimensions.

In Brazilian Geography, Milton Santos (2002) offers a decisive contribution by formulating the concept of “used territory,” understood as a space lived in and appropriated by different social agents. According to the author, globalization selectively reorganizes territory, favoring areas of greater technical, scientific, and informational density and deepening socio-spatial inequalities. This dynamic redefines uses of space, intensifies productive specializations, and subordinates local dynamics to the interests of global capital, especially in peripheral regions, where territorial modernization occurs in an unequal and exclusionary manner (Silva, 2004).

Furthermore, economic expansion produces socio-environmental impacts that reveal contradictions in the capitalist model of development. According to Silva (2004), territories organized under the logic of accumulation frequently exhibit inequalities, environmental conflicts, and constraints on conditions for social reproduction. In this sense, Fernandes (2008) understands territory as a space of permanent conflict, particularly in disputes involving the peasantry, agribusiness, traditional peoples, and social movements, highlighting that territory constitutes a material expression of social struggles and unequal forms of appropriation of space.

Thus, the contemporary debate goes beyond strictly administrative or legal interpretations, incorporating dimensions related to power, culture, technology, identity, networks, and socio-environmental conflicts. Territory must be understood as a historical and relational construct, constantly produced and redefined by the social, economic, and political contradictions that structure geographical space, becoming a central category for understanding processes of domination, resistance, and the unequal production of space.

2.2 TERRITORIALITY: AN ESSENTIAL ATTRIBUTE OF TERRITORIAL DYNAMICS

The impositions of the prevailing economic system on traditional ways of life have historically been associated with the expulsion of human populations from their ancestral territories or with the restriction of the conditions necessary for the continuous of their subsistence practices. In many contexts, these territories are organized around communal forms of land and natural resource use, structuring relationships of belonging, collective memory, labor, and cultural reproduction. The disruption of these dynamics, driven by the expansion of economic, real estate, and institutional interests, compromises the material and sociocultural permanence of these populations, producing processes of cultural erosion and territorial disintegration (CMMAD, 1991).

Communal forms of access to land and natural resources have ensured, in different contexts, ways of life associated with the sustainable use of ecosystems and the conservation of biodiversity, revealing significant sociodiversity expressed in traditional ecological knowledge, local production

systems, and collective management practices. In this sense, Diegues (2002) argues that, instead of the supposed inevitable degradation of the commons, what often occurs is the “tragedy of the communarians,” characterized by the expulsion of these populations as a result of the expansion of large private property, state-owned property, and major economic enterprises.

The debate on land and natural resources in common use gained prominence following Hardin (1968), who argued that communal regimes would tend toward the overexploitation of natural resources. However, this interpretation was later challenged for disregarding community mechanisms of social regulation, cultural norms, and local forms of governance. In this vein, Diegues (2001) demonstrates that various traditional communities have developed their own systems of environmental management and territorial governance, capable of ensuring resource conservation and social reproduction. According to Campos (2000), territorial expropriation also manifests itself in symbolic and cultural dimensions, through the imposition of external rationalities, the devaluation of local knowledge, and the redefinition of historically constituted practices and identities.

According to Diegues (2002), many traditional populations have suffered impacts resulting from the establishment of conservation units in historically occupied territories, especially when implemented without recognition of local territorialities. In contrast, Ferreira (2003) highlights participatory initiatives, such as Extractive Reserves (RESEX) and Reserves for Sustainable Development (RDS), in which environmental conservation and the social reproduction of communities are integrated.

Another important dimension concerns the expansion of private property, real estate speculation, tourism, and large-scale economic ventures into traditionally occupied territories. According to Feeny *et al.* (2001), private regimes concentrate resource use rights, creating tensions with communal forms of territorial organization. In many cases, traditional communities have been displaced or marginalized by the expansion of hotels, condominiums, energy parks, and economic activities subordinated to the logic of the global market (Diegues, 2001; Ferreira, 2002).

Thus, in the case of tourism, Ignarra (2000) argues that the activity reorganizes space by articulating mobility, infrastructure, consumption, and new

territorial content, while Silva (2004) highlights the centrality of natural and cultural attractions in this process. A significant portion of the literature, however, points to the negative impacts of mass tourism, especially in environmentally fragile territories or those occupied by traditional populations. According to Santana (1996), this model intensifies environmental pressures, erodes cultural practices, and widens territorial inequalities. Ignarra (2000) further highlights processes of acculturation, while Luchiari (2001) argues that tourism infrastructure often imposes exogenous territorialities, subordinating historically lived territories to the selective dynamics of capital and consumption.

3. METHODOLOGY

This study employs a qualitative, exploratory approach based on a review of the literature and documentary sources, guided by the analytical perspective of critical geography and by socioterritorial studies on territory, territoriality, and traditional populations. The choice of a qualitative approach is justified by the need to understand social processes, power relations, territorial dynamics, forms of belonging, and socio-territorial conflicts based on their historical, political, and relational complexity, avoiding reductionist or exclusively quantitative interpretations. According to Minayo (2001), qualitative research deals with the universe of meanings, values, beliefs, relationships, and social practice e , allowing for the understanding of complex phenomena linked to human experiences and the sociocultural contexts in which they occur.

From the perspective of its objectives, this is exploratory research, as it seeks to deepen conceptual understanding of territory, territoriality, and traditional populations, systematizing classical and contemporary theoretical interpretations, as well as problematizing territorial disputes, socio-environmental conflicts, and recent transformations associated with the dynamics of contemporary capitalism. According to Flick (2009), exploratory research allows for the construction of more in-depth analytical approaches to complex phenomena, favoring interpretive readings capable of highlighting multiple dimensions of social reality.

Regarding technical procedures, a bibliographic and documentary review was conducted, based on the critical analysis of books, scientific articles,

legislation, institutional reports, and national and international academic works related to the categories of territory, territoriality, territorialization, traditional populations, territorial governance, and socio-environmental conflicts. Classic and contemporary authors in Geography and the Social Sciences were consulted, such as Ratzel, Raffestin, Sack, Souza, Santos, Haesbaert, Fernandes, Diegues, and Le Berre, in conjunction with recent scientific works indexed in recognized databases, such as *SciELO*, CAPES Journal Portal, *Google Scholar*, university journals, and nationally and internationally indexed journals, with an emphasis on studies published between 2020 and 2026. Concurrently, a documentary analysis was conducted of normative and institutional instruments, such as the Convention on Biological Diversity (CBD), particularly Article 8(j), Law No. 13,123/2015 (Brazil, 2015), and Decree No. 8,772/2016 (Brazil, 2016), considered fundamental for understanding the legal recognition of traditional knowledge associated with biodiversity and its territorial implications.

The data analysis was based on a critical and comparative interpretation of the literature, seeking to identify convergences, tensions, complementarities, and conceptual shifts among classical and recent authors. In this vein, the material was organized thematically, systematizing analytical categories related to the dimensions of territory, territoriality, territorial governance, common- y use of natural resources, territorial conflicts, tourism, biodiversity conservation, and traditional populations.

Thus, according to Flick (2009), qualitative interpretation requires a constant interplay between empiricism, theory, and social context, allowing the investigated phenomena to be understood as dynamic, historical, and socially produced processes. Thus, the methodology adopted enabled the construction of a critical, relational, and contemporary reading of territorial transformations, highlighting that territory must be understood as a lived space, contested and constantly shaped by relations of power, belonging, resistance, and the reproduction of social life.

4. RESULTS AND DISCUSSION

Table 1 presents a conceptual synthesis of the main theoretical frameworks mobilized throughout the discussion on territory, territoriality, and traditional populations, seeking to systematize the different analytical dimensions, attributes, and interpretations developed by classical and contemporary authors. The table's organization demonstrates that these concepts do not have a single or static definition, but rather constitute dynamic, historical, and multidimensional categories, whose understanding depends on the epistemological perspectives adopted and the socio-territorial contexts analyzed. In this sense, the table serves as a tool for theoretical systematization, allowing us to visualize the convergences, specificities, and interpretive shifts present in the academic debate.

Table 1. Conceptual synthesis of territory, territoriality, and traditional populations: analytical dimensions, attributes, and theoretical frameworks, 2026.

CONCEPT	ANALYTICAL DIMENSION	MAIN ATTRIBUTES/CHARACTERISTICS	AUTHOR (YEAR)
Territory	Political and State	Area of dominion, sovereignty, spatial appropriation, basis of social existence	Ratzel (1897); Corrêa (1994)
Territory	Society–nature	Space produced by ways of life; mediation between society and the environment	Vidal de La Blache (1922); Gomes (1999)
Territory	Relational and political	Produced from space; relations of power, labor, energy, and information	Raffestin (1993)
Territory	Economic and spatial	Territorial configuration, technology, circulation, modernization, and productive reorganization	Santos (2002; 1996)
Territory	Social and historical	Social appropriation of space; territorial production by social groups	Le Berre (1992)
Territory	Multiscalar and relational	Multiterritoriality, deterritorialization, and reterritorialization	Haesbaert (2002; 2004)
Territory	Power and autonomy	Field of contention; power relations beyond the state	Souza (2000)
Territory	Social conflict	Territory as a space for disputes and societal projects	Fernandes (2008)
Territoriality	Political and relational	Strategies of control, domination, and appropriation of space	Raffestin (1993); Sack (1986)
Territoriality	Symbolic and identity-based	Belonging, emotional ties, territorial identity	Haesbaert (2002)

CONCEPT	ANALYTICAL DIMENSION	MAIN ATTRIBUTES/CHARACTERISTICS	AUTHOR (YEAR)
Territoriality	Cultural	Construction of meaning regarding the place; everyday practices and cultural reproduction	Chávez (2002)
Territoriality	Lived and existential	Multidimensional relationships between society, space, and time	Raffestin (1993); Andrade (2004)
Territoriality	Ecological/adaptive	Defense of territory, use of resources, and organization of subsistence	Morán (1994)
Traditional populations and territory	Socio-territorial	Communal land use, subsistence, sustainable resource management	Diegues (2001; 2002)
Traditional populations and territory	Political and economic	Land expropriation, land conflicts, expansion of private and state-owned property	CMMAD (1991); Campos (2000)
Traditional populations and territory	Environmental	Biodiversity conservation associated with traditional knowledge	Diegues (2001); Ferreira (2003)
Traditional populations and territory	Governance of the commons	Critique of the “tragedy of the commons”; collective resource management	Hardin (1968); Diegues (2001); Feeny et al. (2001)
Traditional populations and territory	Tourism and territorialities	Expropriation, real estate speculation, imposed new territorialities	Luchiari (2001); Ignarra (2000); Santana (1996)
Traditional populations and territory	Human adaptability	Cultural, social, and economic adjustments in the face of territorial transformations	Morán (1990; 1994); Adams (2000); Foley (1993)
Traditional populations and territory	Social organization	Kinship, residence, cooperation, and territorial organization	Service (1966); Morán (1994)

Source: Prepared by the authors, based on Ratzel (1897), Vidal de La Blache (1922), Le Berre (1992), Raffestin (1993), Morán (1990; 1994), Corrêa (1994), Santos (2002), Diegues (2001; 2002), Gomes (1999), Campos (2000), Ignarra (2000), Souza (2000), Service (1966), Feeny et al. (2001), Luchiari (2001), Santana (1996), Hardin (1968), Haesbaert (2002; 2004), Chávez (2002), Adams (2000), Andrade (2004), Ferreira (2003), Sack (1986), and Fernandes (2008).

It is observed that the concept of territory has evolved from perspectives initially centered on the political-state domain and spatial appropriation, as in Ratzel, to broader, relational, and critical interpretations that emphasize the role of power, identities, disputes, and the multiple forms of spatial appropriation. Authors such as Raffestin (1993), Santos (2002), Haesbaert (2002; 2004), and

Souza (2000) demonstrate that territory must be understood as a social construction constantly shaped by economic, political, symbolic, and cultural relations, revealing processes of territorialization, deterritorialization, and reterritorialization associated with the dynamics of contemporary capitalism.

It is worth noting that, over the past five years, the scientific literature on territory, territoriality, and traditional populations has confirmed a significant analytical shift, marked by a move away from interpretations focused exclusively on the legal-administrative dimension of territory toward relational, multiscalar, and socio-environmental approaches, strongly linked to discussions on territorial justice, collective rights, biodiversity, land conflicts, and the defense of the commons. In dialogue with the classical frameworks of Critical Geography, recent studies have emphasized that territory must be understood as a lived, appropriated, and permanently contested space, traversed by power relations, collective identities, differentiated uses of resources, and forms of territorial resistance in the face of capital expansion and the intensification of expropriation processes (Monken; Silva; Barcellos et al., 2024).

At the institutional level, the contemporary debate is strongly influenced by the relationship between the Convention on Biological Diversity (CBD), particularly Article 8(j), and Brazilian legislation on biodiversity. Article 8(j) of the CBD establishes the need to respect, preserve, and maintain the knowledge, innovations, and practices of indigenous peoples and local communities relevant to the conservation and sustainable use of biodiversity, as well as to encourage their application through participation and the equitable sharing of benefits (Brazil, 1998). In the Brazilian context, this guidance was incorporated into Law No. 13,123/2015, subsequently regulated by Decree No. 8,772/2016, which legally recognize the associated traditional knowledge and practices linked to traditional communities, traditional farmers, and indigenous populations, consolidating an important regulatory framework for the territorial, cultural, and socio- I protection of these groups (Brazil, 2015; Brazil, 2016).

Recent scientific research has emphasized that the territory of traditional populations should not be reduced to land ownership or formal spatial boundaries, but rather interpreted as a space for the material, symbolic, cultural, and political reproduction of collective life. Recent studies show that traditional territories are constituted by complex territorialities, organized around everyday

practices of environmental management, local knowledge systems, kinship relations, social memory, and strategies of resistance in the face of the dynamics of the commodification of nature (Monteiro; Cruz; França, 2023).

In this sense, Bonfá Neto and Santos (2024) demonstrate that instruments of participatory social cartography have been mobilized by the communities themselves as mechanisms of territorial defense, enabling the strengthening of strategies to protect the cultural, social, and environmental heritage associated with traditional territories.

Recent research has also broadened the debate on territoriality by emphasizing its relational, political, and identity-based dimensions. Contemporary studies demonstrate that territoriality is not restricted to the physical control of space but incorporates senses of belonging, forms of collective organization, symbolic practices, and disputes over territorial recognition. Research on heritage, memory, and territorial cartography indicates that traditional communities produce territorialities associated both with the daily use of natural resources and with the preservation of historical and cultural references threatened by touristification, real estate speculation, mining, and agroindustrial expansion (Bonfá Neto; Santos 2024; Loureiro; Lemos and Franco et al., 2024).

In the field of public policy and territorial governance, studies point to a growing concern with participatory models of territorial planning and management. Contemporary discussions on sustainable territorial ethnoplanning argue that policies aimed at traditional peoples and communities must recognize the cultural, ecological, and territorial specificities of each group, overcoming homogeneous models of territorial planning often imposed by external rationalities. In this context, territory takes center stage in the formulation of strategies for local development, territorial justice, and socio-environmental sustainability (Loureiro; Lemos; Franco et al., 2024).

Another trend observed in the literature concerns the growing interconnection between territory, health, socio-environmental management, and sustainability. Studies conducted in protected areas and traditional territories show that local populations develop their own forms of territorial governance based on relationships of care, ecological management, and the reproduction of collective life, demonstrating that biodiversity conservation cannot be separated from historically constructed territorialities (Monken; Silva; Barcellos et al., 2024).

Thus, contemporary literature reinforces the need to understand traditional peoples and communities not only as cultural subjects but also as territorial agents fundamental to socio-environmental sustainability and ecosystem conservation.

Consequently, from a conceptual standpoint, scholarship on territory and territoriality has demonstrated an interpretive expansion of the concept, moving beyond readings restricted to the legal-administrative or state domain and engaging with relational perspectives on territory, emphasizing territorial disputes, environmental justice, emerging territorialities, the defense of the commons, and conflicts related to the advance of large-scale projects, tourism, mining, agro-industrial expansion, and the commodification of natural resources.

Thus, scholarly work on territory, territoriality, and traditional populations has demonstrated a significant epistemological and political shift, moving the understanding of territory beyond perspectives centered exclusively on spatial delimitation, legal sovereignty, or the land tenure dimension. In studies produced between 2020 and 2026, a more relational, processual, and critical interpretation of territory is consolidated, understood as the product of social relations, everyday practices, material and symbolic disputes, and forms of resistance in the face of the dynamics of accumulation, expropriation, and commodification of space.

In this context, territory comes to be understood as a constitutive dimension of the reproduction of social, cultural, economic, and political life, especially when associated with the experiences of traditional peoples and communities, territorial conflicts, and forms of participatory governance.

Conceptually, Martins and Chagas (2021) propose an important analytical advance by emphasizing that territory, territorialization, and territoriality must be interpreted as interdependent categories, articulated by relations of power, affection, belonging, segregation, resistance, and contradiction. According to the authors, territory is not merely a delimited space but rather the result of social practices that continuously produce it, both materially and symbolically, through processes of appropriation and domination.

Territorialization corresponds to the process through which social actors transform spaces into territories, while territoriality expresses the material, identity-based, and symbolic bonds established by subjects with the lived space, allowing for an understanding of forms of belonging, conflicts, strategies of

permanence, and social disputes (Martins; Chagas, 2021). This perspective significantly broadens the critical reading of territory by emphasizing that it does not exist in a neutral or naturalized manner, but emerges from power relations, social inequalities, and the concrete practices of historical subjects.

This relational reading of territory resonates strongly with recent studies focused on traditional territorialities. Bonfá Neto and Santos (2024), in their investigation of fishing territorialities in Maxaranguape, Rio Grande do Norte, demonstrate that participatory social cartography constitutes an important methodological and political tool for making lived territories visible, allowing the communities themselves to express their forms of spatial organization, conflicts, and practices of life reproduction. For the authors, fishing territoriality is not restricted to the functional use of natural resources, but incorporates identity-based relationships, collective memories, territorialized knowledge, and historically constructed forms of belonging.

The study demonstrates that processes of territorial invisibilization often operate through the denial of local knowledge, the absence of institutional recognition, and the imposition of rationalities external to the territory, particularly those linked to tourism, coastal urbanization, and forms of coastal commodification. In this context, participatory social cartography emerges as a strategy of resistance and territorial defense, enabling communities to challenge n y narratives about their living spaces and strengthen mechanisms of political recognition (Bonfá Neto; Santos, 2024).

In this vein, territoriality comes to be understood as a process constantly strained by the dynamics of land-use planning implemented by the state, especially in contexts of environmental conservation and the management of common resources. Loureiro, Gomes, Franco *et al.* (2024), in their analysis of the Amanã Sustainable Development Reserve in Amazonas, demonstrate that environmental policies and territorial management mechanisms frequently produce profound reconfigurations of local territorialities, interfering with forms of access to natural resources, collective uses of the territory, and traditional mechanisms of social reproduction.

The authors show that the territoriality of Amazonian communities is deeply linked to local systems of hunting, circulation, wildlife management, and social organization, revealing that sustainable strategies for territorial governance

only become effective when they recognize territorialized knowledge and rights historically constructed by communities (Loureiro; Gomes; Franco *et al.*, 2024).

In contemporary debate, the notion of territorial governance is taking on increasing centrality, especially when questioning the limits of centralizing models of planning and management. Piraux (2024) argues that the territory has become the privileged scale for public policies aimed at sustainable development, requiring collaborative coordination mechanisms among multiple social, institutional, and community actors. The author maintains that territorial governance should not be reduced to technical or administrative instruments, but understood as a political process of collective goal-setting, conflict mediation, and the organization of public action around so-called “territorial commons.” In this sense, territorial governance requires the co-production of rules, recognition of territorial differences, and the progressive institutionalization of participatory mechanisms capable of articulating local demands with broader scales of power (Piraux, 2024).

In dialogue with this debate, Sizanoski and Gudiño (2026) highlight the need to differentiate between land governance and territorial governance, arguing that the former tends to prioritize technical and legal mechanisms related to land access and management, while the latter involves pacts, negotiations, mediations, and articulations among multiple territorial actors. For the authors, the effectiveness of territorial policies depends on moving beyond technocratic approaches and building territorial pacts capable of acknowledging conflicts, divergent interests, and power asymmetries present within territories. This perspective is particularly relevant for understanding traditional peoples and communities, whose ways of life are frequently strained by state policies, large-scale economic ventures, and exogenous territorial projects (Sizanoski; Gudiño, 2026).

Thus, recent literature points toward an increasingly critical and contemporary understanding of territory, territoriality, and territorialization, highlighting that these categories must be interpreted as historical, political, and relational processes, traversed by conflicts, resistances, identities, forms of governance, and disputes over the right to exist within territories. More than an analytical category, territory emerges as a lived and constantly contested space,

where power, belonging, memory, socio-environmental justice, and the reproduction of life are articulated.

5. CONCLUSION

The discussion developed throughout this work has shown that the concepts of territory, territoriality, and traditional populations constitute central analytical categories for understanding contemporary socio-spatial dynamics, especially in contexts marked by the intensification of territorial inequalities, the commodification of nature, and the expansion of hegemonic forms of appropriation of space.

The concept of territory has undergone significant epistemological shifts throughout the evolution of geographical thought, moving beyond being understood merely as a political-administrative demarcation or the material basis of the state to adopt a relational, historical, and multidimensional perspective, deeply intertwined with relations of power, belonging, identity, conflict, and resistance.

With regard to traditional populations, it has been observed that their territorialities cannot be reduced to the functional use of natural resources or the physical occupation of space, as they constitute complex forms of social, cultural, economic, and symbol , deeply linked to local knowledge, environmental management systems, collective memory, and practices of territorial belonging. However, the expansion of tourism, real estate speculation, agribusiness, mining, large-scale economic ventures, and exclusionary models of territorial governance has produced ongoing processes of expropriation, invisibilization, and the weakening of these territorialities.

Thus, it follows that understanding territory in the contemporary world requires moving beyond simplistic or merely administrative interpretations, recognizing it as a space that is constantly produced, contested, and disputed by different social actors. More than a conceptual category, territory reveals competing visions of society, expressing contradictions, conflicts, and forms of resistance that are fundamental to the reproduction of life, socio-environmental justice, and the sustainability of ecosystems.

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CHAPTER 9



TALENT SCOUTING METHODOLOGY FOR SOCCER: FACTS AND MYTHS

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ABSTRACT: Currently, football around the world faces a recurring question: how to detect, develop and train high-performance players to fit the high standard of national and international competitions. The current scenario of player selection is through -unscientific selection -which usually involves managers who have economic control over the players and agreements with the players' parents and coaches. The international literature on sports talent states that ability is not an isolated factor, but a systemic one. It also involves multiple variables such as: opportunity, resilience, skill and challenge; Thus, the following premises: systematized and long-term training, multidisciplinary team, technical and tactical training. The scientific factors of the search for sports talents are inherent to biological growth and maturation, basic and advanced motor skills, and the sports opportunities experienced, and are intrinsically related to the development and enhancement of the different performances of competitive sports. There is no guarantee that young talents will become high-performance athletes, as other factors compete to achieve the much sought after sporting achievement, factors such as psychological, family and motivational factors.

KEYWORDS: soccer, sporting talento, basic and advanced motor skills, case of HWT sports academy.

RESUMO: Atualmente, o futebol em todo o mundo enfrenta uma questão recorrente: como detectar, desenvolver e formar jogadores de alto desempenho para se adequar ao alto padrão das competições nacionais e internacionais. O cenário atual de seleção de jogadores é por meio de -seleção não científica -que em geral passa por gerentes que têm controle econômico sobre os jogadores e acordos com os pais e treinadores dos jogadores. A literatura internacional de talentos esportivos afirma que a habilidade não é um fator isolado, mas sim sistêmico. Também envolve múltiplas variáveis como: oportunidade, resiliência, habilidade e desafio; assim, as seguintes premissas: treinamento sistematizado e de longa duração, equipe multidisciplinar, treinamento técnico e tático. Os fatores científicos da busca de talentos esportivos são inerentes ao crescimento e maturação biológicos, habilidades motoras básicas e avançadas, e as oportunidades esportivas vivenciadas, e estão intrinsecamente

relacionadas ao desenvolvimento e potencialização das diferentes performances dos esportes competitivos. Não existe nenhuma garantia que os talentos juvenis se tornarão atletas de alto rendimento, pois outros fatores concorrem para atingir a tão buscada realização esportiva, fatores como os psicológicos, os familiares e os motivacionais.

PALAVRAS-CHAVE: futebol, talento esportivo, habilidades motoras básicas e avançadas, caso da HWT sports academy.

1. INTRODUCTION

Soccer around the world will be able to contribute for the development of the scouted talents (bio-psycho-social projects) in each age group. The main goal is to have these children's soccer initiation according to their stage of development. It's difficult for sports science to determine the proper age group to begin soccer training, unlike some institutions that state that the beginning of training earlier at each time, not considering children's growth and development characteristics.

These age groups (training and competency) are set in each country according to their cultural traditions and habits regarding their sporting culture. There isn't any initiation with sporting or opposition matches as stated by Dos Santos (2012), but indeed the setting of single modalities as stated by Baxter-Jones (1995); De Rose Junior, (1995); Martens, (1988); Paes, (1992); Rowland, (1996). Therefore discussing the methodology of scouting talents in Soccer proves to be necessary.

There are several authors who recommend, as ideal, to begin in a sportive activity (Soccer included) in the group age of 12-14 even for training and competitions (Bompa, 1999; Greco & Benda, 1998; Tani, Manoel, Kokubun & Proença, 1988; Weineck, 1999). However, Dos Santos (2012) states that biological system maturation is complete by the age of 18. The initiation is not regarding sporting practice alone, but highest competition level. There are controversies among authors of this matter: Roberts (1980); Roberts & Treasure (1992). They state that kids should not compete until they reach the age of 12, nonetheless participating in formal sporting activities (Soccer, Tennis, and Judo, among others) mainly formal specific sports, above all competitive ones. This is due to the lack of biological and cognitive maturity to understand competition systems. Borges, (1990); Léglise, (1996); Malina & Bouchard, (1991); Rodrigues & Barbanti, (1994) do not determine, though, adequate age groups nor recommend training and competency at early ages.

It is understood that the beginning of Soccer, Tennis and Judo training, after having been through a talent scouting process, requires a method to develop these talents because the issue of early sporting specialization is a very serious problem, which in general is not taken under consideration anywhere in the world.

As previously discussed, the issue regarding the search of talents for Soccer is complex because it contains several variables, such as: growth, biology, motor task, cognition, culture, family, social and also environmental.

Within HWT Sports Academy's methodology there is a diversity of athletes and we are changing this paradigm of not considering different types of somatology (genetics) and also minimizing risk in order to avoid possible injuries that physical exertion can cause in developing bodies. Our training methodology for Soccer, Tennis and Judo considers aspects of biomechanics, physiology, psychology, sociology, cognition, family and why not saying environmental, once our facilities are sustainable (rain water reuse; solar panels, sewage system) and our training program is intended to form citizens in the longterm since we do not rely on medals to prove our effectiveness and efficiency.

In our current soccer training program, the aim is to train athletes to participate in selective processes in the universities of the world (American, Chinese and others).

We have had 25 athletes who obtained different scholarships in Universities in The United States of America through our methodology. We have scouted the athletes with 6 evaluations during the year of 2018, to detect which bio-motor valences they had weaknesses or strengths and thus individualize their training in line with the results from these tests. We will demonstrate in the methodology of this work the progress of soccer training variables of our study. However, our children and youth training categories are being reformulated in terms of methodology in order to attend the new directives established by this new methodology.

2. THEORETICAL FRAMEWORK

The enforcement of early training systems on children, yet not prepared to cope with sporting activities that require great organic responsibility or emotional pressure, such as physical damage which intense exert can inflict in a developing organism are considered by our personal coaches, as predicted by the authors: Baxter-Jones, (1995); Bratton, (1997); Dos Santos, (2018, 2012); Maffuli, (1992); Malina & Beunen, (1996); Malina & Bouchard, (1991); Meinel & Schnabel, (1984); Rodrigues & Barbanti, (1994); Weineck, (1991, 1999).

The scientific literature is also concerned about the psycho-cultural assumptions of boys and girls scouted by an early specialization and competition system in early age groups, because this group is not prepared to stand pressures of any kind, being biological or psychological demands. Promptly, it is necessary to review all around the world the concepts and ages to begin sporting training and participation in competitions, so a whole generation of talented athletes is not lost.

Because of this the literature presents results from scientific studies regarding the beginning of training and federated competitions age groups (Darido & Farinha, 1995; De Rose Junior, 1995; Lima, 1991; Marques, 1991; Negrão, 1980; Sobral, 1993; Tani, Teixeira & Ferraz, 1994).

Likewise, it proves necessary to consider the group of authors whom defend a third way of thinking about the acquisition and development of basic motor skills (handling, displacement, jumping, climbing, direction changing, etc.) to be stimulated in children before the development of advanced or specific motor skills related to the practice of sports.

However, one must mind the infant development phases (age groups characteristics) before teaching sports in a premature way, (Barbanti, 1997; Gallahue, 2013; Greco, 1997; Greco & Benda, 1998; Paes, 1992; Tani *et al*, 1988).

There is also a concern in our studies about the search of a methodology to form high performance athletes who may live abroad (China and United States at the moment) with sportive scholarships. Soccer, Tennis and Judo are not free from the premisses of long term training, together with scouting and development of sporting talents, in which through the systemized and planned preparation aiming continuous and long term performance, it is widely supported by infant-juvenile training scholars.

These scientific studies are divided in three phases, as it follows:

- a) Basic motor skills initiation and establishment phase, from the ages of 5 to 12-13, the predisposition for the sporting culture establishment must be observed, hence opposition games as pleasurable activities must be offered;

- b) Specific training phase refers to the development of specific technical movements of Soccer, Tennis and Judo in our case. The training planning (periodization) after 13-14 years old;
- c) Sporting performance training phase refers to coordinating capacities stabilization with the optimized increase of the associated conditional capacities to the end of the human's body cycle of maturation from 17-18 years old (Arena, 1998; Böhme, 1994, 2000; Bompa, 1999; Dos Santos, 2012; Filin, 1996; Fisher & Borms, 1990; Greco & Benda, 1998; Martens, 1988; Matsudo, 1995, 1996; Rowland, 1996; Weineck, 1999).

Reserches in the Literature have not been found in regards to the criteria of initial physical activity planning, meaning from scientifically scouting and developing sporting talent to high performance athlete establishment. In HWT Sports Academy this methodology has been used in Soccer and Tennis. It will also be used in Judo, in our sporting initiation schools. Worldwide, the sporting culture, especially Soccer, of scouting and development of sporting talents targets the accumulation of wealth for managers, families and athletes. However, the current system of scouting and sporting development does not fulfill scientific premises through sporting initiation that respect scientific assumptions and human development characteristics stated by countless authors, scholars of this matter and those whom are endorsed in this paper.

3. METHODOLOGY

3.1 MAIN TARGET

Detect the bio-motor valencies needed to play Soccer in The United States of America and China, as grantees.

Specific targets

Evaluate Soccer athletes from our establishing program;

Explain our talent's scouting and development methodology for Soccer.

Review the literatura about Soccer, Judo and Tennis talent detection.

3.2 SAMPLE

Our work is sampled by 25 subjects participating in the establishment program of HWT Sports Academy, whom target acquiring sport (Soccer and Tennis) scholarships in American universities. The age group ranges from 14-22, with an average of 17.60 and a standard deviation of 1.17.

The contemplated anthropometric data has been chronological age, weight, height and BMI. The physical parameters have been: Flexibility, vertical jump (SJ and CMJ); Illinois test for agility (with and without the ball); Speed; Yo-Yo Test (meters and maximum VO₂); and RAST for anaerobic power (Minimum Power (kg/w); Maximum Power (kg/w) and Stress (w/s).

This way, we have considered the following aspects:

- a) Athlete identification: Name, date of birth, age, weight, height, Body Mass Index;
- b) The evaluated bio-motor parameters have been: Flexibility, vertical jump (SJ and CMJ); Illinois test for agility (with and without the ball); Yo-Yo Test in order to evaluate the aerobic power, considering the variables of Minimum Power; Maximum Power and Stress;
- c) The dates of evaluation have been: in the months of March and June of 2018 (Test and Re-test); April of 2018 (Test and Re-test); June of 2018 (Test and Re-test); September and December of 2018 (Test and Re-test).

The evaluators and equipment have been the same, respecting the scientific standards for data collection, regarding the trustfulness and validity of the tests. Concerning data analysis, after its collection, we have reckoned the average value and the standard variation, always substantiating the reliance of these records.

A general spreadsheet has been created with all important data which was used to put this paper together, corroborating by comparison the results of every test and re-tests that were applied on the same 25 subjects from the research.

The analysis of this spreadsheet enables a definition of the results over the weaknesses and strengths of what is being evaluated.

Variables which were exposed to continuation have been considered.

In the anthropometric tables, variables of growth, weight and height have been considered to determine the frequency of the quantitative responses. In the bio-motor parameters tests tables, quantitative data has been considered to identify the weaknesses and strengths of these variables with specific tests for Soccer.

4. RESULTS AND DISCUSSIONS

In the first week of training, the athletes have been submitted to a preliminar evaluation, under the following protocol: Medical (focus on cardio-respiratory), anthropometric, physical, technical and academic (English). After six weeks of training, more precisely in the seventh week, the first tests were undertaken. In the fifteenth week, the first re-test was undertaken, comparison-wise to the previous tests, this way, possible result evolution or involution percentuals could be analysed. After testing and re-testing, data has been catalogued in order to be processed and every evaluated variable averaged out with standard variation. Data analysis came about through descriptive statistics, percentual and inferential delta, t test for dependent samples.

The adopted significance level was $p < 0,05$.

Table 1 (Initial Test)

Test (March)										
#	Weight	Height	BMI	Flex	CMJ	Yo-Yo Test IRL 2		RAST		
25	65,50	1,74	21,86	27,33	38,81	Meters	VO ² max	Minimum power	Maximum power	FI
						571	53,07	6,19	8,20	7,20
SD	7,6	0,07	2,09	6,97	6,35	274,33	3,73	1,44	1,68	1,62

Source: Prepared by the author

Table 2 (Initial Re-test)

Re-test (June)										
#	Weight	Height	BMI	Flex.	CMJ	Yo-Yo Test IRL 2		RAST		
25	65,50	1,75	21,78	30,07	35,95	Meters	VO ² max	Minimum power	Maximum power	FI
						534	53,49	6,58	8,68	8,11
SD	7,94	0,07	2,27	6,54	5,32	205,4	3,60	1,43	1,72	1,66

Source: Prepared by the author

Table 3 (Second Test)

Test (September)										
Weight	Height	BMI	Flex	CMJ	Weight	Yo-Yo Test IRL 2	RAST			

25	70,34	1,77	22,35	32,65	40,51	Meters	VO ² max	Minimum power	Maximum power	FI
						507	52,24	5,61	7,79	7,71
SD	10,90	0,08	2,19	7,51	4,01	201,69	2,78	0,86	1,21	1,27

Source: Prepared by the author

Table 4 (Second Re-Test)

Re-test (December)										
Weight	Height	BMI	Flex	CMJ	Weight	Yo-Yo Test IRL 2		RAST		
25	70,63	1,77	22,38	33,28	35,34	Meters	VO ² max	Minimum power	Maximum power	FI
						534	52,61	5,45	7,83	7,75
SD	10,94	0,07	2,23	6,88	4,23	205,4	2,82	0,86	1,32	1,43

Source: Prepared by the author

In regards to the anthropometric evaluation, the average of age, weight, height and BMI (Body Mass Index) have not significantly changed, presenting variation between 0.6 and 0.8%.

The observed age average was 17.7. Height was 1.74 m. Weight average was 67.16 kg and BMI's was 22.16.

According to WHO (World Health Organization) standards, this figure for BMI is normal for the ideal Soccer player weight in this age group.

For the physical evaluations, capacities were determined according to the players' needs, after preliminar evaluation and semestral training planning.

The flexibility test has enabled to ascertain athlete's movement amplitude, in addition to guide a stretching program so they had a smaller muscle shortening index than the one found before.

In the first test an average of 27.33 cm was observed and in the re-test the found average was 30.07 cm.

In the second evaluation an average of 32.65 cm was observed and, in the end, 33.13 cm.

Such results are considered good according to (PROESPE, 2007) apud Simões Neto, 2015, whom considers 43 cm as excellent, and the found figures are above the national average.

One of the determining capacities, in Soccer, is lower limb's strength. For this evaluation the CMJ test (Counter Movement Jump) was employed, which uses the stretching and shortening cycle, and better borders the specificity of the jumping made in Soccer.

For jumping standardization, a jumping platform - branded CEFISE, connected to a computer with the Jump System 1.0 software, was used.

Between the first and last evaluations there was a significative improvement in the scale of 7.4%. The jumping average between the two macro-cycles was 40.47 cm, this being in accordance to the evaluated parameters by (Silva Júnior *et al*, 2011) with athletes in a Brazilian national elite level of 39cm $\pm$ 5cm.

In regards to the speed physical parameter, two factors: 20m y 30m. The employed protocol had the athletes moving on a straight line through the photocells placed at 20m and 30m, at a cyclical sprint speed. Which should be performed at the máximo possible speed? Two or three trials with complete pauses in between were performed. The best time result was considered. Photocells at 0m, 20m and 30m were employed. In order to measure sprints, three photocells were employed (placed at 0m, 20m and 30m), and the photocell device was branded CEFISE, connected to a computer with the Speed Test 6.0 specific software.

There was evolution, in data regarding 20 m, in the scale of 3.5% in the first evaluation cycle in terms of time of the run. In the second test, the improvement was in the scale of 1.8%. The group, in general, averaged 3.33 seconds. According to PROESPE, (2015), this figure is considered good, once excellence is achieved in figures under 2.73 seconds.

HWT's athlete's results may suffer interference due to the fact that the athletes start from a static position, whereas those athletes evaluated at PROESPE start from a dinamic position, with the running start before the starting line.

In relation to 30 m data, there was evolution in the scale of 3% in the first cycle of evaluation. In the second test the improvement was in the scale of 1.3%. The group, in general, averaged 4.58 seconds. According to Delunardo Júnior, (2008) this figure is below average, once excellence is achieved in figures under 4.2 seconds.

Speed with direction shifts is characterized by agility in perform, in the least amount of time, direction shifts in reduced space. In order to observe such physical trait, the Illinois test was used, which consists in using cones placed across 10m in length and 5m in depth, also considering that in the center of this

area there are 4 cones separated by 3.3m each. For time control, a Q&Q Citizen stopwatch was used, controlled by an evaluator.

There was evolution in the scale of 3.7% during the first cycle of evaluation. Though, in the second cycle of evaluation there was not any alteration in the collected results. The average observed after the macro cycles was 16.8 seconds.

Considering that according to (Davis *et al*, 2000), such figure is in average, compared to the figures found by him, which determine figures between 16.2 seconds to 18.1 seconds to be average and figures below 15.2 seconds representing excellence.

Due to the fact of this modality being non-cyclical, which means the execution of different movements across its practice, and that its practitioners make use of two different energy systems: aerobic and anaerobic.

For aerobic capacity the Yo-Yo Intermittent Recovery Test (Yo-Yo IRT) was used. Aerobic capacity is normally observed through the covered distance in a Soccer match and the maximum Oxygen consumption.

The Yo-Yo Test IRT 2 was chosen since the aerobic and anaerobic systems are highly demanded, unlike the IRT 1 test, in which there is only the aerobic component. It is performed in a 20 m long run with 1.5 m distance from one player to another.

Consisting of 20 m back and forth runs (2 x 20 m) with increased speed and 10 seconds active recovery (controlled by audio cues from an audio device).

There is an increase in speed in the different stages of the run, 13 km/h being the speed in the initial stage.

In the first evaluation cycle/re-test, the improvement in the covered distance in the scale of 5,2% and of <1% for VO²max. In the second cycle, the improvement in the covered distance in the scale of 7,2% and of <1% for VO²max. The observed average result for the Yo-Yo IRT 2 test in the covered distance was 556,75 m ± 46 m and of 52,89ml/min/kg ± 0,6 ml/min/kg for VO²max.

Values.

According to (Pasquareli *et al*, 2010) apud Silva and Marins, 2014, such data is satisfactory according to the Soccer elite evaluated average of the State of Parana, Southern Brazil, in athletes averaged in 17 years old, which was 571m

$\pm 199,9$ m. Athletes older than 17 have presented satisfactory results between 700 m and 1,000 m.

For aerobic resistance test the RAST (Running –Based Anaerobic Sprint Test) was chosen because it can evaluate several variables. Photocells arranged at 0 m and 35 m were used.

A computer attached to the suitcase was necessary in order to transfer data in real time, besides taking notes of all data in paper-based spreadsheets.

This test must be performed in a leveled location with a minimum length of 50 m, where the athlete undertakes 6 maximum 35 m sprints. In between sprints, a 10 second passive recovery break must be respected for Under (U) - 18 athletes.

Conductive to all athletes getting to complete the tests, the recovery breaks were fit to some age groupings: 35 seconds for U – 13 athletes; 30 seconds for U -14 athletes; and 25 seconds for U – 15 athletes; U - 16 had 20 seconds and U - 17 had 15 seconds of passive break. Such proposal is in accordance to a series of proposed tests by Silva & Marins, (2014).

Photocells arranged at 0 m and 35 m were used. A computer attached to the suitcase was necessary in order to transfer data in real time, besides taking notes of all data in paper-based spreadsheets. With the collected data the maximum power (Pmax) and the minimum power (Pmin) in watts (W).

After data collection, the fatigue index (FI) is also calculated which is the capacity to endure the stimuli derived from the test during the sprints and it directly reflects on muscle strength and speed decline. In the first cycle, the minimum power had an improvement in the scale of 5.9%, the maximum power had an improvement in the scale of 5.5% and the fatigue index improved 11.2%. In the second cycle, the minimum power had a decline in the scale of 2.8%, the maximum power had an improvement in the scale of 0.5% and the fatigue index (FI) also improved 1.8%.

The average value for minimum power was 95 W.Kg $\pm 0,5$ W.Kg and for maximum power was 8,1W.Kg $\pm 0,7$ W.Kg. According to Souza and others, (2012), these values are above the results found by this autor, which was $7\% \pm 1$. According to the fatigue index (FI), the observed average results was 7,71W.sec $\pm 0,4$ W.sec. This value shows that the athletes are close to the average verified by (Dal Pupo *et al*, 2010), considering that this value is appropriate

because it approaches a low value for fatigue index. Thus, this was proven right on the course of trainings/matches.

5. CONCLUSION

The collection and analysis of the data aimed to verify the performance of the athletes during the program by comparing the individual results with the rest of the group and with the bibliographic data that endorse this paper.

These comparisons were based on the work done in Brazil and abroad, and the chronological and biological age of the participants of the HWT Sports Soccer Academy program has been considered. Such consideration is for the comparison parameters in agreement with each athlete evaluated.

The results have been satisfying compared to the inferred means, when compared with the bibliographic references. For example, the maximum power values presented were greater than those compared to the base literature. In the case of lower limb power tests and agility, the results have been within the average according to the bibliographic references.

In the end of the program, we have concluded that the methodology, planning, means and application of the performed content along the year were in accordance to the preliminar performance of the athletes and thus, making it possible to determine a proven evolution in the results found during this research. This study was a pioneer in the area of scientific research to search for young talents, strongly based on collected data, analytical studies and results with statistical significance, because in the soccer modality we still have "scouts", usually former players, whose training was totally artisanal taking care of such an important matter. The gains of studies such as the one now presented will be of unique importance for society to understand how science can help the countless boys who seek the long-awaited position of professional player. The academy may have material to train future Physical Education teachers who want to work with soccer, based on science, and talent seekers who do not have academic training may have material to use in their future selections of young athletes.

Our main difficulties to carry out this research were the days dedicated to data collection, as we had many variables to be considered, but we managed to

finish the work with excellence. For future research, data collection should be carried out with more researchers, due to the number of variables considered.

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CHAPTER 10



PRODUCTIVE BACKYARDS: SPACE OF CONTRIBUTION TO WOMEN'S AUTONOMY AND AGRO-ECOLOGICAL EXPERIENCE. AN EXPERIENCE IN THE MUNICIPALITY OF APODÍ/RN

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ABSTRACT: Backyards are complex productive systems, implemented and managed mostly by women in the vicinity of their homes, which provide a vast range of products and 'services' to rural families, their communities and local markets. However, when they are not properly valued, nor supported in their specificities, backyards are placed in a context of invisibility, in the same way with women's work. In order to deepen the theme of productive backyards, a field survey was carried out in August 2023 in the municipality of Apodi/RN, at Agrovila Palmares, with the aim of identifying the profile of women who cultivate backyards: the main forms of use and occupation of backyards, bringing aspects related to the role of family farming, agroecology and alternative agro-food systems as a strategy for building food sovereignty, survey of cultivated species and their contribution to family food. The analysis showed that maintaining a productive backyard provides families with conditions for their autonomy, even if in part, to feed themselves, collaborating to improve eating habits, especially because of the relationship they make between food and health.

KEYWORDS: family farming, agroecology, productive backyards, food sovereignty, social technologies.

RESUMO: Quintais são sistemas produtivos complexos, implantados e geridos em sua maioria por mulheres nos arredores das suas casas, que fornecem uma vastidão de produtos e 'serviços' às famílias rurais, suas comunidades e mercados locais. Entretanto, ao não serem devidamente valorizados e, tampouco, apoiados nas suas especificidades, os quintais são colocados num contexto de invisibilidade, do mesmo modo com o trabalho das mulheres. Afim de aprofundar o tema dos quintais produtivos, foi realizada no mês de agosto de 2023 uma pesquisa de campo no município de Apodi/RN, na Agrovila Palmares com o objetivo de identificar o perfil das mulheres que cultivam quintais: as principais formas de uso e ocupação dos quintais, trazendo aspectos relativos ao papel da agricultura familiar, da agroecologia e sistemas alternativos agroalimentares como estratégia de construção da soberania alimentar, levantamento das espécies cultivadas e a sua contribuição para a alimentação familiar. A Análise evidenciou que a manutenção do quintal produtivo, proporciona às famílias condições para sua autonomia, mesmo que em parte, de alimentar-se, colaborando para melhoria nos hábitos alimentares, sobretudo por conta da relação que fazem entre alimentação e saúde.

PALAVRAS-CHAVE: agricultura familiar, agroecologia, quintais produtivos, soberania alimentar, tecnologias sociais.

1. INTRODUCTION

Backyard gardens are complex production systems established and managed by women in the vicinity of their homes, providing a wide range of products and “services” to rural families, their communities, and local markets (Akaasam, 2022). However, because they are neither properly valued nor supported in their specific needs, backyard gardens are rendered invisible, just as women’s work is.

Figure 1. Diagram of a productive backyard



Source: Aksaam, 2022

Agroecology is viewed as a lifestyle and a societal project. It is also understood and embraced by women more than by the family. Thus, the production carried out in the backyard, for the most part, as well as its management, planning, and maintenance, are performed by women, and it is in this space that the principles of agroecological production are identified with greater visibility and intensity compared to other agricultural activities or production spaces managed by families (Santos, 2021).

According to Altieri (2002), backyard gardens are highly efficient forms of land use, as they include a variety of crops with different growth cycles, resulting in a structure similar to that of tropical forests, with species diversity and a layered configuration that mimics the process of succession.

Agroecology, in turn, is a guiding science that integrates ecological, social, economic, and agronomic principles and values traditional knowledge. Changes in the agri-food system reduce harm to human health and the environment; furthermore, the adaptation of small-scale agronomic models helps build resilience to future climate change (Altieri, 2012).

The research seeks to identify the profile of women who cultivate backyard gardens: the main forms of use and occupation of these gardens, highlighting aspects related to the role of family farming, agroecology, and alternative agri-food systems as a strategy for building food sovereignty, as well as surveying the cultivated species and their contribution to family nutrition.

2. METHODOLOGY

This research is an expansion of a project carried out in the community of Palmares, municipality of Apodi, state of Rio Grande do Norte (RN), in the year 2022. At that time, a series of activities was implemented in the backyards of 10 (ten) families through the “Climate-Resilient Agriculture Training Program” of the DAKI Project, with the aim of developing climate-resilient agricultural plans in their territories.

The project included activities such as: group meetings, the construction and revival of female identity through gatherings, discussion circles, and short story readings, accompanied by a review of the community map, culminating in the implementation of guided practices regarding productive backyard gardens, their enhancement, and utilization through the raising of climate-resistant free-range poultry, thereby creating concrete alternatives for food security and income generation.

This experience was systematized by two extension agents from EMATER-RN, both students in the Gente do Campo Program, and presented during Science and Technology Week at the State University of Rio Grande do Norte (UERN) in November 2022, with the aim of disseminating the teaching, research, and extension activities developed by the academic community.

To further explore the topic of productive backyards, a field study was conducted in August 2023 using an exploratory, mixed-methods approach that combined qualitative and quantitative data. According to Minayo (2002),

quantitative and qualitative datasets are not opposed to one another; on the contrary, they complement each other, as they bring distinct emphases and dimensions, thereby enhancing integration.

Initially, a literature review was conducted, examining books, scientific articles, and master's theses identified through search *engines* and other sources regarding the theoretical framework surrounding the research topics. Bibliographic research can be understood as “[...] that which is developed in an attempt to explain a problem based on theories published in various types of sources: books, articles, manuals, encyclopedias, proceedings, electronic media, etc.” (Heerdt; Leonel, 2007, p. 67).

Next, field research was conducted, and the data collection method involved the administration of semi-structured questionnaires, which included both open-ended and closed- . Thus, a random sample of 20% of resident households was selected based on the following criteria: women who participated in the implementation activities of the DAKI project and who had a productive (active) backyard, with or without a water reuse system, in order to gather information on the influence of this system on backyard management. On-site observations were also conducted during home visits, along with photographic documentation of the gardens, to better interpret the reality under study.

Thus, the data obtained were cataloged for analysis, and the results are described under three thematic areas addressing: (i) productive backyards and their structure; (ii) the profile of the women; and (iii) the strengthening of productive backyards.

3. RESULTS AND DISCUSSION

3.1 PRODUCTIVE BACKYARD AND ITS STRUCTURE

For this study, a backyard was defined as the space surrounding a residence where trees, fruits, vegetables, medicinal and ornamental plants are grown, and/or small animals are raised.

Regarding the water infrastructure of rural communities, it is essential to mention water scarcity and the need to use drought-resilient technologies, employing intervention mechanisms and tools to ensure water supply in these

areas.

This situation is also evident in the Palmares agricultural village. For the most part, the community relies on a system of cisterns to store rainwater and on a well with water pipes connected to the homes. Depending on the rainy season, the water level in the well can fluctuate, potentially significantly reducing the supply to homes, forcing families to rely on other forms of storage and/or water systems to meet their domestic needs. It should be added that some homes have a water reuse system in their backyards, which involves reusing water from domestic activities to irrigate plants in the yard, along with a septic tank and filtration system, enabling the maintenance and cultivation of plants for food consumption. Thus, what was once a limiting factor for the development of backyard agriculture, with the use of the reuse system, opens up or expands this possibility.

Silva and Silva (2022) state that backyard gardens promote food security for small-scale producers, since most species are used for food; they contribute to in situ biodiversity conservation and keep the tradition alive through the transmission of knowledge about farming practices, which are passed down orally from older to younger generations.

Figure 2. Water reuse filtration system at Agrovila Palmares – Apodi, Rio Grande do Norte



Source: Água Viva Handbook, Women of the Semi-Arid Region (Cf8, 2019)

Other studies have shown that maintaining a productive backyard provides families with the means to achieve, even if only partially, self-sufficiency in food,

contributing to improved dietary habits, particularly due to the connection they make between food and health (FURTADO; ANJOS; ANJOS, 2016). Beyond food production, other motivations for maintaining productive backyards are evident, such as: cultural and economic factors; the pleasure of working with the land (as an occupation and therapy), maintaining family traditions (rural values, customs, and habits), and exchanging and developing ideas with other families regarding community decisions, interests, and collective decisions, thus also emerging as a space for political engagement.

“[...] Women’s contribution to strengthening agroecological transition strategies is evident. Their relationship with nature and the peasant practices passed down from generation to generation make women’s participation in the spheres of life reproduction as well as in the sphere of commodity production a tremendous force of resistance to the globalized agri-food system, in the construction of alternative local agri-food systems, and in the pursuit of food sovereignty.” (Bezerra, 2019, p.02).

Thus, the presence and strengthening of productive backyards promote autonomy and visibility for women’s role in the family economy, as well as their empowerment to go beyond the domestic sphere.

In this regard, the cultivation of productive backyards can ensure families’ food security by producing food from an agroecological perspective, without the use of pesticides, chemical fertilizers, and mechanization. Thus, these families have access to foods that complement their diet, in adequate quantity and nutritional quality, through environmentally sustainable practices. (Silva; Silva, 2022).

Therefore, a backyard has historically been a space where women have sought to grow food in their own way, meeting their specific needs and circumstances.

3.2 PROFILE OF INTERVIEWEE

The average age of the interviewees is fifty years old; all are female and comprise the group that directly manages the productive backyards. Regarding educational background, the majority (83%) did not complete high school, with 50% stating they had not completed elementary school, 33% having not

completed high school, and only 17% having completed high school.

Regarding the production model, all stated that they produce organically, citing as the main reason the preservation of the health of family members and consumers, since the food is grown without the use of pesticides and chemical fertilizers.

When asked about the positive impacts of home gardens on family life, all stated that they were highly significant and cited the following as some of the impacts: a free supply of food, reducing expenses on purchasing groceries; better health due to the use of organic, contaminant-free food; medicinal use through the cultivation of herbs for that purpose; shade provision; autonomy and independence in producing their own food, generating employment and income in some cases.

Management of productive backyards involves simple, low-cost technologies combined with agroecological plant-growing practices. Regarding plant fertilization, the women farmers reported that they typically use organic fertilization by applying goat manure collected from their own gardens or those of their neighbors, in addition to using mulch, leaf litter, and decomposing vegetable matter around the roots and stems of each plant species. Weed control was no different. The study found that in all backyards, weeds are removed as needed, depending on their function or necessity.

Regarding family involvement in managing the backyard garden, 67% reported receiving help from a family member, while 33% do not receive any help and handle the garden's productive activities on their own. This data is significant, as it demonstrates that productive backyard systems have been sustained over time, traditionally through the efficient use of family labor and the transmission of knowledge. Furthermore, it confirms that women have been primarily responsible for maintaining these systems, particularly in areas where backyards are used for growing medicinal and edible herbaceous plants—which require frequent care—as well as for raising small animals for self-consumption and/or sale, playing an important role in improving these systems.

Regarding animal husbandry, all interviewees reported that they consistently raise small animals as a source of protein for family consumption and as a financial reserve in case of need. Three main species were mentioned: free-range chickens, pigs, and goats.

The small volume and diversity of products, the agroecological management of seasonal production, and the use of some of these home-grown foods make it clear that women bear almost the entire responsibility for meeting the family's food needs, even with the significant water constraints for backyard farming.

When asked about the main challenges encountered in carrying out activities in the backyard, the following were cited: lack of help with management, lack of financial resources, lack of time, and health problems.

At Agrovila Palmares, as well as in other rural contexts, it is common to hear about the overload women face daily as they perform multiple simultaneous tasks during their daily routine, which overlap—whether in household chores, preparing meals, caring for children, tending to animals and growing plants in the backyard, among others, resulting in a continuous workday that extends into the night.

This reality stems from the unequal division of labor, which is evident precisely in these situations where domestic and caregiving tasks remain reserved almost exclusively for women, while men completely exempt themselves from these activities. (Bezerra, 2019).

Bezerra (2019) reports that “the devaluation and normalization of domestic work performed by women is still very present and significant. This is evident when women fail to describe these activities in detail, simplifying and generalizing the tasks and naturally accepting the excessive workload under their responsibility.”

Table 1. Main species grown in home gardens, 2023.

Common Name	Scientific Name	Family	Use
Acerola	<i>Malpighia puniceifolia</i> L.	Malpighiaceae	Food consumption
Pineapple	<i>Ananas comosus</i>	Bromeliaceae	Food consumption
Banana	<i>Musa spp.</i>	Musaceae	Food consumption
Chives	<i>Allium schoenoprasum</i> L.	Liliaceae	Food consumption
Green onion	<i>Coriandrum sativum</i> L.	Apiaceae	Food consumption
Coconut palm	<i>Cocos Nucifera</i>	Arecaeae	Food consumption
Guava	<i>Psidium Guava</i>	Myrtaceae	Food consumption
Soursop	<i>Annona muricata</i>	Annonaceae	Food consumption
Orange	<i>Citrus sinensis</i>	Rutaceae	Food consumption
Lemon	<i>Citrus limonum</i>	Rutaceae	Food consumption
Mango tree	<i>Mangifera Indica</i>	Anacardiaceae	Food consumption
Bird's eye chili	<i>Capsicum chinense</i>	Solanaceae	Used as a seasoning
Lemongrass	<i>Cymbopogon citratus</i>	Poaceae	Analgesic and sedative
Lemon Balm	<i>Melissa officinalis</i> L.	Lamiaceae	Analgesic and sedative

Boldo	<i>Peumus boldus</i>	Monimiaceae	Digestive and Analgesic
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Source: Field research (2023). Compiled by the author

Regarding the method of watering or irrigating plants in the yard, among the interviewees, 50% have a reuse system installed and connected via the home's sewage pipes; 33% use water from the community well; and 17% report using water from a rainwater cistern located in their own yard.

Among the women interviewed, we found cases where, when it was impossible to use the cistern (for example, when it was empty or in need of maintenance) or the water reuse system installed in their backyard, there is a productive backyard, irrigated with whatever water is available at the time, collected/stored manually in buckets (without a piped system), showing that these women are committed to keeping their backyards productive, even without ideal conditions, doing what they can with what they have at their disposal.

The work carried out by the women in their backyards has allowed them to advance, within the principles of agroecology, in developing their own strategy to address economic dependence and increase the production of healthy and diverse foods, both for self-consumption and, in some cases, to generate income for the women and their families.

Figure 3. Productive backyard garden of Sueli, a farmer in Agrovila Palmares – Apodi (RN)



Source: Author's records (2023).

Working in home gardens brings about positive changes for women, such as improved nutrition, income (albeit sporadic), autonomy in managing their income, breaking out of isolation and developing social relationships, recognition of their work, building a mutual support network with other women, and improved self-esteem and self-confidence.

“The backyard is a space of women’s knowledge; it is a space of agricultural biodiversity and food sovereignty. It is a space for women’s work and agency” (Laetícia Jalil, professor at the Federal Rural University of Pernambuco – UFRPE (Daki, 2022a).

According to Altieri (2002), backyard gardens are among the most highly efficient land-use techniques, incorporating a variety of crops and often featuring a structure similar to that of forests, with diverse species and configurations that mimic that ecosystem. However, society has been moving away from the practice of cultivating backyard gardens in recent decades due to a model shaped by industrialization and globalization. Even though this has been a food production system capable of sustaining millions of people over the years, little attention is paid to the subject, especially to food production, which is overlooked in food consumption statistics.

According to Silva; Silva (2022), “backyard gardens help strengthen agroecological practices and family farming, generating additional income for farmers through the sale of products grown in these spaces. (...) they promote food security for small-scale producers, since most species are used for food; they contribute to in situ biodiversity conservation; and they keep traditions alive by passing down knowledge of farming practices through oral transmission from older to younger generations. Last but not least, home gardens are spaces of female autonomy where women choose what and where to plant. They play the important and historic role of growing the food that will make up their families’ meals.”

3.3 STRENGTHENING PRODUCTIVE BACKYARDS

Among women farmers, it is commonly said that one of the greatest challenges to backyard farming is the lack of water. Without this natural resource, it is impossible to produce in sufficient quantity and quality to meet the needs of

these women and their families. Increasing the water supply must be a priority as a starting point for strengthening productive backyards through the use of social technologies.

According to the FBB (2017): the concept of social technology encompasses methodologies, techniques, or products developed in collaboration with the community to find effective solutions to existing social problems. Once created, they can be reapplied in various locations, respecting cultural differences. It is an innovative concept of development, as it considers collective participation from the very beginning of the process of organization, development, implementation, and dissemination (2017b, p. 28).

Social technologies combine popular knowledge with social organization and technical-scientific knowledge. They can be adopted or used for different purposes, but they contribute to the same goal, which is the sustainable production of food and/or other products, as well as income generation. They allow for increased water supply through rainwater harvesting, wastewater treatment, simplified irrigation using local materials, and reduced water consumption—all of which are alternatives to address these challenges.

4. FINAL CONSIDERATIONS

Based on the evidence presented, it can be concluded that productive backyards represent an effective strategy for promoting sustainability, food sovereignty, and social empowerment, especially for women. This practice, which combines food cultivation with environmental preservation, demonstrates that it is feasible to produce food in an environmentally conscious manner, respecting nature's cycles and available resources.

Furthermore, productive backyards serve as spaces for social transformation, where women achieve financial autonomy, food security, and dignity for themselves and their families. Valuing these spaces also enables the creation of an educational environment in which topics such as ecology, health, solidarity economy, and gender equality can be addressed in a practical manner and integrated into daily life.

The results obtained through these experiences reveal the importance of expanding dialogue between universities, government, and communities to foster

public policies and extension projects that ensure access to technologies, research, and innovations aimed at improving and expanding productive backyards. When science, technology, and community organization work together, it is possible to build sustainable models of local development, promoting citizenship, social inclusion, and environmental justice.

However, despite the advances and contributions identified throughout this research, it is necessary to acknowledge certain limitations inherent to the study of productive backyards. One of the main limitations relates to the geographic scope, since much of the research focuses on specific territories, making it difficult to extrapolate the results to other socio-environmental and cultural contexts. Furthermore, the precise measurement of social and economic impacts, such as women's autonomy and household food security, presents considerable methodological challenges, requiring approaches that combine quantitative and qualitative methods, as well as long-term monitoring.

Another limiting factor is the issue of time, which must be sufficient to assess structural transformations, especially those related to sustainable social, environmental, and economic changes. Furthermore, the scarcity of financial and institutional resources can compromise both the development of more robust research and the continuity of initiatives in the territories.

Given these limitations, it is recommended that future research expand its geographic scope and promote comparative studies across different regions and sociocultural contexts. It is also suggested that gender analysis be deepened in order to gain a broader understanding of the role of productive backyards in strengthening women's autonomy. The adoption of interdisciplinary approaches that integrate knowledge from the agricultural, social, environmental, and health sciences could contribute to a more holistic understanding of the phenomenon in question.

It is recommended to invest in appropriate social technologies that respect traditional knowledge and promote sustainable, low-cost innovations. Finally, the systematization and dissemination of best practices are relevant strategies for replicating successful experiences, thereby expanding the social, academic, and political impact of these initiatives.

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CHAPTER 11



COLOR-BASED HIERARCHICAL CLUSTERING FOR IMAGE SEGMENTATION

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ABSTRACT: Unsupervised learning enables the exploration of hidden structures in datasets without the need for predefined labels. Among the existing approaches, hierarchical clustering stands out for its ability to organize data into a partition structure, revealing grouping patterns at different levels of detail. This work applies hierarchical clustering to a set of 200 images of artworks by ten major authors of Romanticism, with the goal of identifying groups of works that share similar chromatic attributes. To this end, the images were resized and then the Median Cut algorithm was used to extract five representative colors from each artwork, expressed in RGB values. These values were used to calculate the similarity between the images, adopting Euclidean distance as the metric. The results showed that images with visually similar colors tended to remain in the same group, resulting in eight clusters with different patterns of predominant colors. This reinforces the potential of clustering based on color attributes, especially in larger and more chromatically diverse datasets. As a suggestion for future work, tests can be conducted with different color spaces, similarity metrics, and other clustering models, in order to analyze whether these approaches can improve the performance and quality of the resulting clusters.

KEYWORDS: machine learning, unsupervised learning, hierarchical clustering, color quantization, chromatic clustering.

RESUMO: O aprendizado não supervisionado permite a exploração de estruturas ocultas em conjuntos de dados sem a necessidade de rótulos pré-definidos. Entre as abordagens existentes, a clusterização hierárquica destaca-se por sua capacidade de organizar os dados em uma estrutura de partições, revelando padrões de agrupamento em diferentes níveis de detalhamento. Este trabalho aplica a clusterização hierárquica a um conjunto de 200 imagens de obras de dez importantes autores do Romantismo, com o objetivo de identificar grupos de obras que compartilhem atributos cromáticos semelhantes. Para isso, as imagens foram redimensionadas e, em seguida, utilizou-se o algoritmo Median Cut para extrair cinco cores representativas de cada obra, expressas em valores RGB. Esses valores foram empregados no cálculo da similaridade entre as imagens, adotando-se a distância euclidiana como métrica. Os resultados mostraram que imagens com cores visualmente semelhantes tenderam a permanecer no mesmo grupo, resultando em oito agrupamentos com diferentes padrões de cores predominantes. Isso reforça o potencial da clusterização baseada em atributos de cor, especialmente em conjuntos de dados maiores e mais diversos cromaticamente. Como sugestão para trabalhos futuros, podem ser realizados testes com diferentes espaços de cores, métricas de similaridade, métodos de ligação e abordagens divisivas, buscando analisar possíveis melhorias no desempenho e na qualidade dos agrupamentos obtidos.

PALAVRAS-CHAVE: aprendizado de máquina, aprendizado não supervisionado, agrupamento hierárquico, quantização de cores, agrupamento cromático.

1. INTRODUCTION

With advances in technology, data science has become an essential tool in everyday business. Faced with a growing volume of information, companies that fail to incorporate it are gradually becoming obsolete. However, data science is not limited to the corporate environment, as it is an interdisciplinary approach that is highly relevant to various fields of knowledge. Among these fields, image analysis stands out; when applied to the arts, it enables the identification of details that would otherwise go unnoticed amid the visual complexity of a painting. The extraction of these elements—invisible to direct observation—contributes to a deeper understanding of the works and broadens the interpretive repertoire available to art studies.

Thus, the objective of this study is to use data science tools to capture patterns present in paintings that would not be identifiable to the naked eye, thereby enabling the formation of clusters of works with similar visual characteristics.

In the digital realm, a painting corresponds to an image composed of small units called pixels, organized into a matrix, also known as a bitmap. A 12-megapixel camera, for example, captures images containing 12 million pixels. Working directly with all these elements is impractical, as it significantly increases memory usage and processing time and tends to produce inefficient groupings. For this reason, a series of preliminary steps is necessary, such as defining analytical foci, including chromatic layers, which hold great potential for pattern extraction, given that colors are frequently used as vehicles of symbolism.

Each pixel in a digital image has a color defined by red, green, and blue values—known by the acronym RGB—a color model based on the intensities of red, green, and blue. In the RGB model, these colors combine additively, with each component ranging from 0 to 255. Values close to zero correspond to darker shades, and values close to 255 correspond to lighter shades, which allows for the creation of more than 16 million colors. This significant number of combinations means that, even within the same group, elements are rarely exactly identical to one another. Nevertheless, they maintain a higher degree of similarity among themselves than with elements belonging to other groups, which justifies their separation into distinct clusters. Considering the complexity of

processing once again, another necessary step involves resizing the images and limiting the number of possible colors. Since an image can contain millions of pixels, and each pixel has three RGB values, the volume of data generated is extremely high. Therefore, these measures are essential to make computational processing lighter and more efficient. It was also necessary to limit the scope to a single artistic movement, in order to allow for a less comprehensive analysis. There are countless artistic movements, each with its own characteristics and visual elements. Among them, Romanticism stands out, emphasizing emotion, individualism, the historical past, and nature. When seeking to extract chromatic patterns, this movement offers particularly fertile ground, since color choices may have been used to convey such symbolism.

To achieve the proposed objective, the hierarchical clustering technique was used, a clustering approach widely applied in the market, especially in customer segmentation. In this study, this technique was applied to the colors extracted from the images, organizing them into a hierarchical structure of interrelated groups. This method allows for the construction of a clustering tree, known as a dendrogram, which provides an intuitive visualization of the relationships between color groups at different levels of similarity. Based on these relationships, hierarchical clustering enables the identification of complex structural patterns.

This work is organized into five main sections. The first section introduces the topic, highlighting the motivations for the study and the challenges associated with digital image processing. Next, the second section presents a review and discussion of the literature that forms the basis of the research. The third section describes the adopted methodology in detail. Then, the fourth section presents the results obtained. Finally, the fifth section summarizes the study's conclusions.

2. THEORETICAL FRAMEWORK

According to Zins (2007), data can be defined as sets of symbols that represent empirical perceptions. In this sense, data science plays a fundamental role in transforming raw data—that is, data of various kinds, including images—into meaningful information. In today's digital age, virtually all human activities generate data, and it is through this data that knowledge is constructed. Thus,

the application of data science techniques to extract information from the colors present in Romantic-era paintings proves not only feasible but also a promising approach to the convergence of art and technology. According to Jain (2008), grouping data in a coherent manner is one of the most fundamental strategies for generating understanding and acquiring knowledge. Groupings allow us to identify patterns that, when investigated, reveal relevant information.

Romantic artists sought, above all, to express deep emotions, nationalist ideals, and an idealized vision of the world. This was also reflected in the visual arts, with works rich in symbolism, drama, the exaltation of nature, and subjective themes (Imbroisi; Martins, 2025). In this sense, this creative freedom—centered on the individual and their emotions—was translated into visual compositions through color. Thus, clustering becomes an interesting way to investigate how these elements were expressed chromatically; for this reason, Romanticism stands out as a fertile movement for conducting such investigations.

Image processing involves millions of pixels, each represented by RGB color values. Working with all this data requires robust computational resources. Ahaiwe (2013) states that image processing generally demands significant computational capacity, mainly due to the massive amount of information involved, since conventional image sources can generate data equivalent to more than seven million pixels per second.

In this context, image reduction becomes necessary. One of the methods used for this is quantization, which reduces the number of colors needed to represent a digital image, thereby enabling a reduction in file size. Bovik (2005) states that quantization is a fundamental step preceding digital processing, since the intensities of an image must be represented with finite precision in any digital processor. Huang (2021) adds that the success of quantization in color images depends on the choice of an efficient color palette. When an appropriate palette is used, the visual quality of the compressed image is preserved, which justifies the use of adaptive quantization to select the most representative colors.

In this regard, since the focus of this work is on colors, the use of adaptive palettes is justified, as is the resizing of images to apply the median cut color quantization algorithm, which recursively divides the color space until it obtains medians that make up the final palette (Heckbert, 1982).

With the appropriate color palette, it is necessary to calculate the distance between the data—in this case, the colors of the images—since many unsupervised learning algorithms rely on this metric to group similar elements. Euclidean distance is one of the simplest approaches and, for this reason, has been widely used over the years. This measure represents the shortest distance between two points in a space and is widely used in machine learning (Gorthy, 2024). Despite its popularity, studies indicate that Euclidean distance in RGB space does not adequately preserve the human perception of color differences. Nevertheless, many practical approaches described in the literature continue to use this metric in RGB space as a similarity criterion for clustering (Acuña et al., 1996), demonstrating that, although it has limitations, this classical technique still offers effective results without requiring complex calculations.

Once the distance is measured, the next step is clustering. Since the data is unlabeled, it is up to the algorithm to discover, on its own, patterns and relationships to determine which cluster each image belongs to. This is precisely the principle of unsupervised learning, which, as discussed by Valkenborg et al. (2023), seeks to explore the structure of the data without relying on predefined answers. Instead of testing hypotheses or building predictive models, this type of learning identifies patterns and organizes the information autonomously, with clustering methods being one of its main categories.

Among these methods, hierarchical clustering stands out, as it organizes data into different levels of similarity. As also noted by Valkenborg et al. (2023), this procedure generates a tree-like structure—the dendrogram—in which the most similar elements are connected by shorter branches, while greater distances indicate less proximity. The algorithm can follow an agglomerative approach, first merging the closest elements and forming progressively larger groups, or a divisive approach, which starts with the entire set and divides it into increasingly smaller subgroups. In both cases, the goal is to maximize similarity within groups and the difference between them.

3. METHODOLOGY

This section describes in detail the processes carried out in Python for the segmentation of Romantic-era paintings. The topics covered in this research are:

collection of works to form the dataset, extraction of color palettes, calculation of the Euclidean distance between images, creation and implementation of the unsupervised model, and, finally, evaluation of the quality of the clustering.

First, the artworks were collected from reliable sources, such as digital museums and online collections. Since the goal is not to create a complex model, a manageable amount of data is necessary to enable a thorough analysis. Therefore, 20 artworks were collected from each artist, totaling 200 images. Ten major Romantic artists were selected: Ary Scheffer, Caspar David Friedrich, David Allan, Ferdinand Victor Eugene Delacroix, Francesco Hayez, Francisco de Goya, John Constable, Joseph Mallord William Turner, Philipp Otto Runge, and Theodore Gericault. Metadata for the paintings was also collected and will be read in the Python environment using the pandas library.

To extract the color palettes, a procedure based on color quantization was adopted—a technique used to reduce chromatic complexity while maintaining visual representativeness. Using the Pillow library, each image was first resized to 150x150 pixels to reduce computational cost and preserve essential visual elements. Next, the Median Cut algorithm was applied, which performs successive partitions in the color space until five representative colors remain per image, generating palettes in RGB values that synthesize the visual identity of each artwork.

In the next step, using the math library, the Euclidean distance between the colors in the images was calculated: first between each pair of colors, and then the average of these distances was taken to represent the difference between the sets of colors.

$$d = \sqrt{(R_2 - R_1)^2 + (G_2 - G_1)^2 + (B_2 - B_1)^2} \quad (1)$$

where:

d = Euclidean distance between the two colors

R_1 , G_1 , and B_1 = red, green, and blue components of the first color

R_2 , G_2 , and B_2 = red, green, and blue components of the second color

The difference between the sets was represented by the mean, as shown in Equation 2.

$$\bar{d} = \frac{1}{n \times m} \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^m d(c_i, c_j) \quad (2)$$

where:

$\bar{d}$ = mean distance between the color sets

n = number of colors in the first set

m = number of colors in the second set

c_i = the i -th color in the first set

c_j = the j -th color in the second set

$d(c_i, c_j)$ = Euclidean distance between colors c_i and c_j

$n \times m$ = total number of combinations between the colors of the two sets

All results for the average distance between image pairs were stored in a 200×200 matrix in NumPy format. To apply the hierarchical clustering algorithm, it was necessary to convert this matrix into a condensed matrix, which was done using the SciPy library. Unlike a traditional square matrix, a condensed matrix stores only the unique distances between pairs of elements, excluding repetitions and the values on the main diagonal. This reduces storage space and corresponds to the format required by various hierarchical clustering libraries.

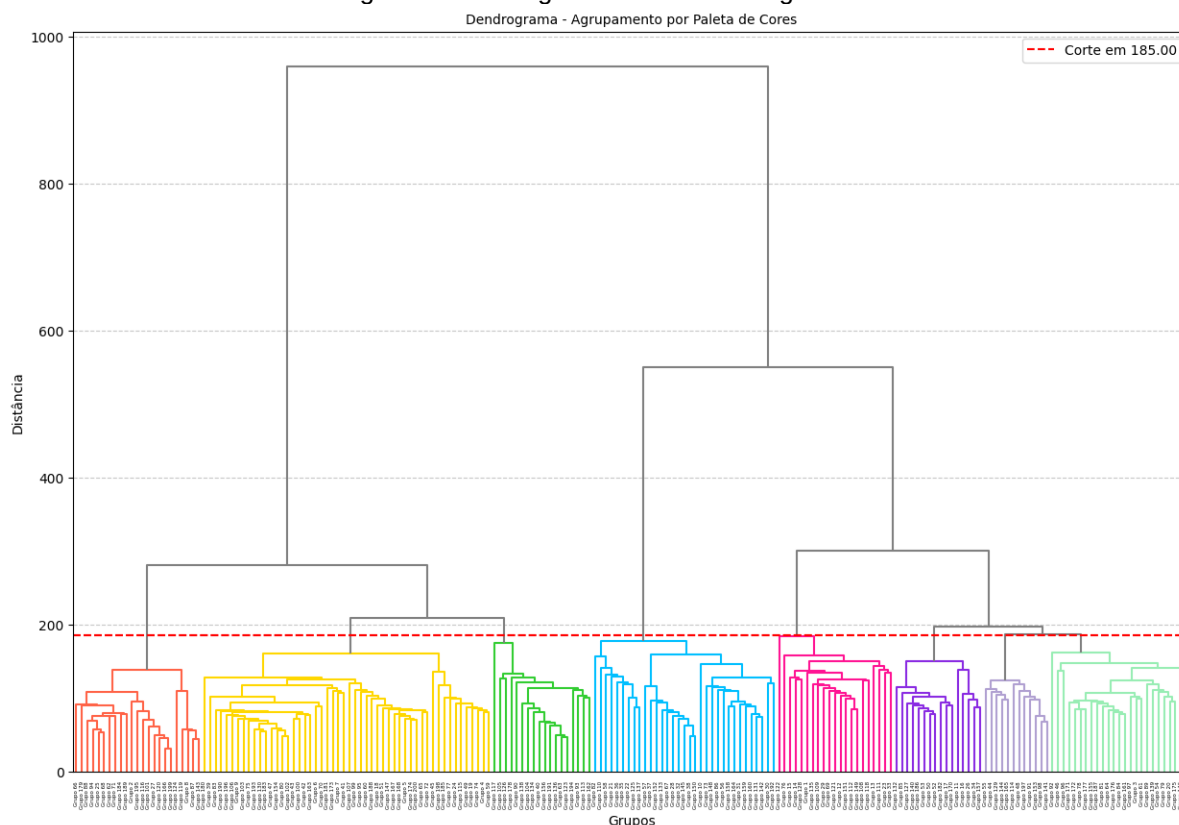
Next comes the stage of creating and implementing the unsupervised model. Hierarchical clustering can be performed in two ways: divisive (*top-down*), which divides a group until individual points are reached, or agglomerative (*bottom-up*), which merges individual points until a single group is formed. In this study, the agglomerative approach was adopted using the SciPy library, due to its simplicity, efficiency, and greater ease of interpreting the results, producing more organized and intuitive dendrograms, unlike the divisive method, which would produce more complex structures and is not suitable for the purpose of this study. In addition, the Ward linking method was used, which selects mergers that minimize the increase in the sum of the squares of the distances within the clusters (inertia). The application of hierarchical clustering enabled the construction of the dendrogram. It was observed that, at a cutoff distance of 185, the first hierarchies were formed, resulting in eight groups of images.

The evaluation of the clusters was conducted using three main approaches. The first involved the use of evaluation metrics, including the calculation of the Co-phenetic Correlation Coefficient (CCC), performed using the SciPy library, which measures how faithfully the dendrogram represents the actual distances between the images, and the average Silhouette Score, which assesses how well the objects were grouped into clusters by combining cohesion (the proximity of points to their own cluster) and separation (the distance from other clusters), and is available in the scikit-learn library. The second approach involved three-dimensional visualization of the clusters using Matplotlib, based on the average RGB coordinates of each image, which allowed for a better understanding of the separation between the formed groups. Finally, a visual assessment was conducted through direct observation of the clustered images to verify whether there was indeed similarity among the predominant colors.

4. RESULTS AND DISCUSSION

Hierarchical clustering generated the dendrogram shown in Figure 1 below, allowing us to visualize the similarity structure among the analyzed elements using Ward's linking method. In the dendrogram, the vertical axis represents the distance or dissimilarity between the groups formed throughout the merging process; the higher the value on the Y-axis, the greater the distance between the clusters joined at that point in the tree. The horizontal axis, on the other hand, organizes the individual observations or intermediate clusters, without any metric significance, serving only as a visual arrangement of the elements along the base of the graph.

Figure 1. Dendrogram of the clustering.



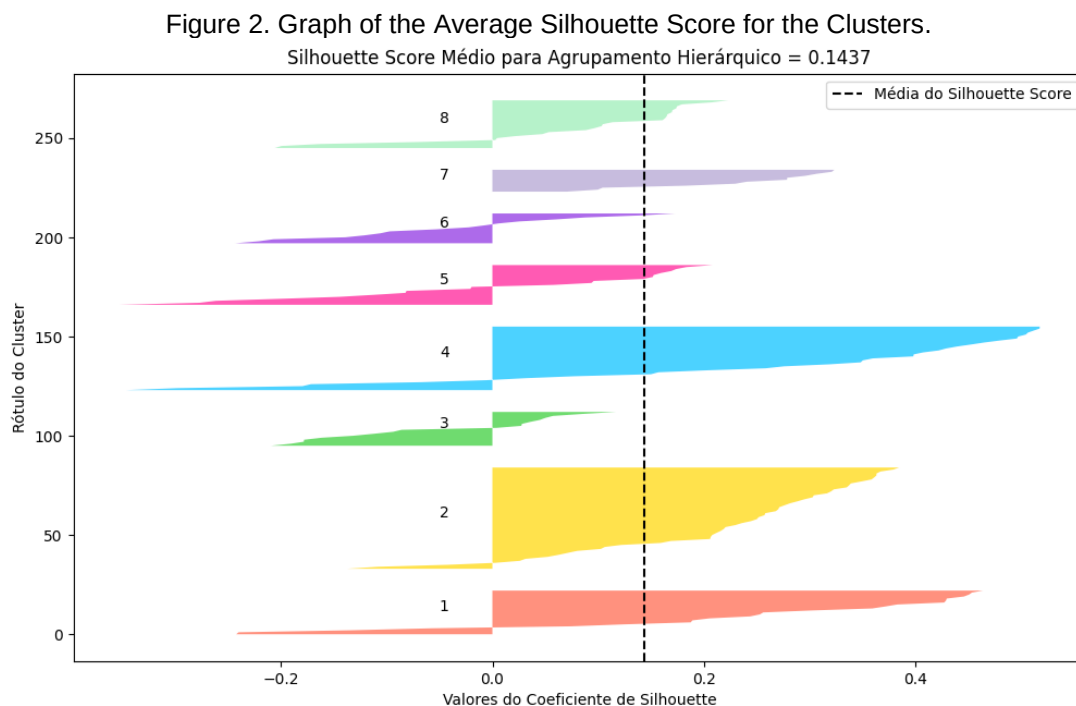
Source: Prepared by the authors.

A horizontal dashed line at height 185 can be observed in the graph, indicating the cutoff point adopted to define the final clusters. This height was selected following a preliminary analysis of the dendrogram, with the objective of obtaining cohesive groups that are well differentiated from one another. The choice of the value 185 is based on the fact that, above this height, the merging of already relatively heterogeneous structures begins, which would impair interpretability. On the other hand, below this height, the dendrogram begins to form excessively fragmented groups, including very small clusters or even single-observation groups (composed of a single observation), which is also undesirable. This excessive fragmentation would reduce the practical usefulness of the analysis, as it would generate too many groups with low internal representativeness. Using this cutoff criterion, eight distinct groups are identified, each comprising observations that are more similar to one another.

The groups do not follow a defined pattern regarding the amount of data. Some contain a significant number of images, such as the second cluster (from left to right, represented by the yellow color in the graph), which comprises 52

images, while others have a smaller number, such as cluster 7 (light lilac/purple), with only twelve images. It can be observed that certain groups have smaller branches, indicating lower internal diversity, such as the first group (orange), whereas others exhibit more extensive branches, corresponding to the level at which their elements merged, such as the fifth group (bright pink), suggesting greater internal variety, with merging occurring only at higher distance levels.

The calculated Cofenetic Correlation Coefficient (CCC) was approximately 0.5434. This value can be considered median, indicating that the dendrogram preserves the original distances of the dataset to an intermediate degree. In other words, it adequately represents the general structure of proximity relationships, although it simplifies some finer details.



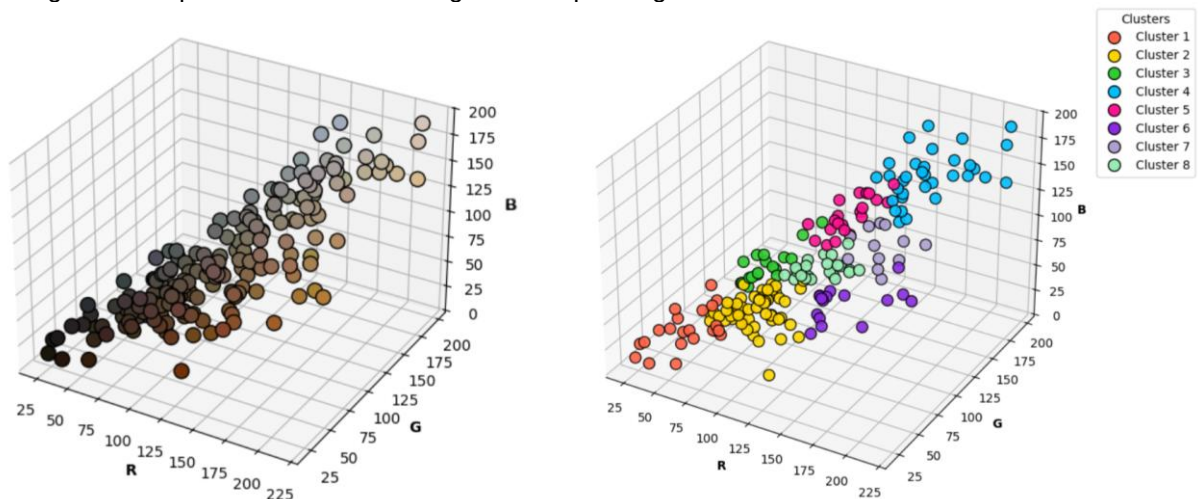
The average Silhouette Score ranges from -1 to 1. Values close to 1 indicate that the points are well clustered; values close to 0 suggest that the points lie on the boundaries between two clusters; and negative values indicate that the points may be assigned to the wrong cluster.

In the graph in Figure 2, it can be seen that the calculated average Silhouette Score was 0.1437. Each colored line represents an element within its respective group. Overall, the result indicates poorly defined clusters. It can be

noted that groups 6, 3, and 5 show greater dispersion, with a considerable number of negative values. Group 7 is well-defined and is the only one without negative lines. Group 2 has relatively high values, but still includes some negative points. Groups 4 and 1 are the best-structured, exhibiting high values, and Group 4 even had one element with a score of 0.5175, in addition to having few negative values. Group 8 shows intermediate performance, with no notable positive or negative aspects.

The order of performance, from best to worst, was: Group 4, Group 1, Group 7, Group 2, Group 8, Group 5, Group 6, and Group 3.

Figure 3: 3D plots of the RGB averages of the paintings and the distribution of the clusters.



Source: Prepared by the authors

In the three-dimensional cluster distribution graph, shown on the right in Figure 3 and constructed from the average RGB coordinates of each image, these observations are visually confirmed. The best-performing groups (4 and 1) are farther from the others, occupying opposite ends of the space. In contrast, the worst-performing group (3) appears very close to—and even overlaps with—the other three groups, highlighting its low separability.

The graph also reveals that, although there is an ordered distinction between the groups based on average color intensity, they still remain quite close to one another. This suggests a high degree of similarity among the palettes or the absence of images with sufficient chromatic contrast to widen the separation between the clusters. The analysis of average colors, shown on the left side of Figure 3, reinforces this interpretation, since the hues are very close to one

another, varying mainly between brown and gray and forming groups defined by small differences in these shades. In this context, Group 4 exhibits the lightest colors, while Group 1 comprises the darkest hues.

Figure 4. Set of 33 paintings assigned to Group 4 by the model.



Source: Compilation prepared by the authors based on digital museum collections, 2025.

Upon visually analyzing the groups, the similarity among the colors of the images is striking, as can be seen in Figure 4, which presents the paintings from the fourth group. This pattern of chromatic consistency is noticeable even in the groups that performed less well on the metrics, reinforcing that, although some quantitative results were negative, the main objective—to group images with similar colors—was effectively achieved.

5. CONCLUSION

The study achieved its objective by generating distinct groups of paintings with visual and chromatic coherence. Eight groups were formed with varying numbers of works, the main difference among which was related to the predominant hues, ranging from groups with lighter colors to those with darker ones. However, the strong presence of similar tones—such as brown, yellow, and gray—a common characteristic of the Romantic period, made it difficult to form groups that were more distinct from one another.

Even with these limitations, the results can be considered positive, as the hierarchical clustering successfully organized the works consistently based on their chromatic characteristics. Groups 4, 1, 7, 2, and 8 yielded the best results, demonstrating more defined visual patterns. Groups 5, 6, and 3, on the other hand, although they still exhibited chromatic similarity, appeared more generic compared to the others.

The results also highlight the potential of data science tools in applications beyond traditional computing, enabling new forms of analysis and visual interpretation. Furthermore, the developed model offers a simple, accessible, and computationally efficient approach and can be applied to basic color-based clustering tasks, such as separating healthy strawberries from spoiled ones. In this type of application, the model can identify subtle differences in hue and saturation that may be difficult to perceive manually.

Although the results were satisfactory, a more pronounced differentiation between the groups could be achieved with some methodological changes. A larger set of paintings or the use of works from other artistic movements could expand the chromatic diversity available to the model. Additionally, different linkage methods, such as Single Linkage, or even the divisive approach to hierarchical clustering, could generate distinct clustering structures.

Other possibilities for improvement include the use of different color spaces, such as $L^*u^*v^*$, which more closely represents human color perception, as well as the use of other distance metrics, such as the Manhattan distance. Therefore, as a suggestion for future work, we recommend conducting tests with different color spaces, similarity metrics, linkage methods, and clustering

approaches, with the aim of improving the visual separation between the formed clusters.

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CHAPTER 12



LITERATURE, HISTORY, AND IDENTITY: DIALOGICAL PERSPECTIVES ON *NETTO PERDS SUA ALMA*

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ABSTRACT: This chapter analyzes *Netto Perde Sua Alma*, by Tabajara Ruas, as a literary narrative capable of challenging memories, revisiting identities, and problematizing hegemonic discourses surrounding the Farroupilha Revolution. The central issue addressed is understanding how literature contributes to the construction of critical consciousness and to the reexamination of historical narratives that shape the regional imagination. The objective is to demonstrate how the novel, by articulating multiple voices and perspectives, exposes ideological contradictions, reinscribes marginalized subjects, and reinterprets the foundations of Rio Grande do Sul's identity. Methodologically, this is a qualitative study grounded in a critical bibliographic review and supported by the theoretical contributions of Bakhtin (1981), Eagleton (2011), Said (1978), and Stuart Hall (2003). The analysis reveals the presence of polyphony, heteroglossia, and symbolic disputes that destabilize the traditional heroic memory, highlighting the importance of subaltern voices, such as those of the Black Lancers, in the reconstruction of historical meanings. The findings indicate that literature can function as an agent of social critique by questioning power structures, exposing historical silences, and broadening the understanding of identity and collective memory. It is concluded that the novel not only revisits the past but also contributes to practices of symbolic resistance, reaffirming the role of literature as an ethical and political instrument in the construction of more plural, critical, and inclusive societies.

KEYWORDS: literature and history, cultural identity, collective memory, subaltern voices, ideological critique, dialogism.

1. INTRODUCTION

“Literature is language laden with meaning.”
Ezra Pound

Literature occupies a unique place in the construction of meanings, identities, and memories, serving as a privileged space for symbolic contestation and the critical reconstruction of history. At the intersection of fiction and reality, literary works are not limited to representing events; they offer interpretations that engage with, challenge, or reconfigure official narratives. In this sense, *Netto Perde sua Alma* (1995), by Tabajara Ruas, stands as an emblematic example of literature’s power as an instrument of historical reflection and the reworking of identity, especially in the context of Rio Grande do Sul, where memories of the Farroupilha Revolution continue to shape collective imaginaries.

By revisiting episodes of the Farroupilha uprising and the Paraguayan War, the novel weaves together fictional and documentary elements to construct a critical reading of regional and national history. In doing so, it challenges the heroic view traditionally ascribed to Farroupilha leaders and sheds light on profound contradictions: the failure of republican ideals, the exclusion of marginalized groups—particularly Black lancers—and the symbolic manipulation that transforms defeats, alliances, and betrayals into founding myths. Thus, the work explores the tension between historiography and fiction, revealing that every historical narrative is also a discursive construction permeated by choices, omissions, and power struggles.

The complexity of this interplay between literature, history, and identity finds theoretical support in Bakhtin (1981), Eagleton (2011), and Said (1978). Bakhtin (1981) contributes the notions of dialogism and polyphony, which are essential for understanding the interweaving of voices that permeates the novel and its critical function. Eagleton (2011) offers insights for conceiving literature as an ideological arena in which structures of domination are inscribed and confronted. Said (1978), in turn, allows us to examine how cultural representations produce identities, legitimize discourses, and perpetuate hierarchies—a phenomenon evident in the marginalization of Black and Indigenous subjects within the Farroupilha narrative.

In addition to this theoretical contribution, expanding the chapter requires engaging with the foundations of cultural history and memory. Authors such as Le Goff (1990), Pesavento (2002), and Ricoeur (2009) are essential for understanding how the uses of the past—whether celebratory, critical, or revisionist—constitute tools for identity formation. The Farroupilha Revolution, in this sense, is not merely a historical event but a symbol that is continually reinterpreted—sometimes as a libertarian epic, sometimes as an expression of the contradictions of a slave-owning elite that fought for autonomy while denying freedom to its Black combatants.

In light of these issues, this chapter revisits and expands upon the article previously published by the researchers, deepening the analysis of the relationship between literature and history and examining how **Netto Perde Sua Alma** functions as a counter-narrative. The aim is to demonstrate that Ruas's novel does not merely revisit the past, but critically rewrites it, exposing silenced tensions and broadening the debate on cultural identity, historical memory, and processes of exclusion.

The guiding question, therefore, is reformulated as follows: in what ways does literature, by reinterpreting historical events and incorporating multiple voices, contribute to the critical formation of identity and to the revision of hegemonic narratives about the past?

In answering this question, this chapter brings together theory, literary analysis, and historical reflections, reaffirming that literature is a privileged space for the construction of plural forms of knowledge and for challenging the structures that shape society. The text is organized into three sections: (1) a discussion of literature as a social and discursive practice; (2) an analysis of the Farroupilha Revolution and the identity of Rio Grande do Sul in light of Ruas's work; (3) an examination of narrative voices and representations of marginalized subjects, linking them to Bakhtinian polyphony and postcolonial criticism.

2. LITERATURE AS A SPACE FOR CRITICISM AND SOCIAL TRANSFORMATION

When viewed from a discursive and historical perspective, literature transcends the boundaries of the aesthetic realm and becomes a privileged form of social knowledge. Literary narrative represents reality **while simultaneously** challenging, interpreting, and reconfiguring it, functioning as a space of symbolic contestation in which identities are produced, memories are mobilized, and ideologies are confronted. This conception allows us to understand how works that revisit historical events—such as *Netto Perde Sua Alma* (*Netto Loses His Soul*), ex - serve a dual function: while evoking the past, they critically rewrite it, highlighting silences, contradictions, and omissions.

From a theoretical standpoint, three dimensions interconnect to underpin this reading: Bakhtinian dialogism, Eagletonian ideological criticism, and Said's postcolonial perspective. These authors play a fundamental role in offering tools for critical reflection and social transformation, as they challenge dominant narratives and give visibility to marginalized experiences.

For Bakhtin (1981), literature is a space of constant dialogue between different perspectives, in which the encounter of multiple voices enables the construction of new meanings and the critique of established power relations. In the novel *Netto Loses His Soul*, these voices clash, complement one another, or contradict each other, revealing the complexity of the discourses that constitute the social fabric.

In the novel *Netto Loses His Soul*, Bakhtin's concept of polyphony is fundamental to the construction of the characters, who are not merely instruments of the author's will but bearers of socially situated discourses. This multiplicity of voices manifests itself in the speeches of the Farroupilha generals, marked by heroic and ideological discourses of the nineteenth century; in the subaltern voices of characters such as Quero-Quero and Milonga, which reveal racial and political tensions; in the internal dialogues of the protagonist Netto, which express his moral and identity conflicts; and in the omniscient narrator, who weaves in comments, counterpoints, and judgments that broaden the narrative's critical perspective.

In addition to polyphony, another essential Bakhtinian concept for understanding the novel's discursive complexity is heteroglossia. The work creates a h y space in which different historical, military, popular, political, and colonial discourses intertwine and compete for meaning. Heteroglossia describes the simultaneous presence of multiple "languages," voices, styles, and worldviews within a single discursive formation, revealing language as a field of forces between centralizing (monological) and decentralizing (dialogical) tendencies. In the novel, this discursive plurality highlights how meaning is always contextual, ideological, and relational, allowing official voices to coexist and clash with subversive voices that destabilize certainties and renew historical and social interpretation.

This discursive multiplicity that runs through the novel dialogues directly with the conception of literature presented by Eagleton (2011), for whom every work is immersed in power relations and functions as a field of ideological representation. Literature, far from being neutral, expresses, questions, and denounces social structures, values, and hegemonies, especially when it revisits historical events. In this sense, literary texts can reproduce dominant discourses, expose contradictions between ideals and practices, highlight naturalized structural inequalities, and give visibility to subjects excluded from the official narrative.

In *Netto Perde Sua Alma*, this dynamic becomes evident: the novel reveals internal tensions within the Farroupilha Revolution, dismantles the homogeneous heroism present in traditional accounts, and denounces the instrumentalization and historical erasure of Black subjects. In doing so, the text retells the events and critically questions the ways in which history has been constructed and legitimized. Eagleton (2011) reinforces this perspective by asserting that literature is inseparable from the social conditions that produce it, becoming a space for ideological contestation in which conflicting worldviews clash.

Said's (1978) reflections help deepen this debate by highlighting how dominant groups construct representations of the "other" that justify social hierarchies and legitimize forms of power. Although his study focuses on Orientalism, his approach to the discursive production of otherness is extremely useful for understanding processes of marginalization in different historical contexts, including the Farroupilha Revolution. In the case of the Farroupilha

Revolution, it is evident that the traditional narrative has privileged white figures and military leaders, while silencing Black and Indigenous people as well as “poor workers. The construction of this “other” as a secondary or disposable figure highlights the extent to which official historiography has been shaped by political and racial interests. By incorporating voices such as those of Quero-Quero and Milonga into the novel, Ruas carries out a profoundly Saidian operation: he destabilizes hegemonic discourses, reconfigures the distribution of speech, and re-inscribes identities that have been systematically omitted or distorted by collective memory.

This critique of the selection and legitimization of certain voices is also supported by cultural history, particularly the contributions of Le Goff (1990), Pesavento (2002), and Ricoeur (2009). For these authors, history is not the past as it actually occurred, but a discursive construction, marked by disputes, silences, and interpretive choices. Literature, in turn, functions as a critical reinterpretation of this past, capable of shedding light on obscured tensions and questioning the political uses of memory. *Netto perde sua alma* operates precisely within this space of reinterpretation: by narrating events of the Farroupilha Revolution from a different perspective, Ruas dismantles established myths, revisits authoritative memories, and revalues individuals and experiences that have been marginalized by the official narrative. The novel thus becomes a space for dialogue between lived history, narrated history, and reinterpreted history, revealing the complexity of the identity narratives that run through southern Brazil.

In this context, the contributions of Stuart Hall (2003) are fundamental to understanding the implications of identity present in the work, as he argues that identities are not stable essences but rather historical and discursive processes constructed through representations. In the case of gaucho identity, this means recognizing that the figure of the “heroic gaucho” is the result of a cultural production that selected symbols, exalted certain values, and concealed the contradictions of a slave-owning past. The Farroupilha narrative, often celebrated as a regional founding myth, obscures structural inequalities and normalizes power relations. *Netto Perde Sua Alma* highlights these tensions by contrasting the republican ideal of freedom and equality with the reality of the exploitation and exclusion of Black people. The novel reveals that all identity is constructed

through dispute and conflict, and that rethinking these identities involves critically revisiting the discourses that underpin them.

3. THE FARROUPILHA REVOLUTION, MEMORY, AND IDENTITY: CRITICAL REINTERPRETATIONS IN *NETTO PERDE SUA ALMA*

The Farroupilha Revolution occupies a central place in the construction of Rio Grande do Sul's identity. Since the late nineteenth century, political, literary, and historiographical discourses have contributed to transforming the conflict into a regional epic marked by symbols such as bravery, honor, autonomy, and resistance. However, this process of mythologization has obscured profound contradictions, especially those related to slavery, racial hierarchies, and internal disputes within the movement. Reexamining this period therefore involves revisiting historical facts, as well as understanding how certain narratives were selected, enshrined, and naturalized as part of collective memory.

It is against this backdrop that *Netto Perde Sua Alma* (*Netto Loses His Soul*), by Tabajara Ruas, stands out as a work of critical reevaluation. The novel undermines the homogeneous and idealized view of the Farroupilha Revolution by highlighting internal tensions, ideological differences, and, above all, the exclusion of subalternized individuals who rarely feature in traditional historiography. By blending historical and fictional characters, Ruas acts simultaneously as a novelist and a cultural historian, questioning not only the events themselves but also the ways in which they have been narrated and interpreted over time.

Recent historiography (Pesavento, 2002; Ribeiro, 1976; Flores, 2004) demonstrates that the Farroupilha movement was marked by complex power struggles among ranchers, military officers, merchants, and popular groups, and that its "libertarian" character does not correspond to the social reality of the period. The Farroupilha elite demanded greater political and economic autonomy from the Empire, but did not advocate for the abolition of slavery, nor for the expansion of rights for subaltern groups. Thus, the ideals of freedom and equality, widely celebrated in official narratives, applied almost exclusively to the dominant sectors. These contradictions emerge forcefully in the novel, which highlights the gulf between discourse and practice and reveals that the Farroupilha struggle

simultaneously involved divergent political projects and symbolic disputes over the region's future.

By setting the narrative during different phases of Netto's life—from the Revolution to the Paraguayan War—Ruas highlights that the conflict transcends the military sphere, serving as an arena for ideological and identity-based tensions. In this way, the novel functions as a counter-narrative, challenging the heroic memory crystallized in the traditionalist imagination and making space for voices and experiences that have remained on the margins of official history.

This reexamination of the past engages with reflections on cultural history. For authors such as Le Goff (1990), Pesavento (2002), and Ricoeur (2009), memory, narrative, and identity are deeply intertwined dimensions. History does not correspond to the past itself, but rather to interpretations constructed according to disputes, interests, and discursive strategies. Literature, in turn, functions as a critical reinterpretation of this past, capable of revealing silences, contradictions, and mechanisms of power that underlie the consolidation of collective memory. In this sense, *Netto Perde Sua Alma* serves as an instrument of symbolic archaeology by unearthing obscured layers of meaning and questioning the political uses of Farroupilha memory. The novel reveals omissions in the official history, ambiguities in the conduct of leaders, and disputes over legitimacy that have often been omitted by hegemonic narratives.

Furthermore, Tabajara Ruas is part of a generation of writers and filmmakers dedicated to critically revisiting the southern past. His work deconstructs the epic figure of the Farroupilha hero by presenting Netto as a character marked by ethical dilemmas, political contradictions, and internal conflicts—a far cry from the image extolled by traditionalist discourses. This approach aligns the novel with the Bakhtinian perspective, according to which polyphony and discursive diversity erode absolute truths and reveal the complexity of historical experience. By exposing political disputes among leaders, questioning the conduct of the war, and highlighting the precarious nature of the social relations that sustained the movement, Ruas demonstrates how founding myths were selectively constructed and how certain voices were silenced.

The gaucho identity, often associated with courage, autonomy, and the republican spirit, must be understood, in the light of Stuart Hall (2003), as a discursive construction rather than a cultural essence. Traditionalist and “”

discourses have naturalized images such as that of the warrior gaúcho and the heroic rancher, erasing the tensions of class, race, and gender present in the region's historical formation. In the novel, these contradictions become evident when characters such as Quero-Quero and Milonga denounce the abandonment of the Black Lancers after the war, revealing that the Farroupilha ideals were never extended to Black combatants, who were betrayed and handed over to the enemy. By incorporating these voices, Ruas reinterprets silenced subjectivities and dismantles the homogeneous narrative that presents "gaúcho-ness" as a pure and harmonious identity.

Finally, the novel demonstrates that the use of historical elements is not aimed at a faithful reproduction of the facts, but at the creation of a symbolic space in which history can be interrogated. According to Reis (1998), the contemporary historical novel does not seek documentary fidelity, but rather a critical reinterpretation of the past. *Netto Perde sua Alma* challenges official accounts, problematizes selective regional memory, reframes the participation of marginalized subjects, and dismantles the monolithic heroism of the Farroupilha leaders. Literature thus becomes fertile ground for the confrontation between celebratory discourses and concrete experiences of exploitation, violence, and erasure, offering readers the opportunity to rethink the past and its implications for the formation of contemporary identity.

4. NARRATIVES OF IDENTITY AND RESISTANCE: AN EXPANDED ANALYSIS OF THE VOICES IN *NETTO PERDE SUA ALMA*

In *Netto Perde Sua Alma* by Tabajara Ruas, narrative voices alternate strategically, reflecting the importance these narrative instances assume in the work's construction. The novel weaves a deeply polyphonic narrative fabric in which multiple voices intertwine, contest meanings, and reveal different perspectives on the Farroupilha Revolution and its aftermath. This discursive multiplicity is not merely an aesthetic device but a critical strategy: by juxtaposing hegemonic and subaltern voices, the text exposes fissures in historical memory and challenges the reader to reconsider the ideological foundations that structure the identity of Rio Grande do Sul. In this context, it is essential to analyze the role of the narrator, who, in addition to organizing and presenting the events, plays an

active role in shaping the narrative's meaning. Through the figure of the narrator, the work acquires a discursive structure in which the author, albeit with partial control, directs processes of signification that highlight specific social and historical aspects. What is presented in the narrative, thus, is not a mere reproduction of reality, but a fictional interpretation of an empirical world filtered through language.

This dynamic between narration and the construction of meaning can be discussed in light of the work of Mikhail Bakhtin, Terry Eagleton, and Edward Said. According to Bakhtin (1981), a literary work is a space of multiple intertwined discourses, reflecting the concept of heteroglossia: the coexistence of diverse voices, styles, and worldviews within a single narrative. Each utterance carries a social and dialogic dimension, as it is not limited to conveying information but expresses intentions, responds to other discourses, and anticipates future replies (Bakhtin, 1981). Thus, the literary text becomes a field of discursive struggles, in which different perspectives clash and meaning is continuously and dynamically constructed. In this context, the narrator goes beyond mere reporting, as he mediates, selects, and hierarchizes voices, highlighting tensions, silences, and ideological disputes that run through the plot.

Eagleton (2011), in examining literature as a social practice, argues that literary discourse is not a mere reflection of reality but a means of critiquing it, challenging power structures and dominant ideologies. In this sense, the fictional narrative is not limited to representation but reveals the social forces that underlie it. Narrative, therefore, can reinforce or subvert social, cultural, and political norms, functioning as a space for contestation. Said (1978), in turn, demonstrates that the narrative construction of "the other" is intrinsically linked to relations of power and domination. The narrator's choices—what to show, what to silence, who speaks, and from whose perspective—shape identities, legitimize hierarchies, and define who is included or excluded from the authorized versions of history. In *Netto Perde Sua Alma*, these theoretical contributions allow us to interpret the narrator as an agent who simultaneously reveals and questions the mechanisms of marginalization present in Farroupilha memory.

The distinctions between narrating and showing, discussed by Leite (1993), also help us understand Ruas's work. When the narrator actively intervenes, he "narrates" the events, condensing them into a summary; when he

steps back, he “shows” scenes that unfold before the reader with a greater degree of autonomy. Genette (1995) distinguishes between the heterodiegetic narrator—who is absent as a character—and the homodiegetic narrator—who is embedded within the very story he or she narrates. In *Ruas*, an omniscient narrator from a heterodiegetic position predominates¹⁴, capable of accessing the characters’ minds, feelings, and contradictions. This formal choice broadens the critical perspective, as the narrator observes the plot from a privileged position, makes judgments, comments on the characters’ inner lives, and sheds light on the ideological dimension of the events.

An eloquent example of this approach appears in the scene where Bento Gonçalves, flanked by João Antônio and Davi Canabarro, approaches Netto, as seen below:

Bento Gonçalves made his way through the soldiers, flanked by
Generals João Antônio and Davi Canabarro, and shook Netto’s hand
“There are the four generals of the Republic,” Sergeant Caldeira said to
a wide-eyed Milonga.

“I earned this rank,” said Bento Gonçalves.

“I’m good at playing on a straight field,” replied Netto. (*Ruas*, 2005, p.
68).

This brief, seemingly simple scene encapsulates a complex web of meanings. The handshake between Bento and Netto, framed by the sergeant’s comment, symbolizes the consecration of leadership and the construction of a narrative of power— “the four generals of the Republic.” Bento’s statement— “I earned this career”—suggests a victorious self-image, linked to a political project aimed at establishing a new order. Netto’s response, however— “I’m good on the battlefield”—can be read as an affirmation of a more direct and pragmatic ethos, implying a perspective that is less triumphalist and more focused on the concrete experience of combat. The voices on stage highlight the coexistence of different perspectives on the Farroupilha movement: on the one hand, heroic euphoria; on the other, a more reserved and ambiguous stance. In light of Bakhtin (1981), the dialogue exposes the novel’s heteroglossia, since the utterances carry distinct and, at times, irreconcilable values. In terms of E nd Eagleton, the scene reveals

¹⁴ According to Genette (1995), a heterodiegetic narrator is one who is not part of the universe of the story being told as a character, but rather occupies a position outside the events. Depending on the focalization adopted, such a narrator may possess varying levels of knowledge about the characters and events in the narrative.

the narrative's ideological dimension, for beneath the seemingly consensual gesture of a handshake, plans for the future and disputes over legitimacy are taking shape. Drawing on Said (1978), one can see how certain voices—those of generals, “men of power”—set the parameters of the discourse, while others remain, at that moment, in the position of subordinate observers, such as Milonga.

Another decisive moment in the narrative, in which the omniscient narrator's intervention and the complexity of Netto's subjectivity are accentuated, appears in the hospital scene, marked by the presence of the character's inner voices,

Major Ramírez's bed creaks. Netto is on alert. Major Ramírez, talks in his sleep, uttering unintelligible words, profanities, and combat orders. Everyone says Major Ramírez is a hero. He'll receive a promotion and a medal when he's discharged from the hospital. A fate quite different from that of Captain de los Santos. Poor fool! Why did he go and challenge Lieutenant Colonel Fointainebleux? Nothing will happen to Lieutenant Colonel Fointainebleux. (...) Thinking it over, thinking clearly, under these circumstances, the most decent thing to do is to kill Lieutenant Colonel Fointainebleux. “Very good, old Indian, that's the way to do it,” said the good-natured voice inside him. “There's a scalpel in the dresser drawer,” added the childlike voice, in an innocent tone. (Ruas, 2005, pp. 19–20).

The passage reveals an internal polyphony in Netto's thought. The “good-natured” and “childlike” voices function as materializations of ethical conflicts, drives, and contradictory affections. Bakhtin (1981) helps us understand this interplay of voices as an expression of the dialogicity that constitutes consciousness: there is no monolithic “self,” but rather a subject traversed by conflicting social discourses. Netto oscillates between his perception of the injustice committed against Captain de los Santos, his cynicism regarding Fointainebleux's impunity, and his fantasy of revenge. The self-designation “old Indian” also alludes to cultural hierarchies and markers of identity inscribed in the character's body and language, bringing the analysis closer to Said's (1978) work on the internalization of stigmas and the subject's position between belonging and exclusion. From Eagleton's (2011) perspective, the scene reveals a critique of military ideology and the notion of heroism, as it contrasts the official image of the “hero” Ramírez with Netto's moral doubts and the structural violence masked by military decorations.

In addition to the voices associated with the core group of officers and the figure of Netto, the novel incorporates the speech of Black characters who have historically been silenced by the h d historiography of the Farroupilha Revolution. The presence of Quero-Quero and Milonga becomes fundamental to destabilizing the heroic narrative and denouncing the betrayal suffered by the Black Lancers. In the dialogue between these characters, we read:

Quero-Quero asks the sergeant [...] “We fought for the Republic for ten years—doesn’t that give us any rights?”
Milonga adds, “The Republicans lied to us [...] as long as they needed us for the war, they spoke of liberty, equality, and fraternity. When the war ended, they handed us over to the imperialists.” (Ruas, 2005, p. 93).

The quote highlights the disillusionment of those who fought under the banner of “liberty, equality, and fraternity” but were cast aside at the end of the conflict. The resentment of Quero-Quero and Milonga reveals the chasm between the republican ideal and the practice of slavery, showing that the promised rights did not extend to Black people or the poor. In Bakhtinian terms, this represents the emergence of previously marginalized voices, which, by entering the narrative, create a dialogical tension with the official discourse. According to Said (1978), the episode illustrates a process of constructing the “other” as a disposable subject: used as long as they were useful to the war effort, the Black Lancers are later handed over to the enemy, highlighting the logic of exclusion that structures power relations. In light of Eagleton (2011), however, the novel reveals itself as a space for social critique by exposing the contrast between the proclaimed political ideal and the perpetuation of structural inequalities. Literature, here, serves as a denunciation of the empty promises of the Republican leadership and the oppressive continuities in the postwar period.

Based on these examples, it becomes clear that *Netto Perde Sua Alma* does not merely explore the inner lives of Netto and the other characters; rather, it transforms their voices into instruments of critical reflection on power, identity, and memory.

The omniscient narrator, by interweaving scenes, internal monologues, and dialogues between historically unequal subjects, creates a space where different discourses clash. As Reis (1988) emphasizes, in constructing the

diegetic universe, the narrator formulates a discourse that organizes and conveys meanings, profoundly influencing the way the story is perceived and interpreted by the reader. Drawing on the contributions of Bakhtin (1981), Eagleton (2011), and Said (1978), the novel thus emerges as an arena of symbolic contestation, revealing the social, cultural, and ideological dynamics that shape both the narrative and Brazilian history itself.

5. METHODOLOGY

The methodology adopted in this study is qualitative in nature and is based on a critical literature review, combined with an interpretive analysis of a specific literary work. The research draws on the theoretical concepts of Bakhtin (1981), Eagleton (2011), and Said (1978) to ground the interpretation of the novel, seeking to understand literature as an instrument of critical reflection, historical revision, and the broadening of social and cultural perspectives. In this vein, the novel *Netto Perde Sua Alma* by Tabajara Ruas is examined through the narrative voices that emerge within it, with the aim of analyzing how literature can deconstruct hegemonic narratives and reveal silenced identities.

The first stage consisted of a review of theoretical and critical literature discussing the relationship between literature, society, ideology, and historical memory. This review provided a foundation for applying the concepts of Bakhtin, Eagleton, and Said, enabling an understanding of the discursive, identitarian, and ideological dynamics that permeate the literary narrative.

In the next stage, a critical analysis of the novel was conducted, focusing on identifying elements such as dialogism, subalternized voices, identity disputes, and the questioning of hegemonic narratives regarding the Farroupilha Revolution. The analysis sought to highlight how the different voices that make up the novel represent distinct social strata and reveal political, cultural, and historical tensions.

Subsequently, an interpretation of the discursive representations present in the work was conducted, highlighting patterns of power, exclusion, and resistance. Marginalized voices were identified, and the way in which Ruas, through polyphony and the construction of counter-narratives, challenges power structures and problematizes official memories was analyzed.

Finally, a critical reflection integrated the findings of the narrative analysis with the theoretical concepts employed, allowing us to understand how literature, by giving visibility to plural voices, operates as an agent of social critique. The analysis of *Netto perde sua alma* highlights literature's potential to deconstruct stereotypes, reconfigure identities, and promote a critical reading of historical inequalities.

6. CONCLUSION

A critical reading of *Netto perde sua alma* by Tabajara Ruas reveals that the novel goes far beyond the category of a traditional historical work. It is a dense narrative, built upon multiple voices and perspectives, that functions as a counter-narrative capable of challenging collective memory, destabilizing identity myths, and questioning the established accounts of the Farroupilha Revolution. By combining history, fiction, and cultural criticism, Ruas **does not merely revive the events of the nineteenth century** but reinterprets this past through a lens attuned to the social, political, racial, and ideological contradictions that shaped the formation of Rio Grande do Sul. The multifaceted narrative structure, guided by an omniscient narrator who moves between consciousnesses, thoughts, and moral conflicts, offers the reader a polyphonic mosaic that engages directly with Bakhtin's (1981) assumptions. The simultaneous presence of military, popular, intimate, and subaltern discourses prevents the crystallization of a single historical truth and turns the novel into an arena of symbolic confrontations. In this dialogic space, voices silenced by official historiography—such as those of the Black Lancers—emerge with critical force, revealing deep fissures in the ideals of liberty, equality, and fraternity often attributed to the Farroupilha movement.

A dialogue with Eagleton (2011) helps us understand how the novel exposes the ideological tensions that underpinned the construction of a heroic imaginary surrounding the Revolution. By highlighting the gap between republican discourse and slave-owning practices, Ruas dismantles celebratory narratives and invites the reader to reflect on the structural inequalities that shaped the country. Thus, literature assumes an ideological and political role,

functioning as an instrument of social critique and the denaturalization of historical hierarchies.

Said's (1978) postcolonial perspective, meanwhile, sheds light on how the work rescues subjects relegated to the status of "the other." Characters such as Quero-Quero and "Milonga destabilize the dominant narrative and reconfigure the identity contours of Rio Grande do Sul's history by denouncing the abandonment and racial violence suffered by Black combatants during and after the conflict. This re-enunciation of subalternized voices functions not only as a historical correction but also as an act of resistance, reaffirming that every narrative is a contest over representation and power.

The connection with Stuart Hall (2003) deepens the debate on identity, showing that the heroic gaúcho is a product of discursive processes that selected symbols, omitted contradictions, and naturalized inequalities. By portraying Netto as a fractured subject, torn between loyalty, guilt, disillusionment, and critical perceptions of the war itself, Ruas breaks with the archetype of the regional hero and reveals an identity-based modernity marked by instability and the tension between competing discourses.

Thus, *Netto Perde Sua Alma* contributes to a rethinking of the relationship between literature, history, and memory, showing that fiction can shed light on areas of silence, redress injustices in memory, and expand the range of meanings associated with the past. The work reaffirms that history is not a neutral mirror of reality, but a discursive construction subject to symbolic disputes, and that literature, by opening itself up to diverse voices, becomes a powerful tool for cognitive justice and social transformation.

In summary, Tabajara Ruas's novel demonstrates that revisiting the past also means revisiting the ways in which it has been narrated. By challenging hegemonic discourses, recovering neglected identities, and exposing structural contradictions, the work invites the reader to critically reflect on the processes by which the regional and national imagination is formed. In doing so, it reaffirms the ethical and political role of literature: to resist oblivion, to destabilize convenient truths, and to broaden our understanding of the Brazilian historical experience in all its complexity, conflict, and plurality of voices.

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